UNIVERSITY OF CALIFORNIA

Los Angeles

Catullus, Callimachus, and Martial:

Composition in Greek and Latin Epigram

A dissertation submitted in partial satisfaction of the

requirements for the degree of Doctor of Philosophy

in Classics

by

Gordon L. Fain

2005

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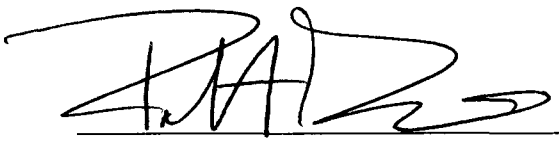
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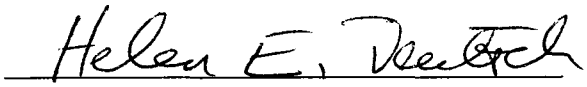
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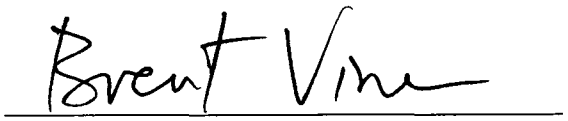
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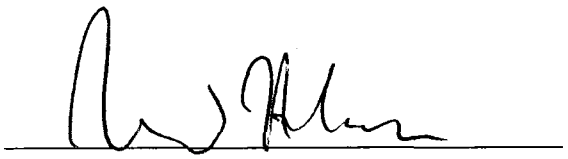
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To my father

When we are dead, our bodies come undone;
Our atoms float as water in a brook,
Reflect some other person's passing look,
And then disperse as vapor in the sun.
Leaves fall, snow melts, new branches fill with green,
The continents collide and we are there,
A residue of carbon in the air,
Too insubstantial to be heard or seen.
Nothing that we create will ever stay.
This earth, and all of life will disappear,
The sun condensing to a pallid sphere;
How can it matter what we do or say?
Somehow it does. Come closer, take my hand,
And we shall watch the universe expand.

(*November, 1995*)

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ACKNOWLEDGEMENTS

I am grateful to John Crook of St. Johns College, Cambridge, for many helpful discussions and for reading the manuscript, and to the late A. Guy Lee of St. Johns College, Cambridge, for suggesting that I look at Martial. I am also indebted to Helen Deutsch, Robert Gurval, and Brent Vine of the University of California, Los Angeles, and to Richard Hunter of Trinity College, Cambridge, who read the manuscript and made innumerable useful comments. My greatest debt is to Michael Haslam of UCLA, who guided this work from its inception, read the earliest drafts, reorganized my prose, and patiently corrected many errors. I cannot begin to express my appreciation for his generosity and friendship.

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ABSTRACT OF THE DISSERTATION

Catullus, Callimachus, and Martial:

Composition in Greek and Latin Epigram

by

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Doctor of Philosophy in Classics

University of California, Los Angeles, 2005

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Most surviving short poems in Greek and Latin are epigrams not written in stanzas but in elegiac couplets and in stichic meters, predominantly dactylic hexameters, Saturnians, hendecasyllables and iambics/choliambics. These include Greek and Latin inscriptions, the *Simonidea* and *Theognidea*, the poems in the *Garlands* of Meleager and Philip, most of the short poems of Catullus, the shorter poems in the *Anthologia Latina* attributed to Seneca, the epigrams of Lucillius and Nicarchus, the *Corpus Priapeorum*, and Martial. Because these poems all were written in the same meters and share a common tradition, they illustrate changes in the style of the short poem and illuminate relationships between the verses of different poets. With this in mind, I have investigated features of

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composition common to poems in both Greek and Latin, in particular the syntax of the first sentence, whether declarative or of some other form, such as an imperative or interrogative; the use of vocatives and explicit address; the structure of the poem, whether narration and description without a more formal organization, or with some rhetorical scaffolding such as parallel structure, antithesis, or logical argument; and the endings of the poems, whether motivated by a change in verb mood or syntax, by a change or repetition of address, by ring structure, or by "point". The short poems of Catullus are of two main classes, separated according to meter: C1-C60 containing mostly poems in hendecasyllabics and iambic meters, and C69-C116 exclusively in elegiacs. The elegiac poems are similar in composition to Hellenistic epigram, which in turn was strongly influenced by short elegy. The structural features of hendecasyllabic and iambic poems were also strongly influenced by the Hellenists but only by a certain kind of (predominantly erotic) epigram. Martial also learned much from the Greeks and in particular from Lucillius and Nicarchus, who wrote invective poems with a clever ending aimed at types; but the compositional style of Martial's poems owes more to Catullus, though Martial made much less of a distinction based upon meter in the style of his poems. Even the formation of "point" for which Martial is famous is greatly indebted to the practice of previous Roman poets. There are two appendices on vocatives in the *Theognidea* and composition in the *Corpus Priapeorum*.

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Introduction

Every poem is written in its own way. It uses words of a certain kind, addresses its subject from a particular point of view, and advances its argument according to a distinct design. Though each poem is unique, we may find common characteristics among many of the poems of the same poet, which we are apt to call their style. This will include their *composition*; that is, the way words and sentences are put together to make a complete poem. The form of composition of a poem can reveal basic assumptions poets have about their art. It was, for example, once taken for granted certainly by all ancient poets, as well as by Shakespeare and even the Romantics, that a poem should be written in complete sentences and give some form of organized discourse. This is, of course, no longer the case, and the reason why some poets write in one way and others in another goes to the heart of the poetic enterprise.

My intention in this work is to examine some aspects of composition in ancient poetry. My aim is to find ways of characterizing composition that are transferable (in so far as this is possible) from one language to another. This may make it possible to compare the work of poets who wrote in Greek and Latin, both to establish influence from one poet or body of poetry to another, and to describe more precisely than hitherto the changes in style that accompany changes in theme and constitute the history of the poem in antiquity.

Since one of my principal interests will be the comparison of poems in Greek and Latin, and since I am primarily interested in shorter poems, I have decided to restrict

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my study only to poems of a certain kind. The reason for this is that I must of necessity limit my attention to poems that have survived in their entirety–beginning, middle, and end. Only from the whole poem is it possible to see how the poet crafted his art. The survival of the complete poem may seem an obvious requirement for the study of composition, but for classical poetry this places important restrictions on the poems that can be examined. The sad fact is that, in Greek, only a very few poems in lyric meters (such as sapphics or alcaics) have survived in their entirety. This makes it very difficult if not impossible to make a detailed comparison of methods of composition, for example between the poems of Sappho and Horace. I have therefore decided to examine instead the very large number of surviving short poems in both Greek and Latin written in elegiac couplets and a variety of stichic meters, including hexameters and Saturnians (for archaic inscriptions), hendecasyllables, and iambic meters of various kinds (mostly choliambics but also iambic trimeters and senarii). I gather within this classification all the Greek inscriptions through the 4th century BC, the short elegiac poems attributed to Simonides and Theognis in the *Sylloge Simonidea* and *Sylloge Theognidea*, the poems of representative authors of the two *Garlands* (including those of Posidippus in the newly-published Milan Papyrus, see Bastianini and Gallazzi 2001), early Latin inscriptions and short poems in elegiacs, most of the shorter *carmina* of Catullus, the surviving poems of Lucillius and Nicharchus and those in the *Anthologia Latina* attributed to Seneca, *de Spectaculis Liber* and books I-XII of Martial, and the *Corpus Priapeorum* (Appendix II).

These poems share many characteristics, some of which I hope to illustrate in the

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course of my study. They are all what Martial refers to in I 1 (and in many other places in his poetry) as *epigrammata*, that is as epigrams. An epigram was originally an inscription written for a dedication, a tombstone, or a memorial, and the word is used in this way by Herodotus (VII 228) and Thucydides (VI 59.3)[1]. During the 3rd century BC, under the influence of the poetry of Theognis and other short elegy, the range of epigram was considerably extended by Hellenistic poets to include epideictic and love poetry. One of the Hellenistic poets, Posidippus, whom we now know from the Milan papyrus (Bastianini and Gallazzi 2001) to have written short poetry in elegiac couplets on a wide range of subjects including gem stones, horse races, and prophecy, is referred to in an inscription from Thermon in the middle of the 3rd century (*IG* 9^2 (1) 17 *A* 24) as an ἐπιγραμματοποιός, a writer of epigrams. His poems (and probably those of his contemporaries as well) were called ἐπιγράμματα, epigrams[2]. Thus by this time "epigram" had come to mean a short poem on almost any subject written in elegiac couplets or some form of stichic meter (West 1974:19). This is also what Martial meant by "epigram" (Reitzenstein 1893:104).

I too shall call these poems epigrams, though it is not at all clear that every poet whose poetry I shall be describing would have done so. This uncertainty is especially relevant for Catullus, who did not use the word "epigram" in his extant poetry and who made distinctions based on meter that Martial did not make. Nevertheless, all of the poems I shall be discussing are clearly related to one another, as we shall see, and the use of a single word is convenient and perhaps even appropriate.

I have excluded poems in lyric meters from this grouping not only because so few

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have survived in Greek, but also because these poems emerged from a different tradition, and their structure and composition show some features not present in poems in elegiac couplets and stichic meters. This is especially evident for composition at the end of the poem. A lyric poet could indicate the close in part by structural clues, for example from the progression of the stanza or the melody to which the song was sung. If the poem was performed by a chorus, the pattern of the dance may also have helped to signal the ending (Rutherford 1997:43). None of these possibilities were available for verse written in elegiac couplets or stichic meters, whose ending is much more likely to be dependent on the thematic content of the poem (Smith 1968:78).

I have restricted my study to short poems, since length affects structure. Our ability as a reader to bring together different parts of a poem depends to some extent upon our memory of what went before. The longer the poem, the more difficult it becomes to link one part of the poem to another, particularly in non-narrative poems. As a consequence, longer poems often have features of composition not shared by shorter poems. Short poems, on the other hand, have their own characteristics and constraints: what works in a short poem often would not work in a longer one. This is the reason I have excluded ancient elegy and the longer poems of Catullus[3]. The structure of these poems is of undoubted interest but has features not shared by epigrams.

Because I shall be looking at so many poems, I consider only certain features of their composition, which I have selected in the hope of revealing similarities and differences among the works I shall be discussing. I would not want to claim that these are the only aspects of the writing of a poem that are of importance. I shall, for example,

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have only a few things to say about meter, though this is a subject that could occupy a book all by itself (and has, for example, for ancient elegy, see Adkins 1985). I shall also have very little to say about vocabulary and word usage, though this again has been put to good use by others, for example by Ross (1969) for Catullus. Since one of my major aims is to compare certain features of style in both Greek and Latin authors, I have tried to limit myself to aspects of composition that poets of both languages might have used in common.

I propose to ask for these poems first how they begin. By this I do not mean what material the first sentence contained (as in Race 1992), but rather the simpler question of the syntax of the first sentence, whether an imperative or question or optative subjunctive, providing a rhetorical emphasis to the beginning; or a declarative sentence, as in many archaic inscriptions and most modern poetry. I then ask the related question whether the poem contains vocatives or any form of explicit address of the poet to himself or to others. Poems with vocatives nearly always have explicit address, but some poems without vocatives have second-person pronouns and verbs and clearly also address some specific person or thing. I discuss these distinctions in more detail later.

I propose next to look at some aspects of the *structure* of the poems. By structure, I mean how the words and sentences of the poem are given order and progression. Some poems narrate or describe as if without a formal plan of organization. Such poems may be carefully written with considerable attention to the sequence of detail, but they nevertheless give the impression of proceeding, as Valéry put it, *de proche en proche, sans plus d'organisation successive que n'en montre une traînée de*

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poudre sur quoi la flamme fuit (Valéry 1936:66). Others have some more formal structure, employing rhetorical elements such as temporal contrast, antithesis, parallel phrasing, or logical argument. Although it is not always possible to give a such a simple description, enough can be said about most of the poems in this collection to facilitate comparisons of structure among different poets.

Finally, I shall examine the endings of the poems, which are of surprising variety. Poems occasionally conclude by referring back to the beginning, called *Ringkomposition* (Otterlo 1944:133; for a more recent treatment, see Watkins 1995b:34-38), or with a witty remark called "point", especially in the poetry of the Imperial Greeks and Martial. Often the ending is indicated in some other way, perhaps by a change of address or of sentence syntax, or by the introduction of a verb in a different mood.

By comparing composition in the poetry of both Greek and Latin authors, I hope to provide some insight into changes in the style of epigram from its earliest beginnings to the poems of Imperial Rome. Let me give an example. If we simply count the number of epigrams that have a vocative or some other indication of explicit address from the poet or voice of the poem to some person or thing, we find that it is small among the archaic inscriptions in Greek written in dactylic hexameters (9%) and in the epigrams attributed to Simonides most likely to have been written before the 4th century (7%), but is much larger among 4th century Greek elegiac inscriptions (33%) and larger still in the passages of the *Theognidea* (57%). When we now look at a few representative poets of 3rd century Hellenistic epigram from this perspective, we obtain a figure about the same as, or a bit larger than that of the *Theognidea* (64 % in Asclepiades, 71% in

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Callimachus). A similar number of Catullus' short poems in elegiacs have explicit address (63%), but address is present in 90% of his poems in hendecasyllables and iambic meters. The percentage falls dramatically in the Imperial Greek poets Lucillius and Nicarchus (35% and 44%) but is 84% in books I-XII of Martial and–unlike Catullus–very nearly the same in Martial's poems in elegiacs and hendecasyllables. The implications of these percentages can be argued more convincingly once I have looked at the other features of composition I propose to investigate, but the trends they reveal are in accord with, and place on a much stronger footing these often held but still controversial views: that short elegy played a large role in the development of Hellenistic epigram (see for example Wilamowitz-Moellendorff 1924a:126), that Catullus' poems in hendecasyllabics and elegiacs show important differences in style (see for example Schnelle 1933; Svennung 1945; Ross 1969; Solodow 1989), and that the poet most important for the development of the form of Martial's epigram was not Lucillius or Nicarchus but Catullus (see for example Friedlaender 1886a:24-5; Reitzenstein 1907:108-9; Swann 1994:8).

I shall assume throughout that a comparison of features of composition in Greek and Latin poetry can be used as a tool to investigate patterns of influence among the poets I shall be studying. Claims of this sort have intrinsic difficulties; so many poems have been lost, and many poets are represented by only a small fraction of the poems they wrote, selected by anthologists according to criteria that can be deduced only imperfectly. I am aware of these difficulties. I think nevertheless that some inferences of this sort are defensible, as I hope to show during the course of my study.

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Every poet is deeply influenced by the verse of other poets. This is especially true of methods of composition, which all poets learn by looking carefully at the poems of their predecessors. Though the style that poets eventually form may be unique and the result of their own particular genius, certain features of their poems will nevertheless reveal, at least in part, those earlier poets who have been most important for the formation of their art. I cannot claim to have found just those features of composition that will do this for Greek and Latin poetry. I hope, however, that I have made a start in this direction, and that some of the conclusions I have drawn will define more clearly the affinities of style and patterns of influence that were responsible for the form of ancient epigram.

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Chapter 1: Composition in the Poems of Catullus

I begin by looking at the shorter poems of Catullus. I do this because these poems are among the best known of all classical poetry, and their composition has already been examined in some detail, particularly by Schnelle (1933), Bardon (1943), Schäfer (1966), and Syndikus in his commentaries (1984; 1987; 1990). Catullus will occupy a central position in my investigations, since he looks backward to Callimachus and the 3rd century Hellenists but forward to Martial. The familiarity of Catullus' poems will, I hope, facilitate the explanation of my method and the assumptions I shall be making in my analysis.

Composition in Catullus is of considerable intrinsic interest, since he wrote poems in different meters that have different characteristics (see for example Jocelyn 1999a), perhaps emerging from distinct literary traditions. It has, for example, been claimed by some that the short poems of Catullus in elegiac couplets (C69-C116) reflect primarily a Hellenistic tradition (La Penna 1956:150); by others, particularly D. O. Ross (1969), that the elegiac epigrams look back to older Latin epigram; and by still others, for example Morelli (2000), that the poems in elegiacs depend integrally upon elements of both Greek and Latin poetic practice[4]. An examination of methods of composition in Catullus' short poems may contribute to this discussion.

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Catullan Beginnings

I start by asking how the poems of Catullus begin, that is what sort of syntax is present in the principal clause of the first sentence of the poem. This is a more important determinant of style than might be thought. Although most twentieth century poetry begins with a declarative sentence in the indicative–in the *Collected Poems* of Philip Larkin, 90% of the poems start this way, that was not always true. Nearly a third of Shakespeare's *Sonnets* begin with either questions ("Shall I compare thee to a summer's day?"), imperatives ("No longer mourn for me when I am dead"), or constructions equivalent to an optative or hortatory subjunctive ("O, that you were yourself! but, love, you are")[5]. These add liveliness and variety, bring the reader into the poem by facilitating engagement, and contribute to the interest of the composition.

The poems of Catullus show a similar diversity. Among those poems from C1-C60 that are most likely to be complete[6], there are eleven that begin with questions[7], including the very first poem,

> Cui dono lepidum nouum libellum (C1:1-2)
> arida modo pumice expolitum?

The question may occupy only part of the first line of the poem,

> Quid est, Catulle? quid moraris emori? (C52:1)

or it may begin in the first line and extend through the whole of the poem, as in poems C33 or C60.

The placing of an interrogative at the beginning of a poem had ample precedent for Catullus. Callimachus begins his hymns to Zeus and to Delos with questions, "How

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shall I sing of you?", and five of his epigrams start this way–GP 31 (Pf 13, *AP* 7.524), 40 (Pf 15, *AP* 7.522), 44 (Pf 14, *AP* 7.519), 50 (Pf 58, *AP* 7.277), and 51 (Pf 4, *AP* 7.317)[8]. The initial posing of a question was a standard figure of rhetoric, described for example in *Rhet. Her.* IV, 23 and in Quintilian *Inst. Orat.* 9, 2, 7 (see Deroux 1989:213-3).

Eight of C1-C60 begin with imperatives[9]. The imperative may occur in the very first line, even as the first word, as in

Lugete, o Veneres Cupidinesque (C3:1)

or

Adeste, hendecasyllabi, quot estis (C42:1)

The imperative may alternatively be postponed by a sometimes lengthy clause introduced by a vocative, as in C11 and C25. The placing of an imperative at the beginning of a poem is again very old. In addition to both the *Iliad* and the *Odyssey*[10], an imperative is present in the first sentence of fragment 5 of Sappho (Page 1968:100) and fragment 356a of Anacreon (Page 1968:151),

ἄγε δὴ φέρ' ἡμὶν ὦ παῖ
κελέβην,

Both are likely to be the beginning of their respective poems. Numerous Hellenistic epigrams also begin with imperatives, including, of Callimachus, GP5 (Pf 29, *AP* 12.51), GP8 (Pf 42, *AP* 12.118), 23 (Pf 53, *AP* 6.146), 24 (Pf 54, *AP* 6.147), 27 (Pf 49, *AP* 6.311), 29 (Pf 21, *AP* 7.525), 33 (Pf 10, *AP* 7.520), 39 (Pf 60, *AP* 7.523), 52 (Pf 3, *AP* 7.318), and 61 (Pf 62, *AP* 6.121)[11]. Callimachus also began his hymn to Demeter in this way.

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Another seven of C1-C60 begin with an optative or hortatory subjunctive[12]. An optative subjunctive is found as the main verb of the first sentence of C17, delayed rather far into the poem and with a vocative of address placed at the beginning, *O Colonia . . . tibi . . . fiat.* Related constructions are the *mallem dedisses* in C24, *velim dicas* in C35, and *vellem displicere* in C54, also closely associated with vocatives. These subjunctives express an unfulfilled wish in present time or a polite form of imperative. Similar constructions are present at the beginning of many dedication inscriptions and passages in the *Theognidea*, as well as several Hellenistic epigrams, for example Callimachus GP 6 (Pf 52, *AP* 12.230) and GP 63 (Pf 63, *AP* 5.23).

Two of the polymetric poems begin with subjunctives in independent sentences that function nearly as imperatives,

> Vivamus, mea Lesbia, atque amemus (C5:1)
>
> Miser Catulle, desinas ineptire (C8:1)

It is not important for my purposes whether we regard these subjunctives as strictly hortatory, "let us live and let us love" and "stop being silly"; or whether we think of them as potential subjunctives, "we should live and love" and "you should stop being silly" (see for example Lee 1990:7-9). In either case the subjunctive does not describe or declare but exhorts or warns or advises.

There is finally one polymetric poem that begins with accusatives of exclamation,

> O rem ridiculam, Cato, et iocosam (C56:1-2)
> dignamque auribus et tuo cachinno!

This also belongs with the other constructions I have been describing, since it serves a

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similar function of providing a more dramatic beginning to the poem[13].

Questions, imperatives, subjunctives in independent sentences, and accusatives of exclamation are to be contrasted with the sentences that begin the remaining 30 poems of C1-C60, which start with declarative statements in description or narration, as in C4

> Phaselus ille, quem uidetis, hospites,
> ait fuisse nauium celerrimus,

or C13,

> Cenabis bene, mi Fabulle, apud me

The main verb of the principal clause in these poems is usually in the indicative, but there are three poems with subjunctive verbs in conditional contrary-to-fact statements. I regard these also as declarative. In C6 the contrary-to-fact statement is a prelude to the narration of the poem and gives essential information. Flavus wouldn't be so secretive if he didn't have something to hide. This is also true in C14,

> Ni te plus oculis meis amarem, (C14:1-3)
> iucundissime Calue, munere isto
> odissem te odio Vatiniano:

We are told that Calvus has given Catullus a present and that Catullus is not very happy. In C48, the contrary-to-fact statement occupies the whole of the argument of the poem in a single sentence.

Whether the verb of the declarative statement is indicative or subjunctive, it is in most cases accompanied by a vocative to simulate the presence of a person or thing, constructing a dramatic scene that adds immediacy and liveliness to the opening of the poem. Poems beginning with declarative sentences unaccompanied by a vocative are

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relatively uncommon among C1-C60, occurring only 11 times[14], almost entirely in the second half of the collection. In poems C1-C26, which (with the exception of C1 and C11) were probably among Catullus' earliest poems (Skutsch 1969:38; Skinner 1981:21-4), there is only one poem beginning with a declarative sentence without a vocative (C10). The proportion of poems in Catullus' polymetric collection that begin with something other than description or narration and a declarative statement is higher than in any other collection of short poetry that has survived in Greek or Latin (including Horace). As Schäfer (1966:16) put it, "The polymetric poems prefer an emphatic beginning"[15].

C1-C60 include poems in a variety of meters which must be distinguished from one another, since the choice of meter can have an important relationship to the style of the poem. This is perhaps clearest among the poems in sapphic or glyconic strophes (C11, C34, and C51, see Jocelyn 1999a:336), in which the material of the poem is organized into stanzas rather than line by line. Because of these differences, I shall give most of my attention, as I have said, to the poems in stichic meters, that is to the 40 poems in hendecasyllabics and the 12 in some form of iambic meter, of which 8 are in choliambics, 3 in iambic trimeters, and one in iambic tetrameters catalectic[16]. These poems are all rather similar in subject matter and composition, (see Fuhrer 1994), a point I shall return to later. There is, for example, little difference between the poems in hendecasyllables and those in iambic meters with regard to the way the poems begin. Of those in hendecasyllabics, 18 (or 45%) start with something other than description or narration, and 22 (or 55%) with a declarative statement (of which 15 with vocative). In

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the 12 in some form of iambic meter, 6 (or 50%) begin with questions, imperatives, and optative or hortatory subjunctives, and 6 (or 50%) with a declarative statement (of which 4 with vocative).

If we now turn to C69-C116[17], the shorter poems in elegiacs, we discover a marked difference[18]. Questions, imperatives, and optative or hortatory subjunctives certainly occur at the beginnings of these poems, as in

> Quid facit is, Gelli, qui cum matre atque sorore prurit et abiectis peruigilat tunicis? (C88:1-2)

or

> Desine de quoquam quicquam bene uelle mereri aut aliquem fieri posse putare pium. (73:1-2)

or

> Nascatur magus ex Gelli matrisque nefando coniugio et discat Persicum aruspicium: (C90:1-2)

These constructions are found, however, in only 11 of the 48 poems, about half as frequently as in the poems in hendecasyllabic and iambic meters. There is on the other hand a greater tendency among the poems in elegiacs to begin with descriptive or narrative statement without vocative; 20 of the 48 poems start this way:

> Nulli se dicit mulier mea nubere malle quam mihi, non si se Iuppiter ipse petat. (C70:1-2)
>
> Gellius audierat patruum obiurgare solere, (C74:1)
>
> Lesbius est pulcer. (C79:1)
>
> Lesbia mi praesente uiro mala plurima dicit: (C83:1)
>
> Odi et amo. (C85:1)

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The reason a declarative statement is much more common among C69-C116, as I describe in more detail below, is that the shorter poems in elegiacs are more likely to be reflective rather than momentary, logical rather than episodic, and consequently less likely to simulate discourse or to command action or attention[19]. This will become clearer when we look in detail at the structure of these poems.

Vocatives and Explicit Address

The higher frequency of questions and imperatives among the poems in hendecasyllabics and iambic meters, as well as the greater number of poems containing vocatives even in poems beginning with a declarative statement, point to a related aspect of the composition of Catullus' poems. The great majority of C1-C60 use language to construct a scene or situation from which the argument or narration of the poem proceeds. As a consequence, one important element of composition in these poems is explicit address by the poet or voice of the poem to one or more specified addressees. This together with the addition of other detail often of time or place provides a dramatic setting within which the action of the poem takes place. Address is sometimes accompanied by dialogue or some other form of reported speech, actually given in the poem as spoken (for example in C42) or recounted from some earlier time (C10 and C53). The poet may address himself in soliloquy, or someone or something else, usually a person but in eight of C1-C60, to a place or inanimate object[20].

This specification of a frame of reference in the poem by explicit address is

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another way of providing liveliness and seeming spontaneity (Schnelle 1933:37-44). It is common in Hellenistic love epigram and short elegy (see Chapter 2), as well as in the surviving fragments of ancient elegy, iambic, and archaic lyric poetry, as in Anacreon frag. 360 (Page 1968:153),

ὦ παῖ παρθένιον βλέπων

Catullus employed some form of explicit address quite often: it is found in over three-quarters of his shorter poems.

To see how he used this feature of style, I begin with poems addressed to someone or something other than the poet himself, perhaps a friend or an acquaintance, a village, or a manuscript of poems. The way he uses address does not seem to depend very much upon the nature of the person or thing addressed. Here is a poem addressed to a young woman:

C32

Amabo, mea dulcis Ipsitilla,
meae deliciae, mei lepores,
iube ad te ueniam meridiatum.
et si iusseris, illud adiuuato,
ne quis liminis obseret tabellam,
neu tibi lubeat foras abire,
sed domi maneas paresque nobis
nouem continuas fututiones.
uerum si quid ages, statim iubeto:
nam pransus iaceo et satur supinus
pertundo tunicamque palliumque.

Nearly the whole of the structure of this poem is built upon address to the woman, apparently a *scortillum.* As in all but one of C1-C60 (and all but two of the elegiac epigrams), the address is indicated by the use of a vocative, though whether *Ipsitilla* is a

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woman's name (see for example Quinn 1973:188) or a vocative of some other sort (Claes 2002:136) is not entirely clear. The vocative occurs in the very first line of the poem, as in the majority of polymetric poems and elegiac epigrams containing vocatives[21]. This has the obvious advantage of focusing the attention of C32 on a specific person or thing from the very beginning. The second line of this poem also contains vocatives that continue to address the woman, and the address is repeated with second-person singular verbs: in the first 9 lines there are seven, of which three are imperatives. The verb person changes to first only in the last two lines of the poem, and this together with the logical connective *nam* leads the poem to its ending . Many of the poems that employ direct address are composed in a similar manner, for example C6 to Catullus' friend Flavius, which again contains a vocative in its first line and uses both repeated second-person verbs and pronouns to structure the organization of the poem until the last two lines, where it also changes to first person; and C13 to Catullus' friend Fabullus, which has vocatives in both first and last lines and a similar concatenation of second-person verbs and pronouns.

In several of the poems, the addressee changes in the middle or near the end of the poem from one person or thing to someone or something different (Schnelle 1933:40). Change of address is rare among the elegiac epigrams (only in C76 and C109) but quite common among C1-C60 and frequently used by Catullus to move the poem from one subject to another. For example, C14 begins address to Calvus with the pronoun *te* and a vocative in lines 1 and 2 and continues to address him with second-person pronouns, pronominal adjectives, and verbs until the last three lines,

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uos hinc interea ualete abite (C14:21-3)
illuc, unde malum pedem attulistis,
saecli incommoda, pessimi poetae.

The change in address is signaled first by the word *uos*, placed strategically at the beginning of the line and of a new sentence, and then further emphasized by two second-person plural imperatives. In a similar way, C37 begins by addressing the *salax taberna* and the *contubernales* in line 1, continues to address the lovers until line 17, then changes to one particular *moechus,* whom we learn in line 19 to be Egnatius, introduced by *tu* placed at the beginning of the line. Much the same occurs in C27, which begins with address to a slave boy but changes in line 5 to *lymphae*, that is to water, with a similarly positioned personal pronoun,

at uos quo lubet hinc abite, lymphae,

Transitions of this sort are also common in the six of the shorter poems in which the poet addresses himself[22] (Bardon 1970:124). The first of these (C8) begins with the poet naming himself with a vocative and continuing the address with second-person verbs and personal pronouns,

Miser Catulle, desinas ineptire,
et quod uides perisse perditum ducas.

This continues until line 12, when the poet suddenly addresses the girl and uses a third-person verb for himself,

uale, puella. iam Catullus obdurat,

This signals a change in the mood of the poem, from recollection and self-reproach to anger and vituperation. The poem continues in this way until line 19, where the address

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changes back to the poet in renewed resolution,

at tu, Catulle, destinatus obdura.

The *at tu* addressed to Catullus mirrors the *at tu* earlier in the poem addressed to Lesbia:

at tu dolebis, cum rogaberis nulla. (C8:14)

A similar shift of focus occurs in C76. The poem begins with self address, although somewhat postponed: a vocative first appears in line 5, a second-person pronoun in line 6, and a second-person verb in line 10.

Siqua recordanti benefacta priora uoluptas
  est homini, cum se cogitat esse pium,
nec sanctam uiolasse fidem, nec foedere nullo
  diuum ad fallendos numine abusum homines,
multa parata manent in longa aetate, Catulle,
  ex hoc ingrato gaudia amore tibi.
nam quaecumque homines bene cuiquam aut dicere possunt
  aut facere, haec a te dictaque factaque sunt.
omnia quae ingratae perierunt credita menti.
  quare iam te cur amplius excrucies?

Much of the material in this first part of the poem is aphoristic moralizing, and the specification of these gnomic pronouncements to the poet himself is only gradually realized.

From line 10 through line 16, the focus of the poem is firmly on the poet, reinforced in these seven lines by a succession of four second-person personal pronouns and six second-person verbs. Then, in line 17, there is a sudden change in address at the very beginning of the line with a vocative *O di*, followed by the second-person plural pronoun *uestrum*:

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O di, si uestrum est misereri, aut si quibus umquam
extremam iam ipsa in morte tulistis opem,
me miserum aspicite et, si uitam puriter egi,
eripite hanc pestem perniciemque mihi, 20

From this point in the poem onward, second-person verbs are used only for the gods, and the poet reserves the first person for himself. As in C8, this change in voice and address signals an important change in the mood of the poem, from disappointment and resolution to something very close to desperation, as the poet finds that he is unable to release himself from torment and prays to the gods for assistance.

Almost all of C1-C60 have some form of explicit address by the poet to himself or to someone or something else (Schnelle 1933:39; Schäfer 1966:20). Among the first 26 poems, only C10 lacks it (Jocelyn 1999a)[23], though even this poem has a vocative *mi Catulle* (line 25) in direct discourse, as a part of the conversation between the poet and Varus' girlfriend. Among C27-C60 in the second half of the polymetric collection, there are only four poems that lack some explicit form of direct address by the poet or voice of the poem: C45, C53, C57, and C59, which are all exclusively narrative or descriptive[24].

C59 is a special case, since it does contain a second-person verb:

Bononiensis Rufa Rufulum fellat,
uxor Meneni, saepe quam in sepulcretis
uidistis ipso rapere de rogo cenam,
cum deuolutum ex igne prosequens panem
ab semiraso tunderetur ustore. 5

The verb *uidistis* assumes an unnamed group of observers to whom the poem is addressed, but the vagueness of its reference indicates that Catullus had no one particular in mind. It is possible, however, that C59 is only part of a poem, and that the addressees

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were specified in a part we no longer possess (Hutchinson 2003:207; but see Weinreich 1959:89-90; Thomson 1997:345).

Address in the elegiac epigrams is not as frequent. Twenty of the 48 epigrams lack a vocative[25], though five of these poems nevertheless have either a personal pronominal adjective or a verb in the second person. Of these, three (C73, C85, and C89) have a single second-person verb that does not appear to indicate any particular person. It is of course possible that Catullus wrote these poems with some specified addressee in mind, but there is nothing in the poem itself to show this. This is not the case with C104, which in its last line has both a second-person pronoun and a second-person singular verb. For reasons I explain later in the chapter (see pp. 36-7), I think we are to read this epigram as addressed to Lesbia (see also Claes 2002:106).

There was also a specific addressee in C71:

> Si cui iure bono sacer alarum obstitit hircus,
> aut si quem merito tarda podagra secat,
> aemulus iste tuus, qui uestrum exercet amorem,
> mirifice est †a te nactus utrumque malum.
> nam quotiens futuit, totiens ulciscitur ambos:
> illam affligit odore, ipse perit podagra.

The single instance of the second-person pronominal adjective *tuus* in line 3 must certainly have referred to some specific person[26], though the poet has left unclear who this person is. We may imagine it to be Catullus himself, as many have suggested (see for example Nicholson 1996-97:252). If so, this would be the only one of Catullus' poems in which the poet refers to himself in the second person without naming himself in the vocative somewhere in the poem. We might also think that *tuus* refers to someone

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other than the poet. It has been suggested that the corruption †*a te* may conceal the name of this person originally given in the poem (Kroll 1923:243; Goold 1983:190, 259). The syntax of the rest of the poem, however, indicates that the name is unlikely to have been given in the vocative. The *aemulus* or rival of this person, also unnamed, is likely to be the Rufus of C69 (Nicholson 1996-97; Claes 2002:50).

With these considerations in mind, I now make some general observations. Among C1-C60, explicit address by the poet or voice of the poem is very much the rule: 52 of 57 of the polymetric poems have some form of definite addressee, and 47 of 52 of the poems in hendecasyllabic and iambic meters. Of the five poems that do not, all but one (C10) occur rather late in the collection. Among the elegiac poems, some form of address is still quite common: 30 of 48 poems have a specific addressee, and only two of these (C71 and C104) lack a vocative. Nevertheless, the other 18 or 38% of the elegiac epigrams are not addressed to anyone or anything in particular, in comparison to only 10% of the poems in hendecasyllables and 8% of those in iambic meters[27].

The proportion of Catullus' poems with direct address is much the same in the poems in iambics/choliambics as in those in hendecasyllables. This reinforces a more general impression, that it is difficult to find any consistent difference in the style of composition between these two groups of poems, except for those imposed by the meter itself (see pages 32-8). The subjects of these poems are also similar, as many have observed (see for example Fuhrer 1994:97; Heyworth 2001:119-121). Poems in iambic meters are often invective, as one might expect from the tradition of verse in iambics or choliambics, especially of the Greek poets Archilochus and Hipponax; but the first two in

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Catullus' polymetric collection (C4 and C8) are *not* invective, nor is C31. Many of Catullus' hendecasyllabic poems though not in iambic meter are nevertheless invective, and it is only in poems in hendecasyllables that Catullus actually uses the word *iambus* (Cameron 1995:165)[28]. Poems in this meter were also influenced by the tradition of Greek ἴαμβος (Lafaye 1894:4-23). As Scaliger first pointed out, Catullus' hendecasyllabic C40

> Quaenam te mala mens, miselle Rauide, C40:1-2
> agit praecipitem in meos iambos?

is likely to have been based in part on a poem of Archilochus (frag. 172, West 1971:65),

> πάτερ Λυκάμβα, ποῖον ἐφράσω τόδε;
> τίς σὰς παρήειρε φρένας

Most of C40 can be reconstructed from this and other surviving fragments (Hendrickson 1925:155-7). At the beginning of C56, also in hendecasyllables, Catullus wrote

> O rem ridiculam, Cato, et iocosam, C56:1-2
> dignamque auribus et tuo cachinno!

This line echoes an epode of Archilochus (frag. 168, West 1971:62)[29],

> Ἐρασμονίδη Χαρίλαε,
> χρῆμά τοι γελοῖον
> ἐρέω, πολὺ φίλταθ' ἑταίρων,
> τέρψεαι δ' ἀκούων.

Callimachus in his book of *Iambi* mixed poems in different meters and dialects, some invective but many not; Catullus and the other *poetae noui* must have felt a similar license, which they also extended to their poems in hendecasyllables (Fuhrer 1994:105-6). The edition of Callimachus' poems that was known to Catullus (and also to Horace) probably contained *Iambi* 14-17 (see Pfeiffer 1949:216-25), the first of which was written

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in stichic hendecasyllables. Although many believe *Iambi* 14-17 were not a part of the book of *Iambi* Callimachus originally wrote[30], that is less important for our purposes than whether these four poems were included in the volume that made its way to Rome, as seems rather likely (see for example Fuhrer 1994:102-6).

The affinities of Catullus' invective verse with Greek ἴαμβος may in part explain the very high proportion of poems in hendecasyllables and some form of iambic meter that have explicit address. Address was a characteristic feature of the genre of ἴαμβος, not only in Archilochus and Hipponax (West 1974:32) but also in Callimachus (Acosta-Hughes 2002:91; Kerkhecker 1999:48). Although it is not possible to say what proportion of archaic ἴαμβος had an addressee, we can nevertheless note that vocatives, second-person pronouns, and second-person verbs are abundant in the fragments of Archilochus and Hipponax. From those few cases in which it is likely that we have the beginning of the poem, vocatives appear to have been common in the first line, often as the first word[31]. Vocatives are also found in the first lines of several of the *Iambi* of Callimachus[32].

The proportion of Catullus' poems having explicit address is lower in the elegiac epigrams. Catullus apparently thought that in some short poems in elegiac meter, an addressee was inappropriate or at least dispensable. Of the 18 elegiac poems that lack a definite addressee, 15 begin with a declarative statement[33]. These poems were written in a style different from the one Catullus used in most of C1-C60, as we shall see in greater detail later in the chapter.

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Poetic Structure

Another way of exploring how Catullus composed is to examine the structure of the poem, that is the way the words and sentences are assembled and given order. Although the nature of the structure of a poem is more difficult to determine than whether the poem begins with a question or contains a vocative, we can nevertheless identify at least some of the different methods Catullus used, and this may help place his art within the tradition of other Greek and Latin poetry.

Many of the poems in hendecasyllabics or iambic meters are narrative or descriptive and proceed *de proche en proche*, from one subject to the next as if in conversation. One poem that does this is C10:

Varus me meus ad suos amores
uisum duxerat e foro otiosum,
scortillum, ut mihi tum repente uisum est,
non sane illepidum neque inuenustum.
huc ut uenimus, incidere nobis
sermones uarii, in quibus, quid esset
iam Bithynia, quo modo se haberet,
et quonam mihi profuisset aere.
respondi id quod erat, nihil neque ipsis
nec praetoribus esse nec cohorti
cur quisquam caput unctius referret,
praesertim quibus esset irrumator
praetor, nec faceret pili cohortem.
'at certe tamen' inquiunt 'quod illic
natum dicitur esse, comparasti
ad lecticam homines.' ego, ut puellae
unum me facerem beatiorem,
'non' inquam 'mihi tam fuit maligne,
ut, prouincia quod mala incidisset,
non possem octo homines parare rectos.'

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at mi nullus erat nec hic neque illic,
fractum qui ueteris pedem grabati
in collo sibi collocare posset.
hic illa, ut decuit cinaediorem,
'quaeso', inquit, 'mihi, mi Catulle, paulum
istos commoda: nam uolo ad Serapim
deferri.' 'mane', inquii puellae,
'istud quod modo dixeram me habere,
fugit me ratio: meus sodalis–
Cinna est Gaius,–is sibi parauit.
uerum, utrum illius an mei, quid ad me?
utor tam bene quam mihi pararim.
sed tu insulsa male et molesta uiuis,
per quam non licet esse neglegentem.'

The poem tells a story and is one of the few in hendecasyllables or iambics/choliambics to begin with a declarative statement without a vocative, as I have said. Three characters are introduced in the first line: Varus, then Catullus (*me* and *meus*), and finally Varus' girl friend, *suos amores*. Detail is added in rapid succession, and the conversation proceeds in both direct and indirect discourse as if in no particular order, *incidere nobis sermones uarii*. This contrived spontaneity provides much of the charm of the poem. The narration proceeds unremarkably at first but takes a sudden turn in lines 16 and 17,

ego, ut puellae
unum me facerem beatiorem,

When Catullus then admits that he is lying and characterizes the girl as *cinaediorem*, the poem prepares us for the sudden outburst at the end. What is amusing is the way Catullus as the narrator of the poem attempts to justify his behavior. As many have pointed out (see for example Fitzgerald 1995:176), he tries to place himself in the right

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by complaining that the girl doesn't behave in a manner he considers to be *uenustus*, "comme-il-faut". But the broken syntax and harshness of the language emphasize his own embarrassment and special pleading, and the judgement of the last two lines reflects more negatively on him than on the girl (see especially Fordyce 1961:122-3; Syndikus 1984:120-1).

C55 is another poem that proceeds as if without a formal structure[34]:

Oramus, si forte non molestum est,
demonstres ubi sint tuae tenebrae.
te Campo quaesiuimus minore,
te in Circo, te in omnibus libellis,
te in templo summi Iouis sacrato.
in Magni simul ambulatione
femellas omnes, amice, prendi,
quas uultu uidi tamen sereno.
'† auelte †', sic ipse flagitabam
'Camerium mihi, pessimae puellae.'
'en,' inquit quaedam, sinum reducens,
'en hic in roseis latet papillis.'
sed te iam ferre Herculei labos est;
tanto te in fastu negas, amice.
dic nobis ubi sis futurus, ede
audacter, committe, crede luci.
nunc te lacteolae tenent puellae?
si linguam clauso tenes in ore,
fructus proicies amoris omnes.
uerbosa gaudet Venus loquella.
uel, si uis, licet obseres palatum,
dum uestri sim particeps amoris.

Like C10, this poem is also largely narrative, but it constructs a conversation by the poet to his friend Camerius and unlike C10 begins with direct address, first with *demonstres* and then continued throughout the whole of the poem by the repetition of personal pronouns, the vocative *amice,* and imperatives. The first two lines give the program of

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the poem: tell me where you are hiding. This is then followed by a listing of all the places the poet looked,

> te Campo quaesiuimus minore,
> te in Circo, te in omnibus libellis,
> te in templo summi Iouis sacrato.

joined together by repetition of *te* and *in*. This progression of place names and the continuing search of the poet to find Camerius provides most of the structure of the poem. The poet then makes one last attempt to convince Camerius: "If you won't talk, you will spoil all the enjoyment of your affair, since Venus likes gossip." This is hardly likely to get Camerius to change his mind, since fear of gossip is presumably why he is hiding in the first place. The sudden change of tack in the last two lines provides a witty conclusion. Fordyce (1961:231; see also Syndikus 1984:273 note 25) thinks *particeps* in line 22 may mean "privy to", that the poet is asking only to be let in on the secret, but it is difficult to see how this could happen if Camerius keeps his lips sealed. With Kroll (1923:99), I think we are obliged to accept a coarser interpretation[35].

A similar apparently informal structure is used in C42, *Adeste, hendecasyllabi.* The theme of the poem is introduced at the beginning and is then repeated and amplified, as the hendecasyllables are imagined to surround the girl and to call out loudly (*reflagitare*) for her to return the poet's notebook. The poem follows the order of the narration, though the different events are united thematically by the repetition of *redde codicillos*. When every attempt of the poet fails, *mutanda est ratio*, and the poem ends with a clever twist. What is important for the ending, however, is not the *ratio* but rather the *iocatio.*

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Poems such as C10, C55, and C42, which give narration or description often with verbal repetition but without more formal rhetorical elements such as antithesis, parallel structure, or logical argument are common among the polymetric poems[36]. They affect an informality that is essential to the style, proceeding step by step as if without a set plan of organization. A similar structure is used for many of the invective poems in hendecasyllables and iambic meters: the insult is simply accumulated with little in the way of formal organization, as in C33:

O furum optime balneariorum
Vibenni pater et cinaede fili
(nam dextra pater inquinatiore,
culo filius est uoraciore),
cur non exilium malasque in oras
itis? quandoquidem patris rapinae
notae sunt populo, et natis pilosas,
fili, non potes asse uenditare.

This poem begins with address to Vibennius and his son, who are called in turn a thief and a *cinaedus*, in the context of the poem a homosexual prostitute. After some amplification, the poem then tells them both to go to hell, and it ends with further insult: everyone knows of the father's larceny, and the son can't even sell himself for a penny. Most of the invective poems among C1-C60 are like this: the insults are strung together with little in the way of formal rhetorical structure. There are occasional exceptions but usually for effect. When the poem seems to be structured for example by logical argument, the logic is intentionally nonsensical or irrelevant. C16 has been the subject of considerable discussion from just this perspective[37].

There is one invective poem, however, in which rhetorical elements such as

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antithesis and parallel structure are an essential part of the make-up of the poem (Svennung 1945:26-9).

C49

Disertissime Romuli nepotum,
quot sunt quotque fuere, Marce Tulli,
quotque post aliis erunt in annis,
gratias tibi maximas Catullus
agit pessimus omnium poeta,
tanto pessimus omnium poeta,
quanto tu optimus omnium patronus.

The first three lines are given to exaggerated compliment. The phrase *Disertissime Romuli nepotum* seems a bit too exalted and is reminiscent of the *magnanimi Remi nepotes* of C58:5, where reference to one of the founders of Rome is clearly intended to be ironic (Syndikus 1984:248). The rhetorical repetition of *quot*, and the overly fastidious listing of present, past, and future (as also in C21 and C24, where they are certainly tongue in cheek) are additional clues that the message of this poem is not what it seems (Goold 1983:245)[38].

The poet gives thanks to Cicero in lines 4 and 5 and declares himself to be the worst of all poets. He qualifies this expression in the last two lines,

tanto pessimus omnium poeta
quanto tu optimus omnium patronus.

The parallel structure is provided not only by *tanto / quanto*, "by so much / by just as much", but also by the careful, almost compulsive placement in these two lines of *pessimus/optimus*, *omnium*, and *poeta/patronus* in exactly the same order. The dialectic of these lines is directly responsible for the insult, since it is this punctilious insistence

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upon rhetorical structure that compels us to follow the argument to its conclusion: "Since I am *not* the worst of poets, you cannot be the best of advocates." To imagine that Catullus might have intended this poem as sincere compliment to Cicero (as in Fordyce 1961:214) is to disregard every innuendo the poem supplies (see also discussion in Selden 1992:464-6).

When we move from the polymetric poems to the shorter poems in elegiac meter, we discover many more poems in which parallel structure, antithesis, and logical argument are essential components of the scaffolding of the poem[39]. Those features are not present in all–they are absent, for example, in C84, and they are lacking as well in C97 and C115. They become, however, so common among the elegiac epigrams that they assume a defining role in the style of these poems.

We see this in the very first of the short poems in elegiacs, C69:

> Noli admirari, quare tibi femina nulla,
> Rufe, uelit tenerum supposuisse femur,
> non si illam rarae labefactes munere uestis
> aut perluciduli deliciis lapidis.
> laedit te quaedam mala fabula, qua tibi fertur
> ualle sub alarum trux habitare caper.
> hunc metuunt omnes, neque mirum: nam mala ualde est
> bestia, nec quicum bella puella cubet.
> quare aut crudelem nasorum interfice pestem,
> aut admirari desine cur fugiunt.

This poem is invective like C33, and the addressee, a certain Rufus,[40] is named at the beginning, but the structure of the poem is otherwise quite different (see Hutchinson 2003:214). It proceeds by logical argument that is central to the organization of the poem. The first four lines tell Rufus not to wonder why he is such a failure with the girls,

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and they are counterbalanced by the next four, which give the reason. The final two lines then give the outcome expressed as antithesis, balanced between the hexameter and pentameter: either get rid of the goat, or cease to wonder where your love life goes. There is a clear progression of the argument, facilitated by logical connectives: *noli admirari*, and why? *laedit te quaedam*; then *hunc metuunt omnes*, and why? *nam mala ualde est bestia*. The syntactical units of the poem are apportioned into elegiac couplets, with every distich bringing to conclusion a principal or subordinate clause. This coordination of rhetorical structure with movement by couplets is characteristic of Catullus' short poems in elegiacs.

The only verbal repetition of importance in C69 is the placing of *quare / quare* and *noli admirari / admirari desine* at the beginning and end of the poem. Although some have claimed this to be ring composition (for example Stoessl 1977:23), it is not the repetition of these words that signals the end of the poem[41], but rather our perception that the argument has reached its conclusion. This and the change of verb mood to imperative are responsible for our perception that the poem has come to its end, though the verbal repetition certainly reinforces this conviction (see Syndikus 1987:3).

Another elegiac epigram with a somewhat different structure but also organized as logical argument is C75:

> Huc est mens deducta tua mea, Lesbia, culpa,
> atque ita se officio perdidit ipsa suo,
> ut iam nec bene uelle queat tibi, si optima fias,
> nec desistere amare, omnia si facias.

The first couplet states the difficulty: the poet can no longer reconcile himself to Lesbia's

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culpa, presumably her infidelity, or to his own dutifulness, his *officium*. These two lines are then balanced by the second couplet, which state the outcome in strictly parallel structure: *nec bene uelle* in line 3 is counterpoised by *nec desistere amare* in line 4, and *si optima fias* by *omnia si facias*. This similarity of syntax provides a similarity of sound at the end of the last two lines, and as in C69 the two parts of the antithesis in the second couplet are carefully disposed within the hexameter and pentameter.

An elegiac epigram with even more striking parallelism of phrasing is C87:

> Nulla potest mulier tantum se dicere amatam
> uere, quantum a me Lesbia amata mea est.
> nulla fides ullo fuit umquam foedere tanta,
> quanta in amore tuo ex parte reperta mea est.

There are two sorts of scaffolding upon which this poem is built. The hexameter and pentameter of each of the couplets are related to one another by *tantum / quantum* and *tanta / quanta*, with *tantum / tanta* confined to the hexameters and *quantum / quanta* to the pentameters. The two couplets are also brought together by the repetition of *nulla* at the beginning of the two hexameters and of *mea est* at the end of the pentameters (Schnelle 1933:27-8). These features combine to give an almost obsessive tightness to the poem, as if the poet is attempting to confine feeling within the most rigid possible form. This effect is facilitated by the elegiac meter, whose regular alternation of hexameter and pentameter provides the skeleton upon which this parallel structure is imposed.

In some of these poems, verbal repetition can also be an important part of the structure. In C78, for example,

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Gallus habet fratres, quorum est lepidissima coniunx
alterius, lepidus filius alterius.
Gallus homo est bellus: nam dulces iungit amores,
cum puero ut bello bella puella cubet.
Gallus homo est stultus, nec se uidet esse maritum,
qui patruus patrui monstret adulterium.

not only does the repetition of *Gallus* (and *homo est* in lines 3 and 5) provide a kind of structural continuity, but the caesuras in all three hexameters all occur at a syntactical break. Even so, the style of the poem is clearly different from, for example, C33: the argument proceeds in three sentences, each contained within a single couplet and each logically dependent on the others. Each sentence contains subordination that establishes logical dependence essential to the argument of the poem. Gallus joins the tender lovers *ut cubet*, so that they might sleep together; and Gallus doesn't see *qui monstret*, that he's the sort of uncle who teaches adultery.

Some of the poems are structured around a logical argument, for example C92:

Lesbia mi dicit semper male nec tacet umquam
de me: Lesbia me dispeream nisi amat.
quo signo? quia sunt totidem mea: deprecor illam
assidue, uerum dispeream nisi amo.

The poet is always giving Lesbia a hard time because he loves her. Since Lesbia does the same to him, she must return the feeling. The logic is skillfully inverted, with the conclusion stated first, followed by *quo signo*, and then the premise, but this isn't enough to conceal the faulty reasoning. Every lover knows that words said in anger may be, but are not necessarily a sign of deep affection, and it is this that gives the poem its pathos. The parallel structure of the two pentameters, *dispeream nisi amat* followed almost too meticulously by *dispeream nisi amo,* attempts to establish an explicit relationship

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between Lesbia's sentiment and the poet's own; but however close this relationship may be in the poem and, by implication, in the thought of the poet, is the possibility of error that gives this poem its suspicion of unease.

In C104, logical argument is, I believe, the key to the meaning of the poem.

> Credis me potuisse meae maledicere uitae,
> ambobus mihi quae carior est oculis?
> non potui, nec, si possem, tam perdite amarem:
> sed tu cum Tappone omnia monstra facis.

Fordyce (Fordyce 1961:392) says that this poem is "a reply to someone who has taken Catullus to task for hard words about Lesbia or has supposed that they mean a change of heart," and Kroll (Kroll 1923:277) is of much the same opinion[42]. Catullus is supposed to be defending himself against the charge of *maledicere*, of abuse of his mistress. We have just seen in C92, however, that Catullus freely admits he speaks ill of Lesbia and even claims that this is a sign that he loves her. This poem seems to be saying just the opposite. Quinn (1973:443) threw up his hands, "one cannot . . . with any confidence extract a precise statement from these tantalizing lines."

The solution, I believe, is in the last line. It hardly matters for the sense of the poem whether Tappo is an actual proper name (Kroll 1923:277; Wiseman 1969:28-9) or the name of a fictive comic figure (Fordyce 1961:393; Syndikus 1987:115); what is important is that the addressee of the poem, *tu*, does all manner of monstrosities ("aberrations", "deviations", see Rosivach 1978:207-212) with this Tappo. Now if these *monstra* are sexual enormities, as seems likely from the context of the poem, one cannot help thinking of Lesbia, *identidem omnium ilia rumpens* (C11:19-20), who

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nunc in quadriuiis et angiportis (C58:4-5)
glubit magnanimi Remi nepotes.

If the reader assumes that the addressee of the poem is Lesbia (Claes 2002:106; though see Thomson 1997:541), the last line would be *maledicere* of the same sort as that in C11 and C58. Just as she breaks the loins of all comers and "peels" the grandsons of Remus, she does all sorts of indecencies with this Tappo character. What the poet would then be saying is that he wouldn't be able to speak ill of Lesbia if he loved her. But since he can abuse her, and does in the last line of this poem, he doesn't love her. The conclusion is just the opposite of C92, as the faulty logic of that poem comes full circle.

What gives the poem away is the third line. It would clearly have been enough for the poet to say *non potui*. This should have finished the matter: I couldn't have done it, and that's that. But the poet protests too much: *nec, si possem, tam perdite amarem*, "nor, if I could, would I be so deeply in love"[43]. This provides the perfect set-up to the last line if the poem is conceived as written to Lesbia. "You think I could have abused you, you who are dearer to me than anything in the world? If I could, I wouldn't love you so madly. But see: I can!"

These examples are, I hope, sufficient to show that in many of the shorter poems in elegiacs, Catullus used a style of organization in part related to the meter itself, in which the statements of the poem were brought into rhetorical relation by parallel structure, antithesis, and logical argument. Many of these poems lack an addressee and are quite different in style from the majority of poems in hendecasyllabics and iambics (Schnelle 1933:36-7; Solodow 1989:318-9). The hendecasyllabic and iambic poems are

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more likely to proceed by description, narration, verbal repetition, and direct discourse; in six of them[44], the poet reports the speech of someone other than himself. In C69-C116, on the other hand, description and narration are usually replaced by reflection and analysis (Schnelle 1933:72-3; Svennung 1945:26-9; Lyne 1980:41-2), verbal repetition is present but usually less important to the structure of the poem, and reported speech in direct discourse all but disappears.

Catullan Endings

The *Catulli Veronensis liber* is the first collection of short poems in Latin sufficiently abundant to give a glimpse of the way an ancient poet brought a poem to its conclusion. Although endings in Greek and Latin literature have been the subject of much interest (see for example Roberts, Dunn et al. 1997), most of this criticism has been directed to the response of the reader, that is to "closure", which is said to occur "when the concluding portion of a poem creates in the reader a sense of appropriate cessation" (Smith 1968:36). My discussion will be considerably more descriptive. I shall attempt to delineate significant features of the concluding sections of the poems, putting to one side "the process by which the reader of a work comes to see the end as satisfyingly final" (Fowler 1989:78). Although the response of the reader is of undoubted interest, it is more revealing for my purposes simply to identify particular aspects of composition present in the endings of C1-C60 and C69-C116, with a view to comparing them to those in other short poems written before and after Catullus.

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The endings in Catullus are remarkable for their variety. Beginning with C1-C60, we discover poems that end with an exclamation of abuse, like a friend or lover in an argument raising his voice to have the last word. This is much the feeling in poems that end with accusatives of exclamation:

a tum te miserum malique fati! quem attractis pedibus patente porta percurrent raphanique mugilesque.	C15:17-19
o uentum horribilem atque pestilentem!	C26:5
o saeclum insapiens et infacetum!	C43:8

The ending of C53 has a vocative and is similar in spirit[45]. C10 has neither accusatives of exclamation nor vocatives but also ends in a raising of tone and invective.

Many poems end with some sort of concluding summary (Peden 1987:96), which can take various forms. Among the most obvious in organization are poems in which the summation is introduced with *quare* and an imperative:

quare habe tibi quidquid hoc libelli	C1:8
quare, quidquid habes boni malique, dic nobis.	C6:15-6
quare desine, dum licet pudico,	C21:12

The *quare* is a signpost to the summing up, and the imperative as often in Catullus changes the tone at the end of the poem.

Catullus provides a conclusion more subtly in three poems that end with a simile, introduced by *ut* or *uelut*[46]:

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uelut prati C11:22-4
ultimi flos, praetereunte postquam
tactus aratro est.

ferream ut soleam tenaci in uoragine mula. C17:26

uelut minuta magno C25:12-3
deprensa nauis in mari, uesaniente uento.

In each case, the simile caps the preceding argument but in a way that is more subtle than with the use of a logical connective. Another two poems conclude with an aphorism (Peden 1987:96), an ending which, as we shall see in Chapter 2, is attested even among the earliest inscriptions:

sed non uidemus manticae quod in tergo est. C22:21

otium et reges prius et beatas C51:15-6
perdidit urbes.

The adage summarizes by redirecting the argument to a different and more generalized context and ends discussion, much like the timely delivery of a *bon mot.*

One of the most common ways Catullus ended C1-C60 was to change verb mood or sentence syntax. Three of the polymetric poems (C1, C28, and C34) end with an optative subjunctive, in each case expressing the wish that ends the poem[47]. Over half of the 52 poems in hendecasyllables and iambic meters have either a question or an imperative in the last three lines, which in many poems brings an alteration of mood, as at the end of C9 and C45:

o quantum est hominum beatiorum, C9:10-11
quid me laetius est beatiusue?

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quis ullos homines beatiores C45:25-6
uidit, quis Venerem auspicatiorem?

In both of these poems, the rhetorical question has much the effect of a concluding cry and could just as easily be punctuated with an exclamation mark.

In other poems, the abrupt change from declarative statement to an imperative provides an indicator of the change of direction of the poem that leads to the conclusion, as in the three poems mentioned earlier with *quare*[48]. In each of these poems, the imperative that follows *quare* is the first imperative in the poem. Imperatives also play a central role in the ending of C50, in which a long series of indicative verbs giving narration is concluded with

nunc audax caue sis, precesque nostras, (C50:18-21)
oramus, caue despuas, ocelle,
ne poenas Nemesis reposcat a te.
est uemens dea; laedere hanc caueto.

The *nunc* at the beginning of this passage is the first hint that the poem is moving elsewhere and has somewhat the same function as *quare*. This feeling is reinforced by a series of three imperatives of the same verb, *caueo*. The ending is further emphasized by the placing the last of these imperatives as the very last word of the poem and in the future instead of in the present, to give it almost the force of a legal injunction.

The accumulation of imperatives at the end of C50 resembles in some respects the last stanza of fragment 1 of Sappho (Page 1968:98-9), one of the few poems of archaic Greek lyric whose ending we are reasonably sure we have:

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ἔλθε μοι καὶ νῦν, χαλέπαν δὲ λῦσον
ἐκ μερίμναν, ὄσσα δέ μοι τέλεσσαι
θῦμος ἰμέρρει, τέλεσον, σὺ δ' αὔτα
σύμμαχος ἔσσο.

This poem is in the form of a cultic hymn; an ending with an appeal to the god either with an imperative or optative in *du-Stil* is a characteristic of the genre (Ausfeld 1903:515; Bremer 1981:194-7; Race 1982:10-14). The imperatives in Sappho's poem are not all of the same verb and there are five instead of three, but they similarly shape the conclusion of the poem, with again an imperative as the last word.

Questions and imperatives demand attention or reaction and are often used not at the very end of the poem but just before it, to redirect or focus the argument, as in C40:

quid uis? qualubet esse notus optas? C40:6-8
eris, quandoquidem meos amores
cum longa uoluisti amare poena.

The question initiates the response that provides the concluding statement of the poem. C16 also has a question of a similar sort in the penultimate line, which is then answered in the last line of the poem. Catullus used imperatives in a similar way:

pete nobiles amicos! C28:13-5
at uobis mala multa di deaeque
dent, opprobria Romuli Remique.

amicos medicosque conuocate: C41:6-9
non est sana puella, nec rogare
qualis sit solet aes imaginosum.

In both of these poems (*cf.* also C32), the change of verb mood produces a change in tone that acts as the prelude to the concluding two lines.

In addition to questions and imperatives, 40% of the poems in hendecasyllables

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and iambic meters have at least one vocative somewhere in the last three lines. In several of C1-C60[49], the vocative at the end addresses the same person as a vocative near the beginning, for example in C13, in which the repetition of *Fabulle* from the first line (accompanied by *tu* and *te*) helps to bring the poem to its concluding "point". Similarly, *fili* at the beginning of the last line of C33 assists in the delivery of the final insult (see p. 30). The repetition of the same vocative at the beginning and end of the poem is a form of ring composition, if by this we mean the signaling of the end of the poem by the repetition of a word or phrase taken from the beginning (Otterlo 1944:133; see also Fowler 1987:61-2). An even stronger form of ring composition occurs in C16, C36, C52, and C57, which all repeat the entire first line of the poem at the end (Peden 1987:99). These are all scoptic poems, and the repetition of the line acts as a kind of parting shot.

A vocative near the end may also introduce a change in address that leads the poem to its conclusion; that is, explicit address by the poet to one person or thing earlier in the poem is succeeded near the ending by a different vocative to another person or thing (singular or plural), usually accompanied by one or more second-person verbs, personal pronouns, and pronominal adjectives. Change of address from one person or thing to another occurs near the end of about a quarter of the polymetric poems[50]. We have already seen two examples (C8 and C27). In both, the change of address is signaled by introduction of a personal pronoun, *at tu, Catulle* and *at uos . . . . lymphae.* This is quite common in the polymetrics as a whole: 11 of the 14 with change of address near the end are similarly accompanied by a personal pronoun or pronominal adjective[51], such as *tu*, *tua*, *tibi*, *uos*, and *uobis*.

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Here is one of these poems:

C28

Pisonis comites, cohors inanis,
aptis sarcinulis et expeditis,
Verani optime tuque mi Fabulle,
quid rerum geritis? satisne cum isto
uappa frigoraque et famem tulistis?
ecquidnam in tabulis patet lucelli
expensum, ut mihi, qui meum secutus
praetorem refero datum lucello?
o Memmi, bene me ac diu supinum
tota ista trabe lentus irrumasti.
sed, quantum uideo, pari fuistis
casu: nam nihilo minore uerpa
farti estis. pete nobiles amicos!
at uobis mala multa di deaeque
dent, opprobria Romuli Remique.

This poem like many of C1-C60 has an informal organization, affecting the casualness of discourse. It begins with explicit address by the poet to his friends Veranius and Fabullus, who are asked a series of questions of increasing length, the last about the profit they may have had from their tour of duty with Piso. The comparison of the experience of Veranius and Fabullus with Catullus' own experience evokes a sudden cry of anger and address to Memmius, the praetor under whom Catullus himself served in Bithynia. The poem then returns to Veranius and Fabullus for the three lines beginning *sed quantum*, and it changes address again at the end signaled by *at uobis*, followed a vocative *opprobria Romuli Remique*, presumably to Memmius and Piso.

A few poems predominantly in the second half of the polymetric collection have at their conclusion a witty ending, often called "point", as at the end of C39:

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ut, quo iste uester expolitior dens est, C39:20-1
hoc te amplius bibisse praedicet loti.

The barb is made more trenchant by the placing of the significant *loti* as the last word of the poem, something Martial does quite a lot, as we shall see in Chapter 3. Although a precise definition of "point" is elusive, C32, C42, C55 and C56 also have witty endings perhaps justifying the use of this word. C13 certainly ends like this, and as in C39 the significant word *nasum* is deferred until the very end of the poem.

We are left with 9 of the polymetric poems[52] that have no vocative, question, imperative, or optative or hortatory subjunctive near the end of the poem and that lack "point", simile, ring, exclamation, or *quare*. These poems come to the end of their argument and stop. All but one have a declarative statement at the ending whose main verb is in the indicative[53], though most also have some sort of subordinate clause in the subjunctive. C49, C58, and C59 are formed from a single declarative statement in the indicative. This has a particularly interesting effect in C58, since it gives the poem the feeling of a sustained emotional outburst that is responsible for much of the power of the poem.

When we turn now to the elegiac epigrams, we discover much less diversity at the ends of the poems. There are for example no poems that conclude with a simile and only one in which accusatives of exclamation play any role at the ending:

o lucem candidiore nota! C107:6-8
quis me uno uiuit felicior, aut magis †hac est
†optandus uita dicere quis poterit?

The accusatives are followed by a rhetorical question, similar to the questions at the end

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of C9 and C45 (see pp. 40-1).

There are no poems that repeat exactly the first line as the last, though several repeat vocatives at the end from the beginning, and C99 has many features of ring composition, as others have pointed out (see for example Schäfer 1966:24): the repetition of *surripui*, the first word of the poem, with *surripiam* as the last word, and the mirroring of *dulci dulcius* in line 2 with *tristi tristius* in line 14. Only one of the elegiac epigrams, C69, ends with a concluding summary introduced by *quare*. One ends in an aphorism (C94), though the conclusions of C70 and C93 may also be proverbial (Svennung 1945:30).

Vocatives play a much smaller role at the ends of C69-C116. The percentage of poems with at least one vocative in the last three lines is about half that of the iambic and hendecasyllabic poems of C1-C60, and it is about the same if we count all the poems or only those of 6 lines or longer[54]. The vocatives in the elegiac epigrams are never used to change address, which we saw to be quite a common role for them to play at the end of the polymetric poems. In several cases (C76, C98, C100, C101, C110, and C112), the vocative from earlier in the poem is repeated at the end, adding emphasis to the concluding lines. In other poems, for example C116, the vocative is part of the address introduced earlier in the poem and plays little part in motivating the conclusion.

There are also a bit fewer poems among C69-C116 with imperatives or questions in the last 3 lines[55], and they serve a somewhat different purpose. In the polymetric poems, concluding imperatives are more frequent than questions, and change of address is an important feature at the ending of many of C1-C60, as we have seen. In contrast,

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only 5 of C69-C116 have concluding imperatives, and change of address in these poems never occurs as a part of the ending. Imperatives can nevertheless play an important role, most notably in C101, where the last word *uale* actually says "good-bye" as the poem reaches its terminus (see Smith 1968:176).

There are 13 elegiac epigrams with questions in the last three lines, in most cases used to stimulate the response that provides the final statement of the poem[56]. We have already seen an example of a poem like this, C92 (see p. 35). Here is another:

'qui potis est?' inquis? quod amantem iniuria talis C72: 7-8
cogit amare magis sed bene uelle minus.

The question changes the tone of the epigram and focuses the summary of the argument in the remainder of the final couplet. Although in this poem the response to the question occupies a line and a half, in several of C69-C116 the response is given at least in the first instance by a single word: C77 (*eripuisti*), in C80 (*sic*, which here means "yes"), and in C104 (*certe*). The use of a question near the end of the poem to set up a concluding response is common in Hellenistic epigram. In Martial, who also often uses a single word as a response, a question near the end becomes such a predictable feature of style that it assumes nearly the nature of a cliché (see Chapter 3).

Some elegiac epigrams end in "point", though again there is considerable uncertainty how to define this term. What can be said with confidence, however, is that the majority of the elegiac epigrams do not conclude with clever word-play or an unexpected twist, with *Aufschluß* of the sort Lessing required from the best epigram (Lessing 1771/2000:188). This probably explains why Lessing had such a low opinion of

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most of Catullus' shorter poems, which he thought had nothing in common with true epigram except brevity[57].

When we now subtract from the total of C69-C116 the poems that end with vocatives, imperatives, questions, and optative or hortatory subjunctives, and those that end with "point", ring, exclamation, or *quare*, we are left with 15 poems[58] or about a third of the 48 epigrams in elegiac meter. These poems end with a declarative statement that concludes the argument of the poem, for example in C75 and C87 (see pp. 33 and 34). The majority also begin with a declarative statement or lack an addressee (or both). It is misleading to refer to these poems as "fragments" (as in Quinn 1973:398). They are complete poems but written in a style distinctly different from the majority of the polymetric poems. We shall see many more examples of poems like this when we turn to Greek inscriptions and the epigrams of the Hellenists in the next chapter.

In conclusion, both the polymetric poems and the elegiac epigrams end in many different ways, but the variety of endings is greater in the polymetric poems, and some components of conclusions prominent among the polymetrics, such as change of address, are absent from the short poems in elegiacs. C69-C116, on the other hand, are almost twice as likely to end with a declarative statement that lacks any special features. These poems end because the argument of the poem ends. This distinction is of interest, as we shall see when we examine the endings of the epigrams of Callimachus and Asclepiades in the following chapter.

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Catulli Veronensis Liber

I have now considered Catullus' shorter poems from several different though related aspects. My aim has been to provide tools to analyze features of their composition, so that I can compare Catullus to other ancient poets. One of the conclusions that has emerged is that meter and style are closely related. The poems in hendecasyllabics and iambics/choliambics were composed in a way that was often different from that used in the shorter poems in elegiacs. All Catullus' shorter poems have a variety of grammatical constructions at the beginning, but questions, imperatives, and optative or hortatory subjunctives are about twice as common in C1-C60 as in the poems in elegiac meter, of which fully three-quarters begin with a sentence whose principal clause is a declarative statement with an indicative verb. Many of the shorter poems are addressed to a specific person or thing, often named in a vocative and referred to with second-person verbs and pronouns, but among the poems in iambic and hendecasyllabic meters personal address is nearly the rule, whereas it is absent in a sizeable number of the shorter elegiac poems. The structure of the poems is quite variable, but the iambic and hendecasyllabic poems are more commonly built around narration, description, or verbal repetition without a more formal organization; the elegiac epigrams, on the other hand, more often use some kind of rhetorical structure or logical argument as their scaffolding, usually facilitated by the form of the elegiac distich. In both sorts of poems, "point" and ring structure are only occasionally used to signal the end of the poem, but Catullus very often changes syntax and verb mood near

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the end, and many of the polymetric poems and elegiac epigrams have vocatives, interrogatives, and imperatives somewhere in the last 3 lines of the poem. These are, however, more common in the polymetric poems and are used differently in the elegiac epigrams. C69-C116 are much more likely to end with a simple declarative statement without special features.

The conclusion that the polymetric poems and elegiac epigrams show important stylistic differences is not new, but I have described some of these differences in greater detail than heretofore and have, I hope, given this distinction a much stronger foundation. Schnelle (1933), who was the first to make an in-depth comparison of the style of these poems, concluded that many of the polymetrics are ultimately performance and cannot be separated from their time or subject (Schnelle 1933:42), whereas the elegiac epigrams are often *überzeitlich,* without reference to a particular time, existing independently of the poet or moment and proffering judgement and reflection (Schnelle 1933:72; see also Klingner 1961:220-2). Svenning (1945) found a much greater use of diminutives in the polymetrics (see also Schnelle 1933), as well as of compound adjectives, hapax legomena, and repetition. He claimed that the language in C69-C116 was more rhetorical and therefore more likely to use antithesis (Svennung 1945:26-9) and metaphorical expression (Svennung 1945:21-2). The conclusions of Schnelle and Svenning were accepted in large part by Elder (1951:111-2), La Penna (1956:147-9), and Schäfer (1966:15-23).

Ross (1969) made a considerably more detailed investigation of linguistic usage in the polymetric poems and elegiac epigrams and showed that, in addition to compound

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adjectives and diminutives, other classes of words also occur more frequently in C1-C60, including adjectives in *-osus* and *-eus*, abstract nouns in *-tio*, the words *ac* and *neque* (before a vowel), the exclamations *a!* and *o!*, and *que-que*. Jocelyn (1995:73-82) has argued that some of this difference in word usage is due to a propensity in Catullus in the hendecasyllabic poems to place certain types of words near the very end of the poem, in the last line or last few lines, perhaps because he liked the sound of a particular sort of word near the close (Jocelyn 1995:75). Some differences are also dictated simply by meter: words such as *ebrioso* and *araneoso* can be accommodated in an iambic verse or in the iambic part of a hendecasyllable but are impossible in the hexameter or pentameter of an elegiac couplet, as Ross (1969:56) clearly recognized.

The separate placement in the *liber Veronensis Catulli* of poems in iambic and hendecasyllabic meters at the beginning and those in elegiacs at the end is *prima facie* evidence that Catullus regarded these two groups as different. Although we cannot know how many of the poems were published by Catullus himself and how many assembled by later editors, some conclusions seem highly likely. Catullus clearly published at least one book of poems during his lifetime in which C1 was the dedicatory poem. It is certain that this collection contained a significant number of the polymetric poems. Although we cannot entirely exclude the possibility that some elegiac poems were mixed in with the poems in other meters (Wheeler 1934:48), there is no good reason to conclude that this was the case (Hutchinson 2003:211-2). The meanings of the words *libellus* (C1:1,8) and *nugas* (C1:4) have often been discussed[59] and cannot be determined with confidence. It is, however, rather likely that *libellus* in C1 refers to a collection of poems smaller than

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the entire body of work we presently have, since Catullus compares his own book with Nepos' three, and the force of this comparison would be lost if Catullus' book were unusually long (Hutchinson 2003:209). The word *nugae*, "trifles", is aptly suited to the polymetric poems but less suitable to the longer poems. Schmidt (1979:220-1) has argued that Catullus does not say in C1 that his *libellus* contained only *nugae*, but rather that Cornelius Nepos had a high opinion of this particular sort of poem; the collection could also have contained poems of another sort or perhaps even the whole of the work that has come down to us. But since Catullus chose to use this word in the dedication poem, it would have been odd if *nugae*, or *ineptiae* as he calls them in C14b, had not comprised most of his published book.

Throughout the polymetric collection, Catullus refers to certain of his poems as *carmina* and *poemata*, as *hendecasyllabi* (in C12:10 and C42:1) and *iambi* (C36:5, C40:2, and C54:6)[60], but never as *epigrammata.* It would be strange for this word never to have been used if all the short poems in elegiac meter had been originally mixed in with the other short poems in the volume beginning with C1. Elegiac epigrams would then have been the most numerous metric form, as was probably the case in Meleager's *Garland.* Such a collection would most naturally have been called *epigrammata*, since short poems in elegiac verse had been called ἐπιγράμματα at least as early as the third century BC and were probably so called by Philodemus, Catullus' contemporary in Rome (see Sider 1997:24-30).

C69-C116 may not have been published separately but together with the other longer poems in elegiac meter, that is with C65-C68. Both the first poem in this

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purported elegiac collection, C65, and the final poem, C116, contain similar phrases, *mitto / haec expressa tibi carmina Battiadae* (C65:15-6) and *carmina uti possem mittere Battiadae* (C116:2). This gives the appearance of a ring, enclosing a larger structure (Forsyth 1977:352-3; Skinner 2003:1-3). A separation of C65-C116 from the other poems in the Catullan collection is also supported by the manuscript tradition, since, as Ullman (1910:74-5) first pointed out, the Oxoniensis codex (O) shows a change in the method of indicating new poems beginning at C65. In the first line of each poem, the first letter is an illuminated initial of a distinctive style in the margin, followed by a second letter in capitals above and in line with the first letters of the other lines of the poem. Ullman concluded (p. 75) that it was possible "that the Veronensis or one of its ancestors was put together from separate *libelli* . . . and that a new *libellus* began with poem 65."

Many think that Catullus himself arranged the order of the poems, at least within a significant part of C1-C60, and that he may have published the whole of the collection we presently have as a single scroll during his lifetime[61]. The evidence for this is partly negative. There are no references to separate books of Catullus among later writers and grammarians, suggesting that all of Catullus might have appeared in a single book (but see Hutchinson 2003:209 note 13). The most important positive evidence usually asserted is the undeniable order within the collection, especially in the first half of C1-C60 including the cycles of poems about Lesbia and Furius/Aurelius[62]. The longer poems may also have been placed in a definite order, though there is considerable difference of opinion about the guiding principle[63]. Even the placement of the elegiac

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epigrams within C69-C116 is unlikely to have been random[64]. Most of the epigrams on Lesbia, Gellius, and Rufus, for example, are in the first half of the C69-C116, from C69 to C92; whereas all of those on Mentula/Mamurra appear in the second half. Even if we are willing to believe that Catullus himself is responsible for this order, the evidence usually cited is for order *within* C1-C60 or *among* the longer poems or elegiac epigrams, and this is perfectly consistent with the poems originally appearing in separate volumes.

Regardless of whether the polymetric and elegiac poems were originally published in different books or were placed in the same book but in separate sections, it is unlikely that the elegiac poems were ever placed side-by-side with the polymetrics. This, taken together with the numerous dissimilarities in the style of these two groups of poems, shows that Catullus treated poems in different meters differently (see Reitzenstein 1907:110-1; Jocelyn 1999a). Any attempt to compare composition in his shorter poems in elegiac couplets and stichic meters with that of the short poems in these meters by other ancient poets must therefore confront this important complication, that the methods of composition were not the same in the poems in elegiac meter and in hendecasyllabics and iambics/choliambics.

Catullus and His Predecessors

Suppose, therefore, we wish to compare composition in the shorter poems of Catullus with earlier Greek and Latin poetry. A reasonable way to proceed might be to group the poetry of Catullus' predecessors according to meter and then compare the

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frequencies of various grammatical constructions in the first sentence of the poem, the abundance of vocatives, the use of explicit address, the presence or absence of antithesis, logical argument, and other rhetorical features, and the frequency of vocatives, imperatives, and interrogatives near the ends of the poems, largely as I have done for Catullus in the preceding sections. An analysis of this kind faces an immediate difficulty. There are too few poems of most of Catullus' predecessors to make a comparison meaningful.

There are, for example, only a handful of surviving poems in Greek in hendecasyllables. There are two Hellenistic epigrams entirely in this meter, one attributed to Theocritus (GP 16 *AP* 9.598) and one to Phalaecus (GP 3 *AP* 13.6). In addition, there are several poems that mix hendecasyllables with some other meter: iambic dimeter catalectic (Callimachus GP 20 Pf 38 *AP* 13.24), iambic trimeter (Theocritus GP 15 *AP* 9.599), and archilochians (Callimachus GP 48 Pf 40 *AP* 7.728; Theocritus 11 *AP* 7.663) These poems are typical of Hellenistic epigrams in their composition and bear little resemblance in subject or style to the hendecasyllables of Catullus. None of the poems is erotic or invective, and only 2 of the 6 have any form of vocative (and never in the last three lines).

For early Latin poetry, we face a similar difficulty. Laevius, who may have written at about 100-75 BC (Leo 1914:180; Wheeler 1934; Courtney 1993:118), composed *erotopaegnia*, "erotic playthings", from which we have enough fragments to know that he wrote in hendecasyllables as well as iambic dimeters and choliambics. He also introduced diminutives, compound adjectives, and Greek loan words into his poems

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(Leo 1914:181-185), much as Catullus did. Of the neoteric poets (see Lyne 1978), L. Licinius Calvus (of C14, C50, C53, and C96) is likely to have been a close friend of Catullus (Reitzenstein 1907:99-100) and experimented with meter,

ludebat numero modo hoc modo illoc, (C50:5)

including hendecasyllables and choliambics. We have a single fragment in choliambics (frag. 10, Morel 1927:89) by another friend of Catullus, C. Helvius Cinna, the *meus sodalis* of C10 whose poem *Zmyrna* Catullus praised in C95. Of none of these poets do we have any complete poems.

For epigrams in elegiac couplets, the situation is fortunately quite different. Although there are only a relatively small number of early Latin inscriptions and epigrams, there are quite a respectable number of Greek, both inscriptions (collected in Hansen 1983; Hansen 1989) and Hellenistic epigrams. In the volume of poems from Meleager's *Garland* assembled by Gow and Page (1965a), there are 855 poems, most in elegiac meter. Although it is uncertain whether Catullus had read all of this work, he was probably familiar with much of the poetry of Meleager's collection. There are clear affinities of Catullus' dedication poem C1 with the dedication of Meleager, GP 1 *AP* 4.1 (Gow and Page 1965a:214-6); of the sparrow poems, C2 and C3, with the numerous epigrams on animals by Meleager and others (*AP* 7.183-216)[65]; of C4 with dedication epigrams, and particularly GP 6 *AP* 6.264 of Mnasalces (Gow and Page 1965a:141; see Braga 1950:190; Carilli 1975:928-32) and the nautilus epigram of Callimachus GP 14 Pf 5 Ath. 7.318 (Gow and Page 1965a:60-1; see Courtney 1997:117; Laurens 1989:186-7); of C46 on the coming of spring with epigrams on the same theme by Leonidas of

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Tarentum, GP 85 *AP* 10.1 (Gow and Page 1965a:134) and Antipater of Sidon GP 41 *AP* 10.2 (Gow and Page 1965a:25); and of C101 with an epigram of Meleager on the death of Heliodorus GP 56 *AP* 7.476 (Gow and Page 1965a:56). In addition to the poems in Meleager's *Garland*, Catullus may have also been influenced by later Greek epigrammatists. There is an evident similarity of organization of C13 to an epigram of Philodemus GP 23 *AP* 11.44 Sider 27 (Sider 1997:152-60), though whether C13 was influenced by Philodemus or Philodemus' epigram by Catullus remains an open question[66]. The influence of Greek epigram on the poetry of Catullus has been described in considerable detail[67] and will be further discussed in Chapter 2.

Of all the poets of the *Garland*, there is one whose epigrams we can be reasonably confident Catullus knew. The reason for this is that one of Catullus' elegiac epigrams has certain features of theme and composition that bear a remarkable similarity to those of an epigram of Callimachus, as many have remarked (see for example Kroll 1923:242-3; Hezel 1932:53-4; Fordyce 1961:361; Syndikus 1990:3-4). Here are the two poems:

C70

Nulli se dicit mulier mea nubere malle
quam mihi, non si se Iuppiter ipse petat.
dicit: sed mulier cupido quod dicit amanti,
in uento et rapida scribere oportet aqua.

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GP11 (Pf 25, *AP* 5.6)

ὤμοσε Καλλίγνωτος Ἰωνίδι μήποτ' ἐκείνης
ἔξειν μήτε φίλον κρέσσονα μήτε φίλην.
ὤμοσεν· ἀλλὰ λέγουσιν ἀληθέα τοὺς ἐν ἔρωτι
ὅρκους μὴ δύνειν οὔατ' ἐς ἀθανάτων.
νῦν δ' ὁ μὲν ἀρσενικῷ θέρεται πυρί, τῆς δὲ ταλαίνης
νύμφης ὡς Μεγαρέων οὐ λόγος οὐδ' ἀριθμός.

The subjects of the poems are similar: one lover pledges faithfulness to another, but these words cannot be trusted. In Callimachus' poem the infidelity is made explicit in the last two lines, but Catullus' poem stops earlier, leaving Lesbia's faithlessness implicit. There is a conspicuous repetition of *dicit* in lines 1 and 3 of Catullus' poem, mirroring a similar repetition of ὤμοσε in lines 1 and 3 of Callimachus' poem[68], both verbs of saying though of course different verbs and in a different tense. The second *dicit* beginning the third line is followed by *sed*, just as in Callimachus' poem ὤμοσεν beginning the third line is followed by ἀλλὰ (Syndikus 1990:4).

Those are, however, not the only similarities. Both poems begin with a verb in the indicative in the third person. Neither has a vocative or explicit address. Although there is considerable verbal repetition in both poems, the basic structure of both is built around antithesis between what the lover says and what he/she does (La Penna 1956:145-6). This contrast is emphasized in both poems by the placement of the two parts of the antithesis in separate couplets. The endings of both poems are declarative, neither is motivated by an imperative or question, and neither uses any form of ring composition. Catullus' epigram might be said to end in "point", emphasized by the placement of *aqua* as the last word in the line, but we might also view *in uento et rapida scribere oportet*

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aqua as simply the conclusion to the argument of the poem, probably proverbial. The ending of Callimachus' poem may also have been proverbial (Gow and Page 1965b:166). I would not wish to minimize the many differences between these poems in mood and expression, but the similarities in composition are nonetheless striking.

These considerations suggest that a comparison of composition in Catullus' shorter poems with that of the epigrams of Callimachus might be revealing. It is therefore to composition in the short poetry of Callimachus and other Hellenistic poets that I next turn.

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Chapter 2: Callimachus and Hellenistic Epigram

At the beginning of the third century BC, as the Greek world emerged from the upheaval caused by the wars of Alexander and his successors and entered a period of relative peace and stability, Anyte in Arcadia (Gow 1965b:89-91) and Asclepiades probably first on the island of Samos and then later in Alexandria (Knauer 1935:77; Fraser 1972:559; Gutzwiller 1998:122-4) began to write a new sort of poetry, based on a tradition of dedication and sepulchral inscriptions but deeply influenced by the style and content of short elegy (Wilamowitz-Moellendorff 1924a:126). The stimulus for this extraordinary flowering of Greek epigram is unknown, but the curious grounding of this poetry in actual epitaph and dedication, and its apparently independent emergence at about the same time in different parts of Greece suggested to Reitzenstein (1893:104-5; 1907:80-1) that inscriptions on stone must at some point in the late 4th century have been written down and assembled into books. These may have included collections of 5th century monument inscriptions attributed to famous poets like Anacreon and Simonides (Reitzenstein 1907:79-81; Gutzwiller 1998:47-53), or volumes of epitaphs and dedication epigrams recorded and assembled from various regions of Greece, like the Ἀττικὰ Ἐπιγράμματα of Philochorus or the later περὶ τῶν κατὰ πόλεις ἐπιγραμμάτων of Polemon of Ilion (Gentili 1968:42; Bing 1998:32; Argentieri 1998:2).

Whatever the initial motivation, the first writers of Hellenistic epigram wrote a new kind of verse that was to have an enormous influence on later Greek and Latin

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poetry. A careful examination of the poems of these poets reveals that they provided the structural model perhaps for some archaic Latin inscriptions and certainly for the earliest epigrams of Latin poets just after the appearance of the *Garland* in Rome near 100 BC (Gow and Page 1965a:xvi; Cameron 1993:56); then, somewhat later, they were the principal artistic stimulus for the poetry of Catullus and the other *poetae noui* (Clausen 1964). Many features of Catullus' short elegiacs, including the high proportion of poems beginning with declarative statement with or without direct address and the pervasive use of antithesis, parallel structure, and logical organization, emerged from the tradition of Hellenistic epigram and the poems of Callimachus and his contemporaries.

Mostly as a result of the survival of Meleager's *Garland* and the recent discovery of the Milan papyrus (Bastianini and Gallazzi 2001), we have a fairly large number of complete poems of many Hellenistic poets, including Anyte and Leonidas of Tarentum, the two most important 3rd century representatives of what Reizenstein (1893:121) called the *dorische Hauptrichtung* or "Doric school" of epigram [69]; and of Asclepiades, Callimachus, and Posidippus, arguably the most important poets of the *ionische Hauptrichtung* or "Ionic school". These poets all wrote verse epigrams in the form of inscriptions, most of which were never engraved on stone but were written for performance and publication. The poets of the Doric school wrote poems almost exclusively of this type: sepulchral epigrams about dolphins and crickets with many of the features of actual epitaphs, or dedication epigrams modeled on those customarily written on behalf of rich maidens about to marry, or victorious generals or athletes, but composed instead for prostitutes and rural craftsmen. The poets of the Ionic school

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greatly expanded the range of epigram (see Cameron 1995:77), writing erotic and epideictic poetry that had an even more tenuous relation to earlier inscriptions, but even these poets also wrote sepulchral and dedication epigrams largely intended for publication.

The grounding of Hellenistic epigram in the simpler poems that any literate Greek could have read on public monuments or in graveyards determined many of the characteristics of this poetry. Callimachus, for example, was much freer in the way he began his poems and in his use of direct address and dialogue than were the actual inscriptions that served as his model (see Hutchinson 1988:71-76); nevertheless, he also wrote some poems nearly as plain in their construction as the earliest Greek epigrams. These simpler poems served as the point of reference for the more elaborate poems, as the model from which his more sophisticated productions emerged (Gutzwiller 1998:209; Fantuzzi and Hunter 2002:448). Since Hellenistic epigram was ultimately dependent upon the form of inscriptions, it is with those earlier poems that I begin.

Pre-Hellenistic Epigram

The practice of writing inscriptions is as old as the invention of the Greek alphabet (Häusle 1979:140-55; Powell 1991:181-6). When the Greeks adopted from the Phoenicians most of the signs of their letters, they also adopted the Phoenician practice of using those signs to mark gravestones and other objects, and many of the very early Greek inscriptions were written in verse, that is as epigrams (Häusle 1979:140-1; Powell

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1991:183-5).

To describe the composition of these epigrams and their relation to Hellenistic poetry, I commence (as I did with Catullus) by describing how these poems begin, and how (and whether) they use vocatives or other forms of explicit address from the poet or voice of the poem as a part of the structure of the epigram. Many of the very earliest Greek inscriptions were written in dactylic hexameters and are quite plain in form. The first sentence is always descriptive, giving simply the name of the person buried or the god to whom the object was dedicated. Many do not have an explicit verb (see for example Lazzarini 1976:118-22); when a verb is present, it is in the indicative in all surviving hexametric inscriptions collected in Friedländer and Hoffleit (FH, 1948) and in the first volume of the *Carmina Epigraphica Graeca* (*CEG*, Hansen 1983). One of the earliest surviving epitaphs from Corinth (*CEG* 132 and FH 2) dating from about 700 BC says simply[70]

ΔϜεινία τόδε [σᾶμα], τὸν ὄλεσε πόντος ἀναι[δές].

Most early verse epitaphs are similar (Sourvinou-Inwood 1995:147-69): "This (is) the tomb of so-and-so", or "so-and-so (usually the father, see Heinze 1915:48) made or set up this tomb for so-and-so".

Early dedication epigram also begins very simply (Lazzarini 1976:111-136), most often with a sentence containing the verb ἀνατίθημι, "So-and-so dedicated such-and-such" (Gragg 1910:13; Lazzarini 1976:70-74)[71]. In many of these poems the object that has been dedicated is placed in the first person, as if speaking, a common feature of Eastern statuary adopted by the Greeks (Häusle 1979:146-50; but see Burzachechi

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1962:47-49) and found even in very early inscriptions in Italic languages (Agostiniani 1982:271). The following inscription (*CEG* 333) from a vase of black clay dating from about 600-550 BC says simply:

Μάρφσον δεῦρ' ἀνεθεκέ μ' 'Απέλλονι Πτοιῆϝι

The voice of the poem is the dedication itself, which speaks in the first person and addresses the reader of the inscription. The implicit address of this and many other inscriptions has recently been emphasized by Meyer (2005), who thinks this characteristic of early epigram, that a personified speaker is imagined to stand opposite the passer-by when the epigram is read, provides the prototype of a dramatic setting from which the form of speech of later epigrams emerged[72].

Epigrams of this sort, however, must be distinguished from other equally archaic poems in which address is actually made explicit. This poem from Thebes and dating from about 700-675 BC (*CEG* 326 and FH 35, see Powell 1991:167-9) is the earliest surviving Greek epigram in which the statue associated with the inscription is in the first person and makes explicit address, in this case to the god Apollo (Burzachechi 1962:4; see also Raubitschek 1968:12-21):

Μάντικλός μ' ἀνέθεκε ϝεκαβόλοι ἀργυροτόξοι
τᾶς δεκάτας· τὺ δέ, Φοῖβε, δίδοι χαρίϝετταν ἀμοιβ[άν].

The inscription is carved on the legs of a small bronze statue. The name of the person making the dedication is placed prominently as the first word, but as in *CEG* 333, it is the memorial that speaks as the passer-by reads the dedication aloud. Beginning with τὺ δέ, however, Apollo is invoked with a vocative perhaps still by the statue but perhaps now

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by the person making the dedication, and the god is asked for "splendid recompense", a *topos* in dedication epigrams (Geffcken 1917:24-4) as in Greek hymn (Ausfeld 1903:515; Bremer 1981:194-7; Race 1982:10-14). The vocative and explicit address to the god of the Manticlos epigram are striking, but this feature of style occurs in only 3 of the 36 dedication epigrams in hexameters in the first volume of the *Carmina Epigraphica Graeca.*[73]

The frequency of vocatives and explicit address among sepulchral epigrams is similarly low. In many of the hexametric poems the tomb is put in the first person, as in this inscription from Methana dating from about 600 BC (*CEG* 137, FH 27):

> Εὐμάρες με πατὲρ 'Ανδροκλέος ἐντάδε σᾶμα
> ποιϝέσανς καταέθεκε φίλο μνᾶμα hυιέος ἦμεν.

As the passer-by reads the epigram, the memorial itself seems to speak. Though implicit address of this sort is common, explicit address is much rarer. Of the 25 archaic sepulchral epigrams in dactylic hexameters, it is present only in *CEG* 110 (FH 5), *CEG* 141, and *CEG* 150 (FH 57). *CEG* 110 begins with the name of the deceased, with the verb (εἰμί or ἐστί) assumed. This is then followed by τὺ δέ, which marks the beginning of address, and then an imperative and vocative to the passer-by:

> Καλλία Αἰγίθοιο· τὺ δ' εὖ πρᾶσ', [ὦ] παροδῶτα.

CEG 150 begins with the name of the maker of the tomb; the name of the deceased may have been on the base of the monument, now lost (Hansen 1983:83). The beginning of address again to the passer-by is indicated by ἀλλά, followed by an imperative without a vocative:

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'Αλχσήνορ ἐποίησεν ho Νάχσιος· ἀλλ' ἐσίδεσ[θε].

The reading of the third epigram, *CEG* 141, is not entirely clear,

[-]ριχίνας τοι σᾶμα, φίλε Πολε[μαῖ', ἐπονέ]θε.

Explicit address is nevertheless guaranteed by τοι (*i.e.* σοι) and the vocative φίλε. This is one of the few archaic epigrams in which a vocative is addressed to the deceased.

Beginning in Attica at about 560 BC, elegiac meter became more commonly used (Hansen 1978:199-200; Lausberg 1982:105) and, by the beginning of the fifth century, had become the predominant meter in inscriptions (Wallace 1984). Accompanying the change in meter were some changes in composition. Although the majority of inscriptions continue to state with marked simplicity the circumstances of the burial or dedication (Gragg 1910:20-22) and to begin with description in the indicative, a number of epigrams commence with some other non-declarative form, usually an imperative but in one case (*CEG* 235, FH 116) an optative expressing a wish.

A greater fraction of the inscriptions (nearly a third) now incorporate a vocative or some other form of explicit address, in sepulchral epigrams usually to the passer-by or the deceased. The following poem (*CEG* 27, FH 82) is typical:

στῆθι καὶ οἴκτιρον Κροίσο παρὰ σῆμα θανόντος,
hόν ποτ' ἐνὶ προμάχοις ὄλεσε θοῦρος Ἄρες.

This is among the earliest of such poems, dating from about the middle or second half of the sixth century (Hansen 1983:19-20; see also Lausberg 1982:115-6). It is an elaboration of the simpler *CEG* 326 (FH 35), though now it is Ares who is the instrument of death (ὄλεσε θοῦρος Ἄρες) instead of the sea (ὄλεσε πόντος ἀναι[δές]). The line

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begins with two imperatives in rapid succession, establishing the address from the beginning of the poem. Although there is no vocative, it is clear from the rest of the epigram that the address is to the passer-by. In other poems, an imperative may be directed to the deceased, as in this epigram apparently to a doctor (*CEG* 127, FH86)[74]:

χαῖρε Χάρον. οὐδίς τυ κακῶς λέγει οὐδὲ θανόντα,
πολὸς ἀνθρόπον λυσάμενο⟨ν⟩ καμάτο.

From this beginning, imperatives with address to the passer-by or deceased became a not uncommon form of sepulchral epigram (see Lausberg 1982:115-8). It is sometimes said (see for example Geffcken 1917) that the more frequent occurrence of vocatives and explicit address emerged from the style of Greek monument inscriptions at the end of the Persian wars, from epigrams later collected in the *Sylloge Simonidea* such as the famous poem (*AP* 7.249) about the Greeks who fell at Thermopylae (22b in Page 1981:234):

ὦ ξεῖν', ἀγγέλλειν Λακεδαιμονίοις ὅτι τῆιδε
κείμεθα, τοῖς κείνων πειθόμενοι νομίμοις.

This epigram begins with an infinitive serving as an imperative[75] and is addressed to a ξένος, a "stranger" or "unknown traveller" (Dickey 1996:146-9), as often in later Greek epigram. Another poem from the *Sylloge Simonidea*, Page 49 (*AP* 7.254), begins similarly but is addressed to the deceased,

χαίρετ' ἀριστῆες πολέμου μέγα κῦδος ἔχοντες,
κοῦροι 'Αθαναίων ἔξοχοι ἱπποσύναι,

These poems, however, are quite exceptional among the archaic inscriptions attributed to Simonides. Of the poems in Page's collection from the *Sylloge Simonidea* that seem most likely to date from before the 4th century, only these two begin with something other

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than a declarative statement (22b and 49, Page 1981), and only three have any form of explicit address (11, 22b, and 49, Page 1981).

During the 4th century, explicit address continues to be found in about a third of surviving epigrams. Though imperatives still occur, they are less frequent, and a more common form of address in epitaphs is a declarative statement containing a vocative to the deceased, as in this poem (*CEG* 551), dating from about 350 BC:

σῶμα σὸν ἐν κόλποις, Καλλιστοῖ, γαῖα καλύπτει,
σῆς δὲ ⟨ἀ⟩ρετῆς μνήμην σοῖσι φίλοις ἔλιπες.

This epigram is quietly moving in the simplicity of its phrasing and feeling. As in a very large proportion of sepulchral inscriptions, the address to the dead person is expressed in terms relevant to a small circle of the dead person's family and friends rather than to the larger public passing by the tomb (Gragg 1910:30-1; Zumin 1961:214-20; Meyer 2005:94-5). The address fulfills one of the primary functions of epitaph, the provision of the name of the person buried (Gragg 1910:16-7; Häusle 1979:146-50; Ecker 1990:233-5). As in the majority of inscriptions of this kind, the vocative is in the first couplet, here (as often) in the first line, and the address is continued by the abundant use of second-person verbs, pronouns, and pronominal adjectives. Though epigrams like this, beginning with a declarative sentence and vocative, were written before the 4th century (the earliest–*CEG* 69–appears to date from the beginning of the 5th century), they become progressively more common. Among the 4th century inscriptions in the second volume of the *Carmina Epigraphica Graeca*, over 20% of the sepulchral poems in elegiacs are of this form. This change reflects the greater intimacy of inscriptions, directly

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foreshadowing a similar trend in Hellenistic sepulchral epigram.

The increasing use of vocatives in inscriptions may have been influenced by short elegy. At least some of the *Sylloge Theognidea* was available and read during the 4th century; we have several references to it from contemporary authors, including Plato and Xenophon (Reitzenstein 1893:55; Carrière 1948:56-84; West 1974:55-6). The *Sylloge Theognidea* is full of direct address. If we accept the division into separate passages in West (1971) which, for the most part, is supported by a change in subject matter and by manuscript tradition, there are 355 passages[76], in some cases perhaps complete poems but in many, certainly fragments from longer poems (see Bowie 1997:63-4). Of these, 135 or 38% have some sort of vocative, 75 either to Cyrnus or Polypaïdes, the young man Theognis was instructing, and another 60 to a variety of other people, gods and goddesses, wine, poverty, wealth, and so on. Another 19% have some other form of explicit address, indicated by second-person verbs, pronouns, and pronominal adjectives clearly directed to some specific person or thing. The proportion is even higher in lines 19-254, which West (1974:45) called the "Florilegium Purum" and is generally agreed to form a group of connected passages likely to have been written by Theognis himself. In this part of the *Sylloge*, there are vocatives in 29 of 50 passages, or 58% (see Appendix I), and some form of explicit address is present in nearly three-quarters of the poems.

In summary, the first Greek inscriptions were in dactylic hexameters of the plainest form, whose introductory sentence is without exception declarative and descriptive, and whose verb (when present) is always indicative. These epigrams, though often directed to the passer-by, only rarely incorporate vocatives or any other form of

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explicit address. As elegiac meter became more common both in epitaphs and for dedications, explicit address also became more frequent, probably under the influence of short elegy and a perhaps a few exceptional monument epigrams. Up to the end of the 5th century the address was most commonly accompanied by an imperative to a passer-by or to the deceased in sepulchral epigrams, and to a god in dedications. But in the 4th century it is more often in the form of a declarative sentence with a vocative.

These trends are more easily seen in the following table. The first row gives the earliest inscriptions in dactylic hexameters from the first volume of the *CEG*[77]. The next row (labeled 'Simonides') is from 41 of the elegiac poems attributed to Simonides that are most likely to have been written before the 4th century (see Page 1981:186-302). The reasoning for the dating in some cases is circular; epigrams containing more sophisticated features such as dialogue are excluded as 'Hellenistic'. Nevertheless, the addition or removal of a few poems from this list would have little effect on the percentages in the various columns. The 'Simonides' poems are then followed by elegiac epigrams from the two volumes of the *CEG*, the first volume containing poems from the 8th through the 5th centuries, and the second poems from the 4th century. For the *Sylloge Theognidea*, I have used the division into separate passages given in West (1971) and treated each passage as if it were a separate poem.

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Table 1: Beginnings and Address in Inscriptions and Short Elegy

	Declarative	Declarative with vocative	Other	Any vocative	Explicit address	n
CEG I hexameter	97%	3%	0%	7%	9%	71
'Simonides'	93%	2%	5%	7%	7%	41
CEG I elegiac	72%	13%	16%	23%	31%	100
CEG II elegiac	74%	20%	6%	30%	33%	179
Theognidea	49%	22%	29%	38%	57%	355

The first two columns in Table 1 give the percentages of epigrams for which the principal clause of the first sentence is declarative[78]. In some cases the principal clause of this sentence has a vocative, and these poems are listed separately. The next column (labeled *Other*) indicates the proportion of poems in which the principal clause of the first sentence is not narrative or descriptive but is rather an imperative, a question, a hortatory subjunctive, or an optative of wish[79]. Most of these epigrams begin with an imperative, but a few begin with sentences whose principal verb is in the subjunctive or optative. Questions are rare, though there are a few among the passages of the *Theognidea*. The next two columns indicate the presence of a vocative or of explicit address anywhere in the poem. The final column (labeled *n*) gives the number of poems in each row[80].

This table illustrates the gradual decrease in the use of a declarative sentence without vocative at the beginning of the poem and the increase in declarative sentences with vocatives and other forms of syntax, as well as the growing frequency in the use of vocatives and explicit address somewhere in the poem. These general trends are

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characteristic of the change in short elegiac poetry whether on tombstones or in the banquet hall down to the beginning of the 3rd century, and it is these poems that provided the foundation for Hellenistic epigram. These percentages must be interpreted with care. It would be premature to infer from the greater percentages (for example in the use of address) of the *Sylloge Theognidea* than of the *Sylloge Simonidea* that short elegy was a more important influence in the changes in methods of composition in inscriptions, since a small number of poems (or even a single epigram) may have been sufficiently popular and well-known to have had a large impact. As we shall see, however, there are additional reasons for believing the influence of short elegy to have been decisive.

Hellenistic Epigram: Beginnings and Address

If we now turn to Callimachus and the other Hellenistic poets, we find that their poems incorporate many of the compositional features of actual inscriptions but are, on the whole, considerably more sophisticated. The majority of Hellenistic epigrams begin with a declarative sentence, but other forms are more frequent than among surviving inscriptions and are as common among Hellenistic epigrams as in the passages of the *Sylloge Theognidea*. The most frequent syntax other than declarative is imperative[81], though questions and sentences whose main verb is a hortatory subjunctive or optative of wish[82], which are rare in epigrams or short elegy before the 3rd century, become much more common. Some form of explicit address now occurs in the majority of poems, introduced by an imperative, an interrogative, a hortatory subjunctive, or an optative of

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wish, but in many cases by a declarative sentence with an accompanying vocative.

These trends emerged very early in the history of Hellenistic epigram, and practice was surprisingly uniform among the poets of the 3rd century. Poems in this more sophisticated style, however, occur side-by-side with epigrams of a much simpler form resembling actual inscriptions of the 5th and 6th centuries. Anyte, probably the first of the poets of the Doric school and roughly contemporaneous with Asclepiades (Reitzenstein 1893:128; Luck 1954:89; Gutzwiller 1998:54), wrote this epigram, much like an actual dedication:

GP 2 (*AP* 6.153)

βουχανδὴς ὁ λέβης· ὁ δὲ θεὶς Ἐριασπίδα υἱός
Κλεύβοτος, ἁ πάτρα δ' εὐρύχορος Τεγέα·
τἀθάνᾳ δὲ τὸ δῶρον, Ἀριστοτέλης δ' ἐπόησεν
Κλειτόριος, γενέτᾳ ταὐτὸ λαχὼν ὄνομα.

This poem is for an exceptionally large bowl to the goddess Athena. The first sentence is declarative with the verb (ἐστί) assumed, much as in *CEG* 132 (see p. 63). This is followed rather simply by the name, patronymic, and city of origin of the person making the dedication, and then the name of the person who made the bowl. The maker is said to have the same name as his father, much as a boy is said to have the name of his paternal grandfather in the first line of an inscription on a funeral stele (*CEG* 564):

παῖ πατέρος σαυτοῦ πατρὸς ἔχων ὄνομα,

This inscription was written in the middle of the 4th century (see Hansen 1989:62), perhaps not much before Anyte was born.

To see the relationship between Hellenistic epigrams of simple composition like

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this poem of Anyte and other poems incorporating more elaborate forms of address or syntax used rarely if ever in actual inscriptions, I propose to look closely at the epigrams of Callimachus. My reason for choosing Callimachus is that he occupies a central position in the poetics of Catullus. Callimachus is the only Hellenistic poet Catullus refers to directly in his verse (in C65 and C116), and the only one he translated (C66). Furthermore, a large number of Callimachus' epigrams have survived, diverse in length and subject matter and showing considerable variety in composition. I could just as easily have chosen Posidippus, since we also have a large number of his epigrams from the *Garland* of Meleager and the recently edited Milan papyrus, and they show many of the same compositional traits as the verse of Callimachus[83]. Catullus may very well also have read these poems, but there is no evidence that Posidippus occupied a position in Catullus' poetry similar to the one held by Callimachus.

Nearly a quarter of Callimachus' epigrams begin with description or narration with no vocative or address by the poet anywhere in the poem. We saw at the end of Chapter 1 an example of a poem like this from the ἐρωτικά (GP 11 Pf 25 *AP* 5.6). There are also several sepulchral epigrams of this kind[84], and one is so simple in its structure that it is much like an epitaph on a tombstone:

GP 46 (Pf 19, *AP* 7.453)

δωδεκέτη τὸν παῖδα πατὴρ ἀπέθηκε Φίλιππος
ἐνθάδε, τὴν πολλὴν ἐλπίδα, Νικοτέλην.

It is remarkably similar to, for example, *CEG* 14 (FH 62), dating from about 560-550 BC:

Χαιρεδέμο τόδε σῆμα πατὲρ ἔστε[σε θ]ανόντος
Ανφιχάρ⟨ε⟩ς ἀγαθὸν παῖδα ὀλοφυρόμενο[ς].

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The differences are also important. Instead of ἔστεσε Callimachus uses ἀπέθηκε, a verb unattested in sepulchral (or dedication) inscriptions before the 3rd century, and the object of the verb is the boy instead of the tombstone. In this "lies the poetry" of Callimachus' poem (Wilamowitz-Moellendorff 1924b:119)[85]: the father "lays aside" in the grave all his hope with his twelve-year old son. The name of the son, which is the first word in *CEG* 14, becomes the last in Callimachus' poem, after the metaphorical τὴν πολλὴν ἐλπίδα. This gives the epigram a poignant compression (Braun 1985:67; Meyer 2005:160-1) and expresses the grief of the father more affectingly than the ὀλοφυρόμενος of *CEG* 14.

Wilamowitz (1924a:175) thought this poem and several of the other simpler epitaphs were written for pay when Callimachus was a school teacher. Though it is possible Callimachus wrote this poem "for commission" (Meillier 1979:120) or for the son of a friend, it is unlikely that he ever actually taught school or was ever so poor that he was reduced to writing epitaphs to make a living (Pasquali 1919:1151-52; Cameron 1995:3-9). Although the possibility that some of Callimachus' epigrams were actual inscriptions is often debated[86], what is important for our purposes is that even such unelaborate poems were included among Callimachus' published epigrams in a collection that Meleager (or a predecessor) later excerpted[87].

Callimachus wrote an even greater number of dedication epigrams that begin with declarative statements and lack explicit address by the poet or voice of the poem[88], for example:

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GP 18 (Pf. 57, *AP* 6.150)

Ἰναχίης ἔστηκεν ἐν Ἴσιδος ἡ Θάλεω παῖς
Αἰσχυλὶς Εἰρήνης μητρὸς ὑποσχεσίῃ.

Gow and Page (1965b:175-6) say that this epigram was "for a statue of [the girl] Aeschylis dedicated to Isis in accordance with her mother's vow". Hauvette (1907:331) remarked that the epigram adds so little to the simple announcement of an offering that it is difficult to see any "jeu d'esprit" anywhere in the poem. We have the name of the girl and her patronymic as well as the god to whom the dedication is made, as often in an actual inscription (Lazzarini 1976:58-62), and the poem resembles in some respects *CEG* 194 (FH 124) from Attica dating from 525-520 BC:

[Παλ]άδι μ' ἐγρεμάχαι Διονύσιο[ς ἐνθά] δ' ἄγαλμα
στῆσε Κολοίο παῖς [εὐχσ]άμενος δεκάτεν.

The differences once again are revealing. Callimachus' epigram packs more proper names into a single couplet than might seem possible: we have the name of the girl, her mother, her father, and the god in whose temple the dedication was made, with very little else in the poem. The proper names are accumulated in a way that seems exaggerated, as if overemphasizing the relationship of the poem to the inscriptional tradition. There is also an important difference in the voice of the verb in these two poems. *CEG* 194 says that Dionysios consecrated the statue to Athena and uses the aorist of ἵστημι, as often in actual inscriptions (Lazzarini 1976:72). The verb is transitive, signaling the act of dedication. In Callimachus' poem, on the other hand, ἵστημι is intransitive, and the poem says simply that the girl stands in the temple, with the nature of the dedication left unspecified. Unlike *CEG* 194, Callimachus' poem never mentions

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a statue explicitly. Reading this poem in a book rather than on a pedestal in a temple, we cannot even be sure the poem is a dedication epigram until we came to the last word. This is something pre-Hellenistic inscriptions never do.

These poems of Callimachus accompany other epigrams that begin with a declarative statement but initiate address with a vocative, sometimes only near the end of the poem[89] but often at the beginning[90], as in GP 14 (Pf 5, Ath. 7.318 B)

κόγχος ἐγώ, Ζεφυρῖτι, παλαίτερον, ἀλλὰ σὺ νῦν με,
Κύπρι, Σεληναίης ἄνθεμα πρῶτον ἔχεις,

or GP 34 (Pf 2, *AP* 7.80)[91]

εἶπέ τις, 'Ηράκλειτε, τεὸν μόρον, ἐς δέ με δάκρυ
ἤγαγεν, ἐμνήσθην δ' ὁσσάκις ἀμφότεροι

or GP 42 (Pf 61, *AP* 7.725)

Αἶνιε, καὶ σὺ γὰρ ὦδε, Μενέκρατες, οὐκ ἐπὶ πουλύ
ἦσθα, τί σε, ξείνων λῷστε, κατειργάσατο;

We have already seen how often declarative sentences with vocatives are used in inscriptions, a practice particularly frequent in the 4th century. In all three of these poems, and in the majority of the epigrams of Callimachus and of the other Hellenistic poets, the vocative is accompanied by abundant use of second-person verbs and pronouns and pronominal adjectives. In some[92], however, the vocative has no other form of second-person reference, something inscriptions do only very rarely, and only to a god or anonymous passer-by[93].

In Callimachus GP 59 (Pf 59, *AP* 11.362), for example, the second line of the poem contains a vocative to Leukaros. This was probably intended to construct a setting for the poem; we are perhaps meant to imagine a conversation with a trusted friend. No

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further address is made, however, and Leukaros is never again mentioned:

GP 59 (Pf 59, *AP* 11.362)

εὐδαίμων ὅτι τἆλλα μανεὶς ὠρχαῖος Ὀρέστας,
Λεύκαρε, τὰν ἀμὰν οὐκ ἐμάνη μανίαν
οὐδ' ἔλαβ' ἐξέτασιν τῶ Φωκέος ἅτις ἐλέγχει
τὸν φίλον· ἀλλ' αἴ χ' ἓν δρᾶμ' ἐδίδαξε μόνον
ἦ τάχα κα τὸν ἑταῖρον ἀπώλεσε. τοῦτο ποήσας
κἠγὼ τοὺς πολλοὺς οὐκέτ' ἔχω Πυλάδας.

This is a puzzling epigram, since we do not know the circumstances of the poem. We are told that Callimachus wrote a δρᾶμα, that is a play of some sort[94], and as a result lost one or more close friends, called Πυλάδας after Pylades son of Phocis, who took Orestes under his wing when Agamemnon was away during the Trojan war (see Gow and Page 1965b:211). The relationship of Leucaros to all of this is unexplained.

Vocatives in isolation without any other form of address are rare in any Greek poetry before the Hellenists except in short elegy. In the *Theognidean Sylloge*, the largest compilation of short elegy that has survived, the most frequent vocative is one addressed to Cyrnus, the young man the poet Theognis says in lines 27-30 that he is instructing. Of the 70 passages containing Κύρνε, 42 or 60% lack any other form of second-person singular address[95]. Lines 319-22 of the *Sylloge*, for example, read:

Κύρν', ἀγαθὸς μὲν ἀνὴρ γνώμην ἔχει ἔμπεδον αἰεί,
τολμᾶι δ' ἔν τε κακοῖς κείμενος ἔν τ' ἀγαθοῖς·
εἰ δὲ θεὸς κακῶι ἀνδρὶ βίον καὶ πλοῦτον ὀπάσσηι
ἀφραίνων κακίην οὐ δύναται κατέχειν.

The vocative is the very first word in the passage, but apart from indicating that these verses are a part of the instruction Cyrnus is supposed to be receiving, it serves little purpose in the poem. The majority of vocatives to Cyrnus in the *Sylloge* are like this.

Many other passages in the *Theognidea* address other named people (Democles,

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Onomacritus, Timagoras), the poet's boy-friend (the παῖ of *Book* 2), wine, wealth, poverty and an assortment of gods (Apollo, Artemis, Eros). Of the 60 passages containing a vocative not to Cyrnus, all but four have at least one second-person singular verb or pronoun or pronominal adjective, and many have several. There is a similar rarity of vocatives without second-person reference in the inscriptions of the *CEG* (note 93). The reason why vocatives to Cyrnus are treated differently from other vocatives in the *Theognidea* is of interest, since it may have some relevance to the identification of the σφρηγίς or 'seal' that Theognis says he placed on his poem in lines 19-20 of the *Sylloge* (see Appendix I and Fain 2005). What is important for our purposes, however, is that vocatives in the absence of any other second-person address, which are so numerous in the passages of the *Theognidea,* may have provided the model for their occasional occurrence among the Hellenists, in the poems of Catullus[96], among the epigrams of the Greek Imperial poets Lucillius and Nicarchus (where they are almost as numerous as in the *Theognidea*), and finally in Martial (see Chapter 3).

Several of Callimachus' epigrams that begin with a declarative statement with or without a vocative have imperatives or interrogatives later in the poem. Inscriptions also occasionally do this, never with questions[97] but sometimes with imperatives[98], as in this iambic inscription from Thasus dating from 500-490 BC (*CEG* 162, FH 168):

> [ʼA] κηράτο ε[ἰ]μὶ μνῆμα τοῦ Φ[ρασ]ιηρίδο,
> κεῖμαι δ' ἐπ' [ἄ]κρο ναυσ[τ]ά[θ]μο σωτήριον
> νηυσίν τε κα[ὶ] ναύτηισιν· ἀλλὰ χαίρετ[ε].

The imperative at the end of the poem can serve much the same purpose as one in the more common position at the beginning, but in this poem there is a subtle difference.

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The person buried is given pride of position, then the tomb at the top of a cliff near the harbor, a turret warning sailors of the nearness of the land (Hansen 1983:87; Meyer 2005:55-6). The imperative at the end moves the focus of the poem away from the deceased outward to the passers-by, to whom the deceased says farewell. It also helps provide an ending for the inscription, much as χαῖρε or χαίρετε at the end of an Homeric hymn. In contrast, an imperative at the beginning of the poem, as in *CEG* 27 (see p. 66) or Page 49 (*AP* 7.254) of the *Sylloge Simonidea* (see p. 67), involves the passer-by in the whole of the poem from its outset.

Callimachus placed an analogous imperative to the passer-by at the end of one of his epigrams, the only surviving poem written in alternating archilochians and hendecasyllables:

GP 48 (Pf 40, *AP* 7.728)

ἱερέη Δήμητρος ἐγώ ποτε καὶ πάλιν Καβείρων,
ὦνερ, καὶ μετέπειτα Δινδυμήνης
ἡ γρηὺς γενόμην, ἡ νῦν κόνις †η νο
πολλῶν προστασίη νέων γυναικῶν.
καί μοι τέκν' ἐγένοντο δύ' ἄρσενα κηπέμυσ' ἐκείνων
εὐγήρως ἐνὶ χερσίν. ἕρπε χαίρων.

This epigram is sufficiently similar in form to *CEG* 162 (see preceding page) and other actual inscriptions that it is often supposed to have been an epitaph of "an elderly married woman who had been a priestess in various cults" (Gow and Page 1965b:200), first of Demeter, then of the Cabiri, and finally of Cybele. Fraser (1972:578) points out that all of these cults "have a connection with fertility in various forms" and thinks the poem actually sat on a tombstone, a view also held by Meillier (1979:177).

Though that is certainly possible, the epigram is at the very least unusual. The

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name of the woman is never given. Meillier remarks (I think optimistically) that it was placed somewhere on the stele, and real inscriptions often do this; but it is quite uncommon for a Hellenistic poet to publish an epigram without the name of the person about whom the poem was written, unless the name cannot have been known, as in the case of a cenotaph of a sailor[99], or the tomb was neglected and the name illegible[100] (see Fantuzzi and Hunter 2002:397-413). Fantuzzi and Hunter (2002:467 n 59) say it to be "opinione comune" that the name of the woman in this poem was contained in the lacuna in verse 3, but this seems rather unlikely. As Gow and Page remark (1965b:201), "this is not the place to introduce it in the epigram", and there would certainly not have been room for the patronymic, also usually found in actual inscriptions.

The mentioning of three cults all in the first couplet gives the quietly amusing impression of a woman perhaps a little self-satisfied. To be a priestess in so many different sects must certainly have been an exceptional accomplishment; one wonders if it was even possible. The word usage is also unusual. In surviving inscriptions from before the 3rd century, κόνις or "dust" can receive the corpse (*CEG* 576), or the dead can lie in the dust (*CEG* 709) or can "put dust about them" (*CEG* 657), but the dead are never described as saying that they are themselves dust[101].

In addition to imperatives, three of Callimachus' epigrams among the ἐρωτικά begin with a declarative statement and then introduce one or more interrogatives later in the poem. I discuss the compositional style of these epigrams in more detail below (see pp. 102-110). They are even further removed from the style of inscriptions, since interrogatives in epigrams before the 3rd century almost never occur. Inscriptions that

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begin with direct questions, for example, are entirely absent from the first volume of the *CEG*, and there are only two that have survived from the fourth century, both sepulchral[102]. In contrast, there are five epigrams of Callimachus that begin with a sentence whose principal clause is interrogative, also among the ἐπιτύμβια[103]. The initial question always initiates address, as in this poem:

GP 44 (Pf 14, *AP* 7.519)

δαίμονα τίς δ᾽ εὖ οἶδε τὸν αὔριον ἀνίκα καὶ σέ,
Χάρμι, τὸν ὀφθαλμοῖς χθιζὸν ἐν ἀμετέροις,
τᾷ ἑτέρᾳ κλαύσαντες ἐθάπτομεν; οὐδὲν ἐκείνου
εἶδε πατὴρ Διοφῶν χρῆμ᾽ ἀνιαρότερον.

The name of the dead, a certain Charmis, is given in Callimachus' poem in the vocative preceded by a second-person pronoun, καὶ σέ. The inclusion of the name of the father fixes the poem within the tradition of sepulchral epigram even though this poem could never have been inscribed on a tombstone. It is instead a "condolence poem" (Wilamowitz-Moellendorff 1924b:119), and the name of the father serves the additional purpose of focusing the sympathy of the poem in the second couplet.

In a few of Callimachus' poems, an introductory question is used to initiate direct discourse, that is speech reported in the poem usually (though not always) introduced by a verb of saying. Direct discourse is common in Callimachus, as we shall see in the course of this chapter, but it occurs in only a very few pre-Hellenistic inscriptions[104], the earliest of which appears to be this epigram on the marble base of a bronze statue from Halicarnassus, dating from about 475 BC (*CEG* 429)[105]:

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αὐδὴ τεχνήεσσα λίθο, λέγε τίς τόδ' ἄ[γαλμα]
στῆσεν 'Απόλλωνος βωμὸν ἐπαγλαΐ[σας].
Παναμύης υἱὸς Κασβώλλιος, εἴ μ' ἐπ[οτρύνεις]
ἐξειπεῖν, δεκάτην τὴνδ' ἀνέθηκε θε[ῶι].

This inscription constructs a dialogue between a visitor to a shrine of Apollo and the marble base of a statue on the altar. The visitor uses an introductory imperative to address the "cunningly wrought voice" of the stone base and asks it who made the dedication, with the indirect question itself providing the nature of the dedication and the god to whom the dedication was made. The stone base then answers, giving the name of the dedicator and the reason for the dedication, as a δεκάτη or tithe. The epigram is an extension of the convention of tombs or dedications as *oggetti parlanti* (see Burzachechi 1962; Agostiniani 1982:21) and is in some ways a precursor of the more sophisticated use of dialogue in Callimachus (Meyer 2005:84-5).

In the following sepulchral epigram, Callimachus introduces not two speakers but three, though this is something the reader himself must infer as he reconstructs the dialogue first between the passer-by and the tombstone, and then between the passer-by and the deceased[106].

GP 31 (Pf 13, *AP* 7.524)

—ἦ ῥ' ὑπὸ σοὶ Χαρίδας ἀναπαύεται; εἰ τὸν 'Αρίμμα
τοῦ Κυρηναίου παῖδα λέγεις, ὑπ' ἐμοί.
—ὦ Χαρίδα, τί τὰ νέρθε; Χ. πολὺ σκότος. —αἱ δ' ἄνοδοι τί;
Χ. ψεῦδος. —ὁ δὲ Πλούτων; Χ. μῦθος. —ἀπωλόμεθα.
Χ. οὗτος ἐμὸς λόγος ὔμμιν ἀληθινός, εἰ δὲ τὸν ἡδύν
βούλει, Πελλαίου βοῦς μέγας εἰν 'Αίδῃ.

This poem would have found no place in a graveyard and is not even condolence poetry but rather a witty gibe at popular notions of an afterlife. Nevertheless, the name and

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patronymic and even the city of origin of the dead person are placed clearly in the first couplet, fixing the poem within the tradition of epitaph. Much of the vocabulary also occurs in surviving epitaph (though rarely): Πλούτων (*CEG* 571iv), ἀπόλλυμι (*CEG* 6ii), 'Αίδη (*CEG* 102).

Callimachus moves even further from the norms of inscriptions in this poem:

GP 51 (Pf 4, *AP* 7.317)

Τίμων, οὐ γὰρ ἔτ' ἐσσί, τί τοι, σκότος ἢ φάος, ἐχθρόν;
—τὸ σκότος, ὑμέων γὰρ πλείονες εἰν 'Αίδῃ.

The question again initiates dialogue with the dead, as is made clear from the beginning of the poem: οὐ γὰρ ἔτ' ἐσσί. Death is presented as no barrier to communication but, on the contrary, the very stimulus for the dialogue[107]. Now, however, the name of the father and nationality are not given, and all pretense of an inscription is abandoned. Both this poem and GP 52 (Pf 3, *AP* 7.318), which lacks even the name of the deceased, have as their subject the famous misanthrope Timon of Athens (for whom, see for example Armstrong 1987). As Fantuzzi and Hunter have suggested (2002:408-12), the sparseness of biographical detail may have been either a particular characteristic of the epigram actually on the tomb of the misanthrope, or a biographical tradition regarding Timon that poets may have exploited.[108]

This is, I hope, sufficient to establish that dedication and sepulchral inscriptions provided not only the context of the subject matter of the epigrams of Callimachus and the other 3rd century Hellenists, as many have previously observed, but also the grounding of many aspects of the *composition* of these poems. Some of Callimachus'

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poems are so simple and so similar to actual epitaphs and dedications in their composition that they have often been thought to have been actually inscribed. Others are much further away from the inscriptional tradition, introducing forms that were unusual or even impossible in epigrams placed on stone before the third century. In particular, Callimachus' poetry contains a greater variety of syntax and more frequent and varied address than is usual among inscriptions, and this is also true of the other 3rd century writers of epigram.

That is easier to see in the following table, which I have constructed like Table 1. Only poems of fairly certain attribution have been included, including in the case of Posidippus only the poems in the Milan papyrus sufficiently complete to make the required determinations. For ease of comparison, I have repeated from Table 1 the percentages from the passages of the *Theognidea*. Two conclusions are clear. First, the habits of the different 3rd century Hellenistic poets in their choice of beginnings and the frequency with which they used direct address are rather similar from one poet to the next, at least for the poets I have considered. The percentages of poems that begin with a declarative sentence giving description or narration are nearly the same, with or without an accompanying vocative. The most frequent beginning other than a declarative sentence is an imperative, and this is the only alternative form present in surviving poems of Asclepiades, though other poets began poems with questions and with sentences whose main verb is a hortatory subjunctive or an optative of wish. Of the poets in Table 2, a subjunctive or optative in the principal clause of the first sentence is most common in Leonidas (nearly 10% of his epigrams). The percentages of poems containing vocatives

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and explicit address by the poet or voice of the poem show a bit more variability but all lie within a reasonably well-determined range.

Table 2: Beginnings and Address in Hellenistic Epigram

	Declarative	Declarative with vocative	Other	Any vocative	Explicit address	n
Theognidea	49%	22%	29%	38%	57%	355
Anyte	56%	17%	28%	33%	44%	18
Leonidas	53%	15%	32%	54%	56%	91
Asclepiades	55%	15%	30%	61%	64%	33
Callimachus	55%	16%	29%	61%	71%	62
Posidippus	57%	15%	28%	45%	48%	86

The second conclusion is that 3rd century Hellenistic epigram, as least with regard to the characteristics I have been considering, is rather similar in composition to short elegy. This resemblance may seem fortuitous, since many of the passages of the *Theognidea* are likely to be fragments, so that we cannot say whether the beginnings of the passages in the *Sylloge* actually represent the beginnings of poems. The similarity in the percentages of Table 2 is nevertheless striking and much greater than for the inscriptions in Table 1.

Poetic Structure

In Catullus we found that the poems in hendecasyllables and iambics more often proceed by description, narration, verbal repetition, and direct discourse. These features were also found among the poems in elegiacs but were less important to the structure of

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the poems, which instead often exploited the contrast between succeeding couplets, or within a single couplet between the hexameter and pentameter or the two halves of the pentameter, enhanced by parallel structure, antithesis, and other forms of rhetorical or logical organization. Since Callimachus held such an important place in the poetics of Catullus and presumably also of the other *poetae noui*, it is important to look in detail at the structure of Greek epigram. I begin with pre-Hellenistic inscriptions because of their significance for the poems of the 3rd century Hellenists.

Structure in inscriptions. Early Greek inscriptions are quite simple in form, as we have seen, and are mostly descriptive with little in the way of narration or verbal repetition. These poems initially in dactylic hexameters also lack parallel structure or antithesis. When during the sixth and early fifth centuries the elegiac distich became the preferred meter among inscriptions, new possibilities arose to exploit the structure of this meter. It is sometimes said that elegiac couplets became more commonly used in inscriptions *because* of their peculiar structure, either because the pentameter can be made to expand the thought of the hexameter (Reitzenstein 1893:105), or because the distich provides a closed form with the completeness and autonomy of brief poetry condensed into groups of couplets (Gentili 1968:65).

Though elegiac meter does indeed have these properties, as we have already seen in the poems of Catullus and shall see again in those of the Hellenists and Martial, this apparently had little to do with the popularity of elegiac meter in inscriptions. The fact is that the special relationship between the hexameter and pentameter and the closed form of the distich were rarely exploited by the poets who initially wrote epitaphs and

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dedications in elegiacs. A typical dedication epigram dating from the sixth century (*CEG* 392) says simply,

> Ζενὸς ἐριγδούποιο κόρει γλαυκόπι 'Αθένει
> Θρίπυλος εὐξάμενος τένδ' ἀνέθεκε θεâι.

The description of the dedication continues from the hexameter to the pentameter without any of the effects that are possible from the elegiac distich, and this is true of most of the inscriptions in elegiac meter in both volumes of the *Carmina Epigraphica Graeca.* In this respect, they more closely resemble the elegiac poetry of Archilochus or Mimnermus (see Adkins 1985:14 and 210 note 11) than the Hellenistic epigram that was to follow.

That is not to say that antithesis and parallel structure are absent from all pre-Hellenistic inscriptions. The following poem (*CEG* 611) from a marble stela dating from the fourth century incorporates the not uncommon antithesis (see Lattimore 1942:31) of the earth covering the body but not the virtue of the dead, which will live forever[109]:

> [σ]ῶμα μὲν ἐν κόλποισι κατὰ χθὼν ἥδε καλ[ύπτει]
> [Τι]μοκλείας, τὴν σὴν δὲ ἀρετὴν οὐθεὶς [φθ]ίσει α[ἰών]·
> [ἀθά]νατος μνήμη σωφρ[ο]σύνης ἕνε[κ]α.

This inscription is in an irregular sort of elegiac meter not evenly divided into couplets, like a surprisingly large number of the poems especially in the second volume of the *CEG*[110], a certain indication that the poet did not take into account the possibility of organizing his verse around closed groups of hexameters and pentameters. The antithesis between the earth, covering the body, and the woman's virtue, which time will not destroy, is placed unevenly over two hexameters; the pentameter is structurally unrelated to the rest of the poem. Antithesis is indeed present but has little connection with the

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structure of the verses.

A few early inscriptions do take advantage of the structure of elegiac verse to frame an antithesis, for example this poem from the middle of the 5th century:

ἀντὶ γυναικὸς ἐγὼ Παρίο λίθο ἐνθάδε κεῖμαι
μνημόσυνον Βίττης, μητρὶ δακρυτὸν ἄχος.

Here the contrast between the memorial of Bitte and the tearful grief of her mother are artfully placed in the two halves of the pentameter, but this is one of only a few early inscriptions that do this[111].

The poems in the *Sylloge Simonidea* show a better appreciation of the boundaries of the couplet, but those likely to have been written before the 4th century are still rather simply organized, with only a few having (for example) any kind of parallel structure or antithesis. One that does is this epigram (Page 4, *AP* 6.341) cited by Herodotus (4.87-8) about a painting dedicated by Mandrocles, who built the pontoon bridge Darius used to cross the straits of Bosporos:

Βόσπορον ἰχθυόεντα γεφυρώσας ἀνέθηκε
Μανδροκλέης Ἥρηι μνημόσυνον σχεδίης,
αὐτῶι μὲν στέφανον περιθείς, Σαμίοισι δὲ κῦδος,
Δαρείου βασιλέος ἐκτελέσας κατὰ νοῦν.

The first couplet describes the essentials of the dedication, and the second adds a bit of horn-tooting for Mandrocles and his homeland. The antithesis in the hexameter of the second couplet is emphasized by μὲν and δὲ, and the contrasting statements are divided after the princeps of the fourth foot, a not uncommon position of sense pause in the hexametric line (West 1982:36).

An even better example of an inscription realizing at least some of the

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possibilities provided by elegiac meter is this poem from the early to middle of the fourth century, appropriately placed below a statue of the rhetorician Gorgias (*CEG* 830iii):

Γοργίου ἀσκῆσαι ψυχὴν ἀρετῆς ἐς ἀγῶνας
  οὐδείς πω θνητῶν καλλίον' ηὗρε τέχνην·
οὗ καὶ 'Απόλλωνος γυάλοις εἰκὼν ἀνάκειται
  οὐ πλούτου παράδειγμ', εὐσεβίας δὲ τρόπων.

Each distich of this poem encloses a syntactical unit that is complete, and there is a refined balance between the hexameters and pentameters. The last line of the poem divides the two components of an antithesis exactly at the caesura, an embellishment at the close of a poem known to Asclepiades[112], to Catullus[113], and to all later Greek and Latin poets who wrote in elegiac meter. To do this, the poet elides across the caesura as does Catullus in 71:6,

Illam affligit odore, ipsa perit podagra.

a practice attested even in very early elegiac poetry[114] and still occasionally occurring in the poetry of the Hellenists (see West 1982:158).

Structure in Callimachus. When we turn to the epigrams of Callimachus, we find some poems so plain in structure that they read much like the simplest inscriptions. I begin with an epitaph of a single distich:

GP 39 (Pf 60, *AP* 7.523)

οἵτινες 'Αλείοιο παρέρπετε σᾶμα Κίμωνος
  ἴστε τὸν 'Ιππαίου παῖδα παρερχόμενοι.

As in many inscriptions, there is no parallel structure or antithesis. The two clauses of the sentence are divided between the hexameter and pentameter, but there is little pause in sense anywhere within the epigram. There is a curious emphasis in the poem on the

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passers-by, accentuated by verbs that are both compounds of παρά unattested in epigram before the 3rd century[115]. The passers-by are told that Kimon was the son of Hippaios but are never asked to reflect on the sadness of the death of the young man who has died or his goodness or virtue. The epigram can be read as an understated expression of the grief of a father for his son (see for example Meyer 2005:173), but in its very modesty and reserve it is quite atypical of earlier inscriptions.

Poems of simple structure are also found among Callimachus' dedication epigrams:

GP 21 (Pf 33, *AP* 6.347)

῞Αρτεμι, τὶν τόδ' ἄγαλμα Φιληρατὶς εἴσατο τῇδε·
ἀλλὰ σὺ μὲν δέξαι, πότνια, τὴν δὲ σάου.

This poem is again seemingly so traditional that many have thought it could have been an actual dedication (for example Hauvette 1907:331; Meillier 1979:33). Bing (1995:119-20) says that the "whole opening phrase right up to the caesura corresponds word for word to an old dedicatory formula", as for example in *CEG* 413 (FH 110) dating from the late 6th century:

῞Αρτεμι, σοὶ τόδ' ἄγαλμα Τελεστοδί[κη μ' ἀνέθηκεν]
'Ασφαλίο μήτηρ, Θερσέλεω θυγάτηρ.

Bing goes on to say that the "structure, too, is conventional", pointing out that many actual inscriptions of two lines also place the dedication in the first and a prayer to the god in the second, as in *CEG* 227 (FH 39):

φαρθένε, ἐν ἀκροπόλει Τελεσῖνος ἄγαλμ' ἀνέθεκεν
Κέτιος ὦι χαίροσα διδοίες ἄλο ἀναθεῖναι.

There is however one aspect of the structure of Callimachus' poem that is not

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conventional at all, and this is the elegant way he exploits the two halves of the pentameter, using μὲν and δὲ to form antithesis. When μὲν and δὲ occur in surviving pre-Hellenistic inscriptions and in the *Sylloge Simonidea*, they are usually found either both in the hexameter as in the poem about Mandrocles and his pontoon bridge[116], or distributed between the hexameter and pentameter[117], often in epitaphs in a comparison of the fate of the body on the one hand, and the soul[118] or virtues or goodness of the dead[119] on the other, as in the poem *CEG* 611 discussed earlier (see page 88).

One surviving pre-Hellenistic inscription from Macedonia (*CEG* 724) dating from the end of the fourth century and perhaps contemporary with Anyte and Asclepiades (Hansen 1989:154) uses μὲν and δὲ both in the pentameter as in Callimachus' poem:

τοῖς μὲν ὁμι⟨λ⟩ήσασι ποθεῖν πάρα, τοῖς δὲ τεκοῦσ [ι]
πενθεῖν, ⟨τ⟩οῖς δὲ ἀγνῶς πευθομένοις ἐλεεῖν·
τόνδε γὰρ εἰς τόδε μοῖρ⟨α⟩ κ⟨α⟩τήγαγεν ὥστε γεν[έσθαι]
ἥσσονα μὲν μοίρας, κρείσσονα δὲ εὐλογίας.

This is an unusually sophisticated inscription, perhaps late enough to have been influenced by the first Hellenistic epigrams. The structure of the poem is formed by two statements each enclosed in its own couplet, each formed around antithesis introduced by μὲν and δὲ. The second of these is contained completely within the pentameter of the last line as in Callimachus GP 21 (Pf 33, *AP* 6.347), with the μὲν and δὲ again placed on either side of the caesura.

Together with relatively simple poems like GP 39 and GP 21, as sophisticated as the best of surviving inscriptions but nevertheless similar enough for many a reader to imagine them to have been actually inscribed on a tombstone or to have accompanied a

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dedication, Callimachus also wrote structurally more complicated poems that can only have been composed for reading and recitation. Some of them employ temporal contrast as a structural element, usually between the past and present and emphasized by νῦν or νῦν δὲ[120]. There are a few examples of poems with temporal contrast in the *Sylloge Simonidea* and among pre-Hellenistic inscriptions[121], and we saw an example of Callimachus doing this in GP 48 (Pf 40, *AP* 7.728), in which the old woman once a priestess in three different cults says that she is νῦν κόνις.

The following poem is considerably more elaborate.

GP 23 (Pf 53, *AP* 6.146)

καὶ πάλιν, Εἰλείθυια, Λυκαινίδος ἐλθὲ καλεύσης
εὔλοχος ὠδίνων ὧδε σὺν εὐτοκίῃ,
ὡς τόδε νῦν μέν, ἄνασσα, κόρης ὕπερ, ἀντὶ δὲ παιδός
ὕστερον εὐώδης ἄλλο τι νηὸς ἔχοι.

Instead of the conventional comparison of ποτέ and νῦν, "once" and "now", the temporal antithesis in this poem is unexpectedly between νῦν and ὕστερον, now and later. The νῦν is followed immediately by a second antithesis of the girl and boy initiated by μὲν: νῦν μέν, ἄνασσα, κόρης ὕπερ, "as now, mistress, on behalf of the girl." The second half of this antithesis then starts at the end of the hexameter and runs over to the beginning of the pentameter: ἀντὶ δὲ παιδός / ὕστερον, "for the sake of a boy later". The μέν and δὲ containing the girl and boy are enclosed within νῦν and ὕστερον chiastically, like a set of nested boxes. This structure is further enclosed within the two dedications, τόδε and ἄλλο. No pre-Hellenistic inscription is so tightly organized.

The matter of the poem is also foreign to surviving inscriptions. The epigram

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portrays the earnest gratitude of the woman for her baby girl but an ever so carefully hinted hope that the goddess will bring a boy next time around. The careful phrasing of the antithesis, the obeisant interjection of the vocative ἄνασσα, and the purposely vague phrasing at the end of the poem, εὐώδης ἄλλο τι νηὸς ἔχοι, all contribute to a feeling of deferential disappointment[122]. The promise of a future dedication is conventional, as at the end of *CEG* 227, ὦι χαίροσα διδοίες ἄλο ἀναθεῖναι (see p. 91), but the emphasis of the poem even from the first words is not on the woman's present pleasure but on her hope for better later.

Another poem of this kind was cited at the end of Chapter 1 (GP 11, Pf 25, *AP* 5.6), whose last two lines read

> νῦν δ' ὁ μὲν ἀρσενικῷ θέρεται πυρί, τῆς δὲ ταλαίνης
> νύμφης ὡς Μεγαρέων οὐ λόγος οὐδ' ἀριθμός.

Here again there are two sorts of opposition. The time of the swearing of the oaths described in the first four lines of the poem is contrasted with the νῦν δὲ of the less fortunate present in this final couplet. Following this temporal contrast, the ardor of the man for a boy is opposed to the fate of the poor woman, framed by μὲν and δὲ.

In addition to antithesis, many of Callimachus' poems use another sort of scaffolding provided by a conditional sentence. Conditional sentences are again found in a few surviving inscriptions, as in *CEG* 429 (see p. 83) from the early 5th century or 4th century. A few epigrams have conditional sentences used to make pious claims for the goodness of the dead, as in *CEG* 603,

> εἰ δέ τις εὐσεβίας παρὰ Φερσεφόνει χάρις ἐστίν,
> καὶ σοὶ τῆσδε μέρος δῶκε Τύχη φθιμένει.

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or *CEG* 645,

εἰ δ' ἀρετῆς ἕνεκεν θνητῶν ὤικτειρέ τιν' Ἄιδης,
οὔ τᾶν ἐξέλιπεν φέγγος ὅδ' ἠελίου.

both dating from the fourth century[123]. These examples, however, are exceptional; conditional sentences occur in only a few poems and are rather simple in organization.

In the following epigram of Callimachus, a conditional sentence forms the entire structure of the poem, with much of the necessary information of an epitaph (the name of the dead, his patronymic, and even his φυλή or clan) contained within the apodosis, which has an uncommon form, beginning with an infinitive as imperative:

GP 33 (Pf 10, *AP* 7.520)

ἤν δίζῃ Τίμαρχον ἐν Ἄιδος ὄφρα πύθηαι
ἤ τι περὶ ψυχῆς ἤ πάλι πῶς ἔσεαι,
δίζεσθαι φυλῆς Πτολεμαῖδος υἱέα πατρός
Παυσανίου· δήεις δ' αὐτὸν ἐν εὐσεβέων.

Timarchus is variously identified (see Gow and Page 1965b:190) but usually assumed to be a philosopher with definite opinions about the afterlife (Livrea 1990:314-7; Walsh 1991:90-1; Gutzwiller 1998:204-5). The poem says that if we want to ask Timarchus about the fate of the soul after death, we must look in Hades, and we will find him among the blessed. The argument of the poem is emphasized by the pointed repetition of δίζῃ/δίζεσθαι followed by δήεις[124].

Conditional sentences like the one in GP 33 (Pf 10, *AP* 7.520) are combined with other sorts of rhetorical elements to form even more complicated structures. The following poem uses conditional clauses and antithesis framed by μὲν and δὲ, emphasized by verbal repetition like that of δίζῃ/δίζεσθαι, in an argument carefully

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segregated distich by distich:

GP 8 (Pf 42, *AP* 12.118)

εἰ μὲν ἐκών, 'Αρχῖν', ἐπεκώμασα μυρία μέμφου,
εἰ δ' ἄκων ἥκω τὴν προπέτειαν ἔα.
ἄκρητος καὶ ἔρως μ' ἠνάγκασαν, ὧν ὁ μὲν αὐτῶν
εἷλκεν, ὁ δ' οὐκ εἴα τὴν προπέτειαν ἐᾶν·
ἐλθὼν δ' οὐκ ἐβόησα τίς ἢ τίνος ἀλλ' ἐφίλησα
τὴν φλιήν. εἰ τοῦτ' ἐστ' ἀδίκημ' ἀδικέω.

This is one of Callimachus' most cleverly composed poems. The antithesis of willing/unwilling is framed in the first couplet by the εἰ μὲν ἐκών and εἰ δ' ἄκων at the beginning of the hexameter and pentameter, with an imperative the last word of each line. The second couplet presents a second antithesis between the effects of wine and love and reflects back upon the first couplet by the verbal echo of τὴν προπέτειαν ἔα with εἴα τὴν προπέτειαν ἐᾶν, a kind of pun, since the verb ἐᾶν must be read in two different senses (Kaibel 1896:267). In the third couplet, the antithesis of shouting out and kissing the door post is framed by οὐκ and ἀλλὰ instead of μὲν and δὲ, and the conditional clause in the pentameter reflects back to similar clauses at the beginning of the poem. Verbal repetition and word play bring the poem to its end.

This poem has not always been appreciated. Gow and Page (1965b:163) complain that "the repetition of the phrase [in line 4] from [line] 1, particularly to follow εἴα, and the juggling with different meanings of the verb is unattractive". The *Anthologia Palatina* has σώφρονα θυμὸν ἔχειν instead of τὴν προπέτειαν ἐᾶν, and this reading has its adherents (see for example Tarán 1979:67-8). However, τὴν προπέτειαν ἐᾶν is not only supported by a corrupt version of the poem found on the wall of a house on the Esquiline (Pfeiffer 1953: 92), which contains enough of the poem to verify this

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reading; it is also firmly embedded in the rest of the epigram. The repeating of τὴν προπέτειαν and wordplay with ἐᾶν are part of a sequence, from ἐκών/ἄκων at the beginning to ἀδίκημα/ἀδικέω at the end of the poem. The σώφρονα θυμὸν ἔχειν of the *Anthologia Palatina* would be entirely out of place.

In addition to antithesis, conditional clauses, and parallel structure, Callimachus occasionally organized his epigrams around analogy or some other form of explicit logical argument, as in the following poem from the ἐρωτικά.

GP 1 (Pf 31, *AP* 12.102)

ὠγρευτής, Ἐπίκυδες, ἐν οὔρεσι πάντα λαγωόν
διφᾷ καὶ πάσης ἴχνια δορκαλίδος
στίβῃ καὶ νιφετῷ κεχρημένος· ἦν δέ τις εἴπῃ
'τῇ, τόδε βέβληται θηρίον', οὐκ ἔλαβεν.
χοὐμὸς ἔρως τοιόσδε· τὰ μὲν φεύγοντα διώκειν
οἶδε τὰ δ' ἐν μέσσῳ κείμενα παρπέταται.

The poem begins with a vocative to Epikydes unaccompanied by any other second-person address as in GP 59 (Pf 59, *AP* 11.362). The description of the hunter occupies the first four lines, and the last couplet begins with an analogy, "my love is like this". The second half of the hexameter and pentameter then say why. There is nothing particularly surprising about the ending, but that is true of many of Callimachus' poems, even among the ἐρωτικά. Among the ἀναθηματικά and ἐπιτύμβια, only a minority of the poems have anything like "point". I return to this subject later in the chapter (see pp. 111-12).

A more interesting poem organized in the form of a logical argument is the one that follows in Gow and Page's volume:

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GP 2 (Pf 28, *AP* 12.43)

ἐχθαίρω τὸ ποίημα τὸ κυκλικὸν οὐδὲ κελεύθῳ
χαίρω τὶς πολλοὺς ὧδε καὶ ὧδε φέρει·
μισέω καὶ περίφοιτον ἐρώμενον, οὐδ' ἀπὸ κρήνης
πίνω· σικχαίνω πάντα τὰ δημόσια.
Λυσανίη, σὺ δὲ ναίχι καλὸς καλός· ἀλλὰ πρὶν εἰπεῖν
τοῦτο σαφῶς ἠχώ φησί τις 'ἄλλος ἔχει'.

The structure of this poem is similar to that of GP 1 (Pf 31, *AP* 12.102). The first four lines say that the poet detests anything common, and in particular the lover who sleeps around. Then, instead of "I hate whoever is promiscuous, you Lysanias are promiscuous, therefore I hate you", as some have argued (see for example Henrichs 1979:212), what the poem seems to say is "I hate whoever is promiscuous, but you Lysanias are so good-looking!" At first we are completely mystified about what the good looks of Lysanias have to do with the first four lines of the poem, but this is then explained in the last two words, ἄλλος ἔχει. In the context of the poem, this can only mean that Lysanias is promiscuous. This is so unexpected that it forces us to go back to the beginning and re-examine the argument of the poem[125].

Superimposed upon this structure is another formed by a priamel (Henrichs 1979; Schwinge 1980; Gutzwiller 1998:220-1). In the first 4 lines Callimachus tells us what he doesn't like: cyclical poetry, heavily traveled pathways, lovers who are unfaithful, public fountains and all that is common. We now expect to hear what he does like, and this seems to be what we get: Λυσανίη, σὺ δὲ ναίχι καλὸς καλός. The poet is attracted to Lysanias even if against his better judgement. The last sentence, however, makes clear that Lysanias is also just the sort of lover the poet hates. It is the tension between the first and second phrases of the last couplet and the irony of the conclusion that provides

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the interest of the poem[126]. This is a love poem (Cameron 1995:388-9), and it is surely an oversimplification to say with Henrichs (1979:212) that "Callimachus will not share anything", so "Lysanias is rejected". The feelings expressed in the poem are much more conflicted (Fraser 1972:591); we see this from the repetition of καλὸς καλός, from the faulty logic, and from the reversal of the premise and conclusion in the last two lines. Besides, the poem makes clear that the poet is not rejecting Lysanias, at least not altogether; if anything, it is quite the other way around.

These examples show that many of Callimachus' epigrams are organized by a rhetorical or logical scaffolding, often employing antithesis, parallel structure, conditional clauses, and analogy, sometimes separately and sometimes combined in a way unattested in pre-Hellenistic inscriptions. Structures of this sort occur everywhere in Greek literature–in dialogue in tragedy, in ancient elegy, and even in Homer. They are also prominent features of short elegy (Reitzenstein 1893:180; Wilamowitz-Moellendorff 1924a:126; Kägi 1917). Several of Callimachus' epigrams show an influence of the *Sylloge Theognidea*. The οὐδ' ἀπὸ κρήνης πίνω of GP 2 (Pf 28, *AP* 12.43) probably reflects the ἄλλης δὴ κρήνης πίομαι of Theognis line 962, and the μισέω καὶ περίφοιτον ἐρώμενον of this same poem, the ἐχθαίρω δὲ γυναῖκα περίδρομον of Theognis line 581 (Reitzenstein 1893:69). In addition, the ἐπισταίμην μοῦνος ἐγώ τὰ καλά of line 4 of Callimachus GP 5 (Pf 29, *AP* 12.51) may have been influenced by the τῶν δὲ καλῶν οὔ τι σὺ μοῦνος ἐρᾷς of line 696 of the *Sylloge Theognidea*. The *Sylloge* says that one is not alone in loving the beautiful, but Callimachus says (characteristically) just the opposite (Giangrande 1968:148-9). It is also possible that in GP 6 (Pf 52, *AP*

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12.230), Callimachus drew from the Ganymede theme of Theognis 1341-50 (Tarán 1979:9-10).

The *Sylloge Theognidea* is full of parallel structure enhanced by verbal repetition, as in lines 189-90,

> χρήματα μὲν τιμῶσι· καὶ ἐκ κακοῦ ἐσθλὸς ἔγημε
> καὶ κακὸς ἐξ ἀγαθοῦ· πλοῦτος ἔμειξε γένος.

Antithesis, what Carrière (1948:282-3) called *opposition symétrique*, is also prevalent (lines 41-2),

> ἀστοὶ μὲν γὰρ ἔθ' οἵδε σαόφρονες, ἡγεμόνες δὲ
> τετράφαται πολλὴν εἰς κακότητα πεσεῖν.

Many passages have conditional sentences (lines 435-6),

> εἰ δ' ἦν ποιητόν τε καὶ ἔνθετον ἀνδρὶ νόημα,
> οὔποτ' ἄν ἐξ ἀγαθοῦ πατρὸς ἔγεντο κακός,

and temporal contrast (line 355),

> τόλμα Κύρνε κακοῖσιν, ἐπεὶ κἀσθλοῖσιν ἔχαιρες,

Some of the poems in the *Sylloge* combine several of these features and are nearly as complicated in structure as epigrams of Callimachus. Here is an example (lines 53-8) from the early part of the *Sylloge* (the Florilegium Purum), which begins with a vocative to Cyrnus and may very well have been written by Theognis himself (see Appendix I):

> Κύρνε, πόλις μὲν ἔθ' ἥδε πόλις, λαοὶ δὲ δὴ ἄλλοι,
> οἵ πρόσθ' οὔτε δίκας ἤιδεσαν οὔτε νόμους,
> ἀλλ' ἀμφὶ πλευραῖσι δορὰς αἰγῶν κατέτριβον,
> ἔξω δ' ὥστ' ἔλαφοι τῆσδ' ἐνέμοντο πόλεος.
> καὶ νῦν εἰσ' ἀγαθοὶ Πολυπαΐδη· οἱ δὲ πρὶν ἐσθλοὶ
> νῦν δειλοί. τίς κεν ταῦτ' ἀνέχοιτ' ἐσορῶν;

The first line of this passage opposes the city that is still the same city with the people, who have changed. Line two begins a passage of temporal contrast: the people before

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were rubes who wore animal skins and lived outside the city. Embedded within is a further comparison framed by οὔτε . . . οὔτε and ἀλλά : the people knew neither justice nor laws, but instead wore goatskins and lived in the wild like deer. The temporal contrast is completed at the beginning of line 5: now these same people are the nobility, and this is emphasized by a restatement of the same point: οἱ δὲ πρὶν ἐσθλοὶ νῦν δειλοί. Passages of carefully framed argument generally proceeding (as in this poem) couplet by couplet occur all over the *Theognidea.*

Callimachus must certainly also have been influenced by other 3rd century poets (see Svennung 1945:26-30). The importance of Asclepiades for the epigrams of Callimachus has long been appreciated[127]. Many of the poems of Asclepiades have parallel structure and antithesis, as in this poem (GP 22, *AP* 12.105):

μικρὸς Ἔρως ἐκ μητρὸς ἔτ' εὐθήρατος ἀποπτάς
ἐξ οἴκων ὑψοῦ Δάμιδος οὐ πέτομαι,
ἀλλ' αὐτοῦ φιλέων τε καὶ ἀζήλωτα φιληθείς,
οὐ πολλοῖς εὐκρὰς δ' εἷς ἐνὶ συμφέρομαι.

In the first couplet, the hexameter says that Eros flew away from his mother, but the pentameter that he did *not* fly away from the house of Damis. This is then accentuated by ἀλλ' αὐτοῦ at the beginning of the third line, and the last line contains a further antithesis framed by οὐ and δέ, carefully divided at the caesura.

Asclepiades was particularly fond of conditional sentences, as in lines 3-4 of GP 11 (*AP* 5.64),

ἢν γάρ με κτείνῃς τότε παύσομαι, ἢν δέ μ' ἀφῇς ζῆν
καὶ διαθῇς τούτων χείρονα κωμάσομαι·

Moreover, his poem GP 1 (*AP* 5.169) begins with a priamel like Callimachus GP 2 (Pf

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28, *AP* 12.43). Callimachus may have incorporated these features of Asclepiades' poetry into his own.

Another sort of poem. The epigrams of Callimachus I have been discussing contain structural components not unknown to the poets of inscriptions but more artfully employed in poems often more complex than anything actually engraved on stone. These are, however, not the only sort of epigrams Callimachus wrote. In common with Asclepiades, Posidippus, and the other poets of the *ionische Hauptrichtung*, Callimachus also composed poems that have few if any of these rhetorical features but are instead organized around description or narration, often with verbal repetition. These poems have short sentences with a less complicated syntax, in most cases with some form of explicit address either to the poet himself or to someone else, and they usually construct a dramatic scene with explicit or implied discourse in monologue or dialogue (Garrison 1978:35-7). Although these poems have some affinities especially of vocabulary to epitaphs and dedications (Magini 2000), they were written in a way completely foreign to an inscription, and their subject matter is also often alien: many of the poems like this are among the ἐρωτικά of the poets of the Ionic school.

The first poet to write poems of this sort appears to have been Asclepiades (Reitzenstein 1893:159; Reitzenstein 1907:88-9). Many of his amatory epigrams string together short independent clauses one after another, often joined by καί rather than by logical particles (Knauer 1935:36), often with interspersed imperatives and interrogatives in a light and witty, almost clipped progression that affects the casualness of speech (see Knauer 1935:38-40; Fraser 1972:567; Garrison 1978:68). These poems much less often

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exploit the opportunities provided by the elegiac couplet for antithesis or parallel structure, and there is instead much greater enjambement and mid-line punctuation.

Here is an example, Asclepiades GP 10 (*AP* 5.150):

ὠμολόγησ' ἥξειν εἰς νύκτα μοι ἡ 'πιβόητος
Νικὼ καὶ σεμνὴν ὤμοσε Θεσμοφόρον,
κοὐχ ἥκει, φυλακὴ δὲ παροίχεται. ἆρ' ἐπιορκεῖν
ἤθελε; τὸν λύχνον, παῖδες, ἀποσβέσατε.

This poem is a narration made up of six independent syntactical units. The first four have indicative verbs and are joined either by καὶ or δὲ: Nico swore she would come tonight, she swore by Demeter, she hasn't come, and it's getting late. The poet then asks (presumably himself), did she mean to forswear, characteristically ending the question in mid-line. He then turns to his slaves and tells them to put out the light so he can go to bed, an expression usually interpreted either of disappointment (Knauer 1935:15) or indifference (Wilamowitz-Moellendorff 1924b:113; Cameron 1995:504), though the poem itself provides little further clarification.

This epigram constructs a dramatic scene: the poet is waiting up late at night with his slaves in his house and his girl hasn't come. Many of the ἐρωτικά do this, and Asclepiades was particularly adept at setting the scene in the very first line with considerable syntactical variety:

'Ερμιόνῃ πιθανῇ ποτ' ἐγὼ συνέπαιζον ἐχούσῃ (GP 4, *AP* 5.158)

νύξ, σέ γάρ, οὐκ ἄλλην, μαρτύρομαι, οἱά μ' ὑβρίζει (GP 13, *AP* 5.164)

πῖν', 'Ασκληπιάδη· τί τὰ δάκρυα ταῦτα; τί πάσχεις; (GP 16, *AP* 12.50)

εἰς ἀγορὰν βαδίσας, Δημήτριε, τρεῖς παρ' 'Αμύντου (GP 26, *AP* 5.185)

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We are in these poems with Hermione in her bedroom as she is undressing, or outside Pythias' door, or in a tavern with Asclepiades, or with the poet ordering his slave to go to market to make preparations for a dinner with a girl.

Callimachus does this too in many of his amatory poems, adopting a similar structure[128]. Here is one example:

GP 13 (Pf 43, *AP* 12.134)

ἔλκος ἔχων ὁ ξεῖνος ἐλάνθανεν· ὡς ἀνιηρόν
πνεῦμα διὰ στηθέων—εἶδες; —ἀνηγάγετο,
τὸ τρίτον ἠνίκ' ἔπινε, τὰ δὲ ῥόδα φυλλοβολεῦντα
τῶνδρὸς ἀπὸ στεφάνων πάντ' ἐγένοντο χαμαί.
ὤπτηται μέγα δή τι. μὰ δαίμονας, οὐκ ἀπὸ ῥυσμοῦ
εἰκάζω, φωρὸς δ' ἴχνια φὼρ ἔμαθον.

Like GP 10 of Asclepiades, this poem is composed of a number of relatively brief independent statements (though joined by δὲ or δή instead of by καὶ), which describe a scene in a tavern (Wilamowitz-Moellendorff 1924b:127) or a symposium (Gow and Page 1965b:167). One of the guests is keeping his wounded heart hidden. How painfully he sighed–did you see?

This poem was probably based on GP 18 (*AP* 12, 135) of Asclepiades, as many have observed (Reitzenstein 1893:159-60; Wilamowitz-Moellendorff 1924b:127; Gow and Page 1965b:167). Here is that poem:

οἶνος ἔρωτος ἔλεγχος· ἐρᾶν ἀρνεύμενον ἡμῖν
ἤτασαν αἱ πολλαὶ Νικαγόρην προπόσεις·
καὶ γὰρ ἐδάκρυσεν καὶ ἐνύστασε καὶ τι κατηφές
ἔβλεπε, χὠ σφιγχθεὶς οὐκ ἔμενε στέφανος.

The scene is again at a tavern or a symposium, the lover is trying (unsuccessfully) to hide his pain, and the garland is coming off his head though not (as yet) falling to the floor. The structure of this poem is also similar, consisting of short sentences or independent

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clauses. Though there are many similarities of form and theme, Callimachus' poem is livelier and freer, in part from the greater variety of sentence structure. His ending is also more interesting (see Reitzenstein 1893:159-60).

One of Callimachus' amatory poems uses this form of simpler syntax and consciously varied sentence structure to engage the reader in fictive conversation that "captures thought in motion", "unfolding the elements of mental life one by one in dramatic progression" (Walsh 1991:77):

GP 10 (Pf 45, *AP* 12.149)

'ληφθήσει· περίφευγε, Μενέκρατες' εἶπα Πανήμου
εἰκάδι, καὶ Λῴου τῇ—τίνι; τῇ δεκάτῃ
ἦλθεν ὁ βοῦς ὑπ' ἄροτρον ἑκούσιος. εὖ γ', ἐμὸς Ἑρμῆς,
εὖ γ', ἐμὸς· οὐ παρὰ τὰς εἴκοσι μεμφόμεθα.

The beginning of the poem is especially effective: the very first word places us in the presence of the poet, anticipating his conquest. What adds to his pleasure is the "I told you so": try as you might, Menecrates, you will be caught. The sudden question in the second line affects hesitation, which we are not meant to take seriously. The poet knows exactly when the ox came under the plow and can hardly contain his glee. This smug self-congratulation is reinforced by the understatement of the last line, "about these twenty days I am not complaining". Much of the success of this poem comes from the way Callimachus varies the tone. The future indicative at the beginning is confident, almost peremptory. This is then followed by a matter-of-fact recounting of the exact date of capture, interrupted almost in the middle with brief vacillation, then unadulterated boasting and a tongue-in-cheek conclusion.

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In the third and fourth lines of this poem, Callimachus repeats word for word the phrase εὖ γ', ἐμὸς to emphasize his exuberance. Verbal repetition is common among the ἐρωτικά; examples include ἥμισύ at the beginning of GP 4 (Pf 41, *AP* 12.73), the τὴν προπέτειαν ἔα / τὴν προπέτειαν ἐᾶν and ἀδίκημ' ἀδικέω of GP 8 (Pf 42, *AP* 12.118), ἔστι in the first line of GP 9 (Pf 44, *AP* 12.139), ὤμοσε in GP 11 (Pf 25, *AP* 5.6), and ἔγνων in GP 12 (Pf 30, *AP* 12.71).

Verbal repetition is especially important in the composition of the following poem:

GP 63

οὕτως ὑπνώσαις, Κωνώπιον, ὡς ἐμὲ ποιεῖς
  κοιμᾶσθαι ψυχροῖς τοῖσδε παρὰ προθύροις·
οὕτως ὑπνώσαις, ἀδικωτάτη, ὡς τὸν ἐραστήν
  κοιμίζεις, ἐλέου δ' οὐδ' ὄναρ ἠντίασα.
γείτονες οἰκτείρουσι, σὺ δ' οὐδ' ὄναρ· ἡ πολιὴ δὲ
  αὐτίκ' ἀναμνήσει ταῦτά σε πάντα κόμη.

The first two couplets are very similar in structure and phrasing through the first word in the pentameter, and οὐδ' ὄναρ is exactly repeated in lines 4 and 5. These phrases together with the repeated connectives οὕτως . . . ὡς provide much of the coherence of the poem, binding the first couplet to the second and the second to the third. Verbal repetition is more important in the structure of this poem than in any other epigram ascribed to Callimachus. There is, however, a fair chance that this poem is not his: it was rejected as spurious by Pfeiffer (1953:99), who thought that it was probably written by Rufinus. It was not so much the repetition that concerned Pfeiffer (since that is common in Callimachus' poetry) but the lack of inventiveness. There is also the obvious difficulty that this poem is about a woman, whereas all the rest of the ἐρωτικά are about

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boys (but see Tarán 1979:91-2).

Although poems with short sentences and simplified syntax often containing verbal repetition are most common among the amatory poems, some of Callimachus' epigrams on other subjects were also written in this way[129]. Most of these poems construct a dialogue that is reported in direct discourse. The best example among the dedication epigrams is this one:

GP 22 (Pf 34, *AP* 6.351)

τίν με, λεοντάγχ' ὦνα συοκτόνε, φήγινον ὄζον
θῆκε —τίς; —'Αρχῖνος. —ποῖος; —ὁ Κρής. —δέχομαι.

This poem begins as many an inscription with the object of the dedication speaking to the god or goddess, as in *CEG* 326 (see p. 64). It is, however, unusual in that neither the dedicator nor the verb of dedication is present in the first line. The description of the club as a φήγινον ὄζον, a branch from some sort of oak tree (Gow and Page 1965b:179), is also unusual and is what Köhnken (1993:122-3) called *Überinformation*. If this had been an actual inscription, which seems in any case highly doubtful[130], it would have accompanied the object that was dedicated and wouldn't have needed to be described so explicitly. The fictive speech of the oaken club is suddenly interrupted in the pentameter by Heracles himself, who impatiently interrogates the club about the name and nationality of the giver. After these have been given, in a laconic style befitting a Cretan, Heracles agree to accept the gift.

The poem plays with the convention of the speaking dedication (see Meyer 1993; Fantuzzi and Hunter 2002:425). The convention arose so that the reader, reading the

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inscription aloud, could give voice and actuality to the object that was dedicated. In this poem, however, the god speaks too, and rather peremptorily at that. We must supply two voices, as if reading *Winnie the Pooh* to children.

Callimachus also reflects on this convention in another dedication epigram, GP 25 (Pf 56, *AP* 6.149), but in a different way. A single voice of a dedicated bronze cock speaks in the poem but denies any direct acquaintance with the circumstances of the dedication, giving only what he has been told by a certain Euainetos, who vowed the dedication and is presumed reliable[131]. These poems bring to the fore the way information about the dedication is communicated by the epigram, something that, so far as we know, had never been done before Callimachus[132].

Among the ἐπιτύμβια there are three poems containing dialogue, GP 31 (Pf 13, *AP* 7.524), 42 (Pf 61, *AP* 7.725), and 51 (Pf 4, *AP* 7.317). All are composed in a similar way. GP 31 (see p. 83) starts without preamble, with a passer-by addressing first the tomb and then the dead body buried beneath. The epigram proceeds by a series of questions and answers, much like the dedication epigram to Heracles. The last couplet provides a witty ending to the poem (whose meaning has however been much disputed–the extensive literature is reviewed in Gutzwiller 1998:210-11).

GP 42 and 51 (see pp. 77 and 84) also begin with the passer-by addressing the person buried and consist first of a statement in the indicative, naming the dead person and giving pointed recognition of his death, Αἴνιε, καὶ σὺ γὰρ ὦδε, and Τίμων, οὐ γὰρ ἔτ' ἐσσί. This is then followed by one or two questions and the response of the dead person. All three poems reverse the normal convention: instead of the inscription

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beginning with address from the tomb to the passer-by, it is the passer-by who addresses the deceased.

Of the epideictic poems written with this sort of structure, the most interesting is also the longest of Callimachus' surviving epigrams[133]:

GP 54 (Pf 1, *AP* 7.89)

ξεῖνος Ἀταρνείτης τις ἀνείρετο Πιττακὸν οὕτω
τὸν Μιτυληναῖον, παῖδα τὸν Ὑρράδιον·
'ἄττα γέρον, δοιός με καλεῖ γάμος· ἡ μία μὲν δὴ
νύμφη καὶ πλούτῳ καὶ γενεῇ κατ' ἐμέ,
ἡ δ' ἑτέρη προβέβηκε. τί λώιον; εἰ δ' ἄγε σύμ μοι
βούλευσον ποτέρην εἰς ὑμέναιον ἄγω'.
εἶπεν· ὁ δὲ σκίπωνα γεροντικὸν ὅπλον ἀείρας·
'ἠνίδε κεῖνοί σοι πᾶν ἐρέουσιν ἔπος'.
(οἱ δ' ἄρ' ὑπὸ πληγῇσι θοὰς βέμβικας ἔχοντες
ἔστρεφον εὐρείῃ παῖδες ἐνὶ τριόδῳ.
'κείνων ἔρχεο', φησί, 'μετ' ἴχνια'. χὠ μὲν ἐπέστη
πλησίον, οἱ δ' ἔλεγον 'τὴν κατὰ σαυτὸν ἔλα'.
ταῦτ' ἀίων ὁ ξεῖνος ἐφείσατο μείζονος οἴκου
δράξασθαι παίδων κληδόνα συνθέμενος·
τὴν δ' ὀλίγην ὡς κεῖνος ἐς οἰκίον ἤγετο νύμφην,
οὕτω καὶ σύ, Δίων, τὴν κατὰ σαυτὸν ἔλα.

The poem is narration with a moral at the end, much as in the first of Callimachus' *Iambi*. There is another connection to this poem. The Pittacus of Mytilene who points out with his staff the boys and tops to the stranger is one of the seven sages to whom Amphalkes tries to give the golden cup in *Iambus* 1 (Fraser 1972:594). The little that we have of the first of the *Iambi* suggests that this poem was also put together in a way similar to GP 54. Both are essentially narrative. Apart from the μὲν . . . δὲ of the contrasting kinds of brides in lines 3-5[134], the sentences of GP 54 are strung together without rhetorical elements but with interspersed direct discourse and a mixture of verbs of different moods. The sentences are generally short, and the syntax is simple. Although the argument of the poem proceeds couplet by couplet, there is considerable enjambement, and many of

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the sentences end in the middle of the line. The structure of this epigram, so different from that of pre-Hellenistic inscriptions, is also similar to the structure of many of the narrative poems of Catullus.

Epigrammatic Endings

We saw in the case of Catullus that both the polymetric poems and the elegiac epigrams end in many different ways, but that the variety was greater among C1-C60. Many more of the short poems in elegiacs conclude simply without change of address or imperatives or similes or accusatives of exclamation. They end because the argument of the poem comes to an end. This difference between the two types of poems of Catullus is easily explained if we suppose that the poems of C69-C116 were written more nearly within the tradition of Greek epigram, since many of the poems of Callimachus and the other 3rd century Hellenists also end without any particular adornment. The reason these poems end like this is that they were grounded in the style of sepulchral and dedication inscriptions, and that is the way most inscriptions end.

The simplicity of the conclusions of most inscriptions is apparent from the poems I have already cited. Questions are very rare in inscriptions and are never used to form the end of the poem. "Point" is absent entirely. A few inscriptions before the third century end with an imperative (*CEG* 110, 141 and 150, pp. 65-6; *CEG* 162, p. 79) or an optative of wish (*CEG* 326, p. 64 *CEG* 227, p. 91), and there is an occasional poem that concludes with an aphorism or some other sort of generalized comment (see Labarbe

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1968:356-60), such as this hexametric inscription (*CEG* 40, FH 28) appearing in Attica at the base of a stele and dating from about 530-520 BC:

> τόπικλέος παιδὸς Δαμασιστράτο ἐνθάδε σῆμα
> Πεισιάναχς κατέθεκε· τὸ γὰρ γέρας ἐστὶ θανόντο[ς].

The conclusion is from *Iliad* 16.457 (also 23.9).

The great majority of inscriptions end without any of these features, as in *CEG* 132 (p. 63), *CEG* 27 (p. 66), *CEG* 127 (p. 67), and *CEG* 14 (p. 74), to give only a few examples. Nearly a third of Callimachus' epigrams also end like this[135]. Among these are the epigrams I have previously discussed that most resemble actual inscriptions, such as GP 46 (p. 74) and GP 18 (p. 76), but also GP 19 (Pf 39, *AP* 13.25), 37 (Pf 16, *AP* 7.459), and 60 (Pf 24, *AP* 9.336). Many poems more complicated in structure also end simply, such as GP 40 (Pf 15, *AP* 7.522) and 45 (Pf 17, *AP* 7.271).

Together with these poems are others that show nearly all the different types of endings used by Catullus in his short poems in elegiacs, including poems that end with an aphorism or other generalizing statement–GP 11 (Pf 25, *AP* 5.6), 13 (Pf 43, *AP* 12.134), 38 (Pf. 18, *AP* 7.272) and 41 (Pf 9, *AP* 7.451); optative of wish–GP 5 (Pf 29, *AP* 12.51), 23 (Pf 53, *AP* 6.146), and 58 (Pf 8, *AP* 9.566); and "point". Perhaps the best examples of "point" are GP 17 (Pf 37, *AP* 13.7), 51 (Pf 4, *AP* 7.317), and 52 (Pf 3, *AP* 7.318), though there are many other poems with clever endings we may wish to grace with this description. What is clear, however, is that Callimachus, like Catullus (see pp. 47-8), apparently thought "point" suited to the subject matter of some of his epigrams but inappropriate in many others, a view he seems to have shared with the other poets of the

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3rd century (for Asclepiades, see for example Knauer 1935:60-1).

Several of Callimachus' epigrams conclude with the introduction of a vocative and address near the end of the poem, and nearly half of his surviving epigrams have a vocative in the last three lines–closer to the practice of Catullus in C1-C60 than in C69-C116 (see Table 3, p. 122). The role of the vocative in motivating the conclusion in Callimachus is particularly conspicuous in GP 2 (Pf 28, *AP* 12.43), Λυσανίη, σὺ δὲ ναίχι καλὸς καλός (see p. 98) and in GP 10 (Pf 45, *AP* 12.149), εὖ γ', ἐμὸς Ἑρμῆς, / εὖ γ', ἐμὸς (see p. 105)[136]. In several of his epigrams[137], Callimachus places a vocative near the end of the poem that refers to the same person as a vocative placed near the beginning, a subtle form of ring cycle Catullus also used in many of his poems. What is striking, however, is that in no case does Callimachus repeat exactly the same vocative. The φίλε in the last line of GP 7 (Pf 32, *AP* 12.148), for example, refers back to Μένιππε in the first line, both referring to the same person but with a different word or phrase. In Catullus, on the other hand, the vocative that is repeated is nearly always exactly the same word, as if to make the connection of the ending with the earlier part of the poem more transparent. The *ocelle* near the end of the C50 (see p. 41) is certainly the *Licini* of line 1 of this poem, but the *Fabulle* repeated as such in the first and last lines of C13 is closer to Catullus' normal practice.

Only two of Callimachus' epigrams end with a change of address[138], which we saw to be quite a common sort of conclusion among Catullus' poems in hendecasyllables and iambic meters though not among his elegiac epigrams (see pp. 46-7). Other 3rd century Hellenists also occasionally ended poems in this way, for example Posidippus

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AB 19, 78, and 140 (GP 9, *AP* 12.168); and Leonidas of Tarentum GP 11 (*AP* 7.440) and 31 (*A.Pl.* (A) 306).

Many of the epigrams of Callimachus conclude with imperatives or questions: 10 of the 23 or 44% of the epigrams 6 lines or longer have either one or the other in the last three lines. We saw one example of an epigram, GP 48 (Pf 40, *AP* 7.728), whose ending is formed by an imperative to the passer-by, ἕρπε χαίρων, in a way similar to several surviving inscriptions (see p. 80). A few other sepulchral epigrams do this, such as GP 47 (Pf 26, *AP* 7.460), γαῖα φίλη . . . μήτε σύ κούφη γίνεο. There are also dedication epigrams that end with imperatives, such as GP 14 (Ath. 7.318 B), Κλεινίου ἀλλὰ θυγατρὶ δίδου χάριν, and GP 21 (Pf 33, *AP* 6.347) ἀλλὰ σὺ μὲν δέξαι, πότνια, τὴν δὲ σάου (see p. 91). Imperatives are also used at the end of epigrams to form generalized comment that concludes the poem, for example:

GP 41 (Pf 9, *AP* 7.451)

τῇδε Σάων ὁ Δίκωνος Ἀκάνθιος ἱερὸν ὕπνον
κοιμᾶται· θνῄσκειν μὴ λέγε τοὺς ἀγαθούς.

Here the imperative is part of an adage meant to include the deceased. Callimachus also uses an imperative as a part of a concluding generalizing statement in GP 38 (Pf 18, *AP* 7.272), "φεῦγε θαλάσσῃ / συμμίσγειν Ἐρίφων, ναυτίλε, δυομένων."

There are many Hellenistic epigrams whose conclusion is formed by a question, as often in Catullus but, as I have said, unattested among surviving inscriptions before the 3rd century. The question may come at the very end of the poem, as in Callimachus GP 16 (Pf 55, *AP* 6.148) and Asclepiades GP 28 (*AP* 7.11) and 32 (*AP* 9.63), but more

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commonly it occurs just before the end and motivates the response with which the poem concludes. One example of this is Callimachus GP 12 (Pf 30, *AP* 12.71), in which the question "χαλεπῇ δ' ἤντεο θευμορίῃ;" is followed by a one-word response " ἔγνων", which is then expanded in the remainder of the poem. GP 51 (Pf 4, *AP* 7.317) has a similar structure. The question "τί τοι, σκότος ἢ φάος, ἐχθρόν;" is answered by "τὸ σκότος", and the reason darkness is preferable is explained in the balance of the pentameter. Questions with responses of a similar form occur in several of the poems of Catullus, as we saw in Chapter One (see p. 47).

In summary, the endings of Callimachus' epigrams, like the rest of their composition (and subject matter), reflect the grounding of these poems and all of 3rd century Hellenistic epigram in the tradition of sepulchral and dedication inscriptions. The simplest inscriptions are descriptive and lack any particular structure at the conclusion. This is also true of many of Callimachus' epigrams, particularly those which are closest in composition and subject matter to poems actually engraved on stone. A few inscriptions end with imperatives to a god or a passer-by, or with optatives of wish, and Callimachus ends several of his poems this way too.

Many of Callimachus' epigrams, however, conclude in a way that inscriptions do not. Several of the poems have clever and unexpected endings justifying the use of the word "point", some end by introducing address to redirect the poem and motivate the conclusion, and several end with a change in syntax or verb mood, perhaps a sudden question that provokes the response which concludes the poem. Similar endings are found in the poetry of the other 3rd century poets[139]. We find all of them also in the

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poems of Catullus, though other sorts of endings such as terminal simile and change of address are less common in the poetry of the Hellenists.

Callimachus and Catullus

Although the earliest inscriptions in Italic languages are very old, dating at least to the 7th century BC[140], the first complete epigrams in Latin appear much later. Among the oldest are the poems from the sepulcher of the Scipios (*CIL* I^2 7, 9-11, 15; *CLE* 6-9 and 958), the earliest of which (*CIL* I^2 7, *CLE* 6) dates probably from the 3rd or early 2nd century BC (Courtney 1995:218-9; Kruschwitz 2002:59) and is in the archaic Latin meter of Saturnians [141]:

Honc oino ploirume	cosentiont R[omane
duonoro optumo	fuise uiro
Luciom Scipione.	filios Barbati
consol censor aidilis	hic fuet a[pud uos.
Hec cepit Corsica	Aleriaque urbe,
dedet Tempestatebus	aide mereto[d.

The poem begins with a declarative statement without vocative[142] and ends simply, again in the declarative without questions, imperatives, or optative subjunctives. If the *apud uos* of line 4 is correct, as seems likely ("ohne Zweifel", see Kruschwitz 2002:67) since this phrase is used in a similar way in another of the Scipio poems (*CIL* I^2 9, *CLE* 7), there is explicit address presumably to those visiting the tomb; but there is no vocative. The structure is also simple, consisting of a series of declarative statements strung together without verbal repetition, antithesis, or parallel structure.

Not all of the Scipio epigrams are this plain. Another (*CIL* I^2 10, *CLE* 8), dating

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from the middle of the second century BC (Courtney 1995:226; Kruschwitz 2002:71) and also in Saturnians, reads as follows:

Quei apice insigne Dial[is	fl]aminis gesistei,
mors perfe[cit] tua ut	essent omnia breuia
honos fama uirtusque	gloria atque ingenium,
quibus sei in longa licu[i]set	tibe utier uita,
facile facteis superases	gloriam maiorum.
qua re lubens te in gremiu,	Scipio, recip[i]t
Terra, Publi, prognatum	Publio, Corneli.

This poem begins with a declarative statement but with a second-person verb addressed to the deceased. The argument proceeds with a more elaborate syntax including a conditional clause (*si in longa licuisset tibi utier uita*). There is then logical summation leading to the ending signaled by *quare*, as in several poems of Catullus (see p. 39), and a vocative to Publius Cornelius Scipio, which occupies nearly all of the last line and a half and is broken up into four parts, the last, *Corneli*, ending the poem.

This second poem is more typical of the majority of archaic Latin verse inscriptions, which show undoubted evidence of Greek influence (van Sickle 1987:48-50; Morelli 2000:11-64). Address and vocatives, for example, are quite common. Among the thirty epigrams from *CIL* I^2 which are complete or nearly so[143], 17 (57%) have a vocative and 21 (70%) have address, frequencies not very different from those of Callimachus and Asclepiades (see Table 2) and much higher than of Greek inscriptions even in the second volume of the *CEG*. Although the vocative may be to the deceased, as in *CIL* I^2 10 (and *CIL* I^2 1603), by far the most common vocative is to the passer-by, usually addressed as *hospes*, a near equivalent of the Greek vocative ξένε (see Massaro 1992:89; Dickey 2002:148-9).

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The syntax at the beginning of the sentence also reveals an affinity with Greek epigram. Among this same group of 30 inscriptions, 60% begin with a declarative sentence, 20% with a declarative sentence with vocative, and 20% with something else, much the same frequencies as in the poems of the 3rd century Hellenists. There is, however, one difference: not a one of these verse inscriptions contains a question. Questions are also rare in Greek inscriptions, as we have seen, but they are quite common in Hellenistic epigrams and the short poetry of Catullus. The composers of Latin inscriptions, like those of the Greek, appear to have thought an initial question inappropriate to a sepulchral epigram. The Hellenists felt no such inhibition.

Finally, the endings of many early Latin inscriptions resemble those of Greek epigrams. Wishes and aphorisms are relatively common and in many cases probably had direct Greek antecedents. For example, line 3 of *CIL* I^2 1202 (*CLE* 11)

Bene rem geras et ualeas, dormias sine qura.

is similar to the ending of *CEG* 110 (FH 5, see p. 65): τὺ δ' εὖ πρᾶσ', [ὦ] παροδῶτα. The last line of *CIL* I^2 1836 (*CLE* 62)

Valebis, hospes, ueiue, tibi iam m[ors uenit].

and of *CIL* I^2 2138 (*CLE* 119)

cum diu ambulareis, tamen hoc ueniundum est tibi.

remind us of *CEG* 34 (FH 85), ἐπεὶ καὶ σὲ μένει θάνατος. Nearly a quarter of the 30 Latin inscriptions have endings formed from imperatives. Especially common are *uale* or *abi* (*CIL* I^2 1209, 1210, 1211, and 1702), much like ἀλλὰ χαίρετε of *CEG* 162 (see p. 79) or the ἔρπε χαίρων of Callimachus GP 48 (Pf 40, *AP* 7.728, see p. 80).

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These similarities all argue for a Greek influence. We might be inclined, moreover, to label this influence as specifically Hellenistic (van Sickle 1988), since the frequency of address and other features of composition argue for a closer resemblance to Hellenistic verse than to preceding Greek epitaphs or dedication inscriptions. Despite these similarities, however, there remain important differences in the composition of early Latin inscriptions and the verse of Asclepiades, Callimachus, and their contemporaries. The most pronounced of these lies in the structure of the verse. Many of the poems of the Hellenists are composed with rhetorical elements such as antithesis, parallel structure, conditional clauses, and logical argument; these also occur in early Latin verse inscriptions, as we saw for *CLE* I^2 10 (*CLE* 8), but they are much less common. Although there are a few poems with antithesis[144] or a conditional clause[145], and perhaps two with temporal contrast[146], most early Latin inscriptions lack these features. Their composition is even less like that of Hellenistic erotic epigram, with its short sentences, varied syntax, and monologue or dialogue constructing a dramatic scene.

Much the same could be said of the epigrams of Ennius, which if genuine must have been written before about 170 BC. Only five couplets of elegiac verse have survived from Ennius, which may have formed part or all of four or five single-distich poems (see Skutsch 1985). One has a conditional clause (*si fas endo plagas caelestum ascendere cuiquam est*), but there is no antithesis or parallel structure. The two most interesting are cited in the same passage of Cicero in the *Tusculanae Quaestiones* (I.15.34, from Warmington 1967:402):

loquor de principibus; quid? poetae nonne post mortem nobilitari volunt?

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unde ergo illud:

> Aspicite o ciues senis Enni imaginis formam.
> hic uestrum pinxit maxima facta patrum.

mercedem gloriae flagitat ab iis quorum patres adfecerat gloria. Idemque:

> Nemo me lacrimis decoret nec funera fletu
> faxit. cur? uolito uiuos per ora uirum.

The first is the only couplet of Ennius that doesn't begin with a declarative sentence, and the only to have either a vocative or address, both to the citizens of Rome, reminding us of the *apud uos* of the nearly contemporaneous *CIL* I^2 7, (Lausberg 1982:276). The second couplet is the only one with an interesting ending. The midline question followed by a response is a stylistic feature completely absent from Greek inscriptions before the 3rd century and from early Latin inscriptions, but there are many examples of questions of this kind in the work of Hellenistic poets, particularly those of the *ionische Hauptrichtung*. This is not enough evidence to show that 3rd century Greek poetry influenced the elegiac distichs of Ennius–there is just too little material for us to judge, but it is perhaps enough at least to raise the possibility, sometimes excluded[147].

Latin poems with a structure much more typical of Hellenistic epigram first appeared at about 100 BC, probably just after the appearance of Meleager's *Garland* in Rome[148]. We have five of those early experiments: two by Valerius Aedituus, two by Q. Lutatius Catulus, and one by Porcius Licinus. When we compare these poems with those of Callimachus and the other 3rd century Greek poets, we are struck by how closely they resemble one another (Reitzenstein 1907:96-7; Laurens 1989:164-177), not just in theme but also in composition. The Latin poets had certainly read at least some Hellenistic

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epigram: one of the poems of Q. Lutatius Catulus (Morel 1927:43) is clearly based on Callimachus GP 4 (Pf. 41, *AP* 12.73). Moreover, two of these five early experiments in Latin begin with questions, and all have a vocative and explicit address by the poet or voice of the poem somewhere in the poem.

In the structure of these epigrams we find many of the features we noted in the poems of Callimachus. For example, in one of the epigrams of Valerius Aedituus (Morel 1927:43 #120) the argument of the poem is organized distich by distich.

> Quid faculam praefers, Phileros, quae est nil opus nobis?
> ibimus sic, lucet pectore flamma satis.
> istam nam potis est vis saeva extinguere venti
> aut imber caelo candidus praecipitans;
> at contra hunc ignem Veneris, nisi si Venus ipsa
> nulla est quae possit vis alia opprimere.

The first two lines pose a question in the hexameter, with the continuation and explanation in the pentameter. The second and third couplets provide antithesis, with *istam nam* and *at contra hunc* placed conspicuously at the beginning of their respective verses and distichs. A torch can be extinguished by wind and rain, but no force except Venus herself can put out the fire of Venus, that is of love. Many archaic Latin verse inscriptions in elegiac meter also proceed couplet by couplet[149], but the argument is never so tightly constructed.

The only surviving epigram of Porcius Licinus is on a similar subject though written in a very different way (Morel 1927:46):

> Custodes ovium tenerae propaginis, agnum.
> quaeritis ignem? ite huc; quaeritis? ignis homost.
> si digito attigero, incendam silvam simul omnem,
> omne pecus flammast, omnia quae video.

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This poem, like many of the ἐρωτικά of Asclepiades and Callimachus, is composed of short sentences, with a variety of syntax including a succession of questions and an imperative, all ending in the middle of the line. There is also verbal repetition that makes an important contribution to the structure of the poem, particularly of *omnis* in the last couplet.

The resemblance of the composition of these five poems to 3rd century Greek poetry is so great, that we can now recognize a clear attempt by Latin poets to embrace the tradition of Hellenistic verse. This cannot be said of archaic Latin verse inscriptions, despite the evidence for Greek and perhaps even Hellenistic influence. Valerius Aedituus, Q. Lutatius Catulus, and Porcius Licinus were not writing poems within a Latin tradition but transposing a Greek tradition into Latin verse (Ross 1969:139-40). It is this same tradition that also directly influenced the verse of Catullus and the other *poetae noui*.

To demonstrate the importance of the tradition of Greek epigram and in particular of Callimachus to the composition of the short poetry of Catullus, I now compare them directly. I begin with syntax and address. In the following table, I have reproduced from Table 2 the entries for Callimachus and Asclepiades as representatives of the Greek poets of the 3rd century and compare them to those of Catullus, first for the elegiac epigrams and then for the poems in hendecasyllabics and iambics (which I have argued are similar in style and structure). I have also included the percentages of poems with any sort of vocative and with questions or imperatives in the last three lines of the poem. I have chosen the last three lines, since this includes all of the vocatives and questions or

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imperatives that are related to the ending of the poems. I have included all of the poems, but the percentages are only marginally different if just poems 6 lines or longer are counted (see Table 8, p. 171).

Table 3: Greek Hellenistic Epigram and Catullus

	Declare	Declare vocative	Other	Any vocative	Explicit address	Voc at end	?/! at end	n
Asclepiades	55%	15%	30%	61%	64%	39%	46%	33
Callimachus	55%	16%	29%	61%	71%	47%	39%	62
Catullus EE	42%	35%	23%	58%	63%	19%	38%	48
Catullus HI	17%	37%	46%	89%	90%	40%	52%	52

I begin my discussion with Catullus' elegiac epigrams. Something like three quarters of those poems begin with a declarative statement, as is true also of the epigrams of Callimachus and Asclepiades. Address and vocatives by the poet are found about equally often somewhere in the poems and are lacking in over a third. About 40% of all these poems have an imperative or interrogative in the last 3 lines.

There are, however, two important differences. When Catullus began his elegiac epigrams with a declarative statement, he was more than twice as likely to include a vocative in the first sentence[150]. What makes this all the more interesting is that after Catullus only one other Greek or Latin poet has a similar inclination: Martial (see Chapter 3).

The other difference is that Catullus much less frequently placed a vocative in the last three lines of his elegiac poems than did the Greeks[151]. His poems in

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hendecasyllabics and iambic meters are considerably closer to Hellenistic practice in this regard, though these poems otherwise show many more differences from Greek epigram. They are, for example, much less likely to begin with a declarative statement, and a larger percentage (twice that of Catullus' elegiac epigrams) start with imperatives, questions, or optative or hortatory subjunctives. All but a few poems have some form of address. There is also a somewhat greater tendency for the poems in hendecasyllabics and iambic meters to have imperatives and interrogatives at the end. These differences do not indicate an absolute distinction based on meter, since many poems among the elegiac epigrams bear a close resemblance in structure and substance to poems in hendecasyllables and iambic meters. When however the poems are taken as a whole, there are evident dissimilarities in the use of syntax and address. Furthermore, as we saw in Chapter 1, there are also differences in the structure of the poems. The majority of C69-C116 are built around some form of rhetorical scaffolding, such as parallel structure or antithesis or logical argument. That is also true of most of the epigrams of Callimachus and the other Hellenistic Greeks, who may have adopted those features from the poems of the *Sylloge Theognidea.*

The majority of Catullus' poems in hendecasyllabics and iambic meters, on the other hand, are more likely to proceed *de proche en proche.* This is unlike most Hellenistic epigram but does resemble certain (mostly erotic) poems of the 3rd century Greeks of the *ionische Hauptrichtung*, such as Asclepiades, Callimachus, and Posidippus. These poets used the elegiac meter in a very different sort of poem, generally composed with short sentences of simple syntax and a mix of verb mood, frequently constructing a

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dramatic scene.

Consider, for example, the following two poems, Asclepiades GP 15 (*AP* 12.46) and C38 of Catullus:

οὐκ εἶμ' οὐδ' ἐτέων δύο κεἴκοσι καὶ κοπιῶ ζῶν·
ὦρωτες, τί κακὸν τοῦτο; τί με φλέγετε;
ἦν γὰρ ἐγώ τι πάθω τί ποιήσετε; δῆλον, Ἔρωτες,
ὡς τὸ πάρος παίξεσθ' ἄφρονες ἀστραγάλοις.

Malest, Cornifici, tuo Catullo,
malest, me hercule, et laboriose,
et magis magis in dies et horas.
quem tu, quod minimum facillimumque est,
qua solatus es allocutione?
irascor tibi. sic meos amores?
paulum quid lubet allocutionis,
maestius lacrimis Simonideis.

Both begin with declarative statements in the indicative, followed in Catullus by two questions interspersed with comment and in Asclepiades by three questions. Both consist of relatively short sentences with simple syntax and contain neither antithesis nor parallel structure. Both have address, in Catullus' poem to his friend Quintus Cornificius, and in Asclepiades to the gods of love. Both construct a scene of disputation with the poet out of sorts and complaining about the disappointing behavior of Cornificius, on the one hand, and of the Erotes on the other. I am not suggesting that the epigram of Asclepiades directly influenced this poem of Catullus, but the affinities of composition are unmistakable.

Many of the hendecasyllabic and iambic poems of Catullus were written in a similar way. Of the poems discussed in Chapter 1, C8 (pp. 19-20), C10 (pp. 26-7), C32 (p. 17), and C55 (p. 28) all have relatively short sentences, mix verb moods with

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interspersed imperatives or interrogatives, construct a scene, more dramatic in some cases than others, with monologue (C8) or dialogue (C10, C32, C55). The resemblance of the structure of C10 to Callimachus GP 54 (Pf 1, *AP* 7.89) is particularly striking. Both are essentially narrative poems composed of concatenated and mostly independent clauses and sentences, both contain dialogue, and both end with comment emerging from the story. These poems are in other respects quite different, but it is intriguing to wonder whether the longest of Callimachus' surviving epigrams might not have had some influence on the composition of the longest of Catullus' hendecasyllabic poems.

The content of the polymetric poems has long been recognized to have been strongly influenced by Hellenistic Greek poetry[152]. I want to venture a similar claim about certain features of the *composition* of these poems. The liveliness and immediacy we sense when we read the polymetric *libellus* was not (at least not completely) the invention of Catullus but, like much else in his poetry, profoundly influenced by his reading of Callimachus and the other 3rd century Greek poets, as I hope I have made explicit. Catullus must also have been influenced by Greek lyric poetry and the short poems of Laevius, but there can be little doubt that the ἐρωτικά of the Hellenistic Greek poets played a direct role in the development of a certain kind of poem in Latin, first in the epigrams of Valerius Aedituus, Q. Lutatius Catulus, and Porcius Licinus, and then later for the neoteric poets and Catullus.

At the same time, however, Greek epigram also provided the tradition within which Catullus' short elegiac poems were written. As I showed in Chapter 1, these poems are mostly different in composition from the poems in hendecasyllabics and

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iambic meters, being more likely to begin with a declarative sentence without vocative and less likely to contain address; more likely to use as their scaffolding a variety of rhetorical devices such as parallel structure and antithesis, and less likely to construct a dramatic scene; and more inclined to end with a declarative sentence without imperatives or questions, simile, or change of address. All of these characteristics are similar to those of the majority of Hellenistic epigrams. This is not to say that Catullus' short poems in elegiacs lack distinctively Roman features, for example of vocabulary (Ross 1969:140), but that the composition of these poems is firmly rooted within the Greek tradition. It is unnecessary to suppose (as in Ross 1969:137-69) that Catullus learned how to write his elegiac poems by reading Roman epigrams based on Hellenistic models. We know Catullus had read Callimachus and was deeply influenced by his poetry. There is every reason to believe that Catullus learned to write elegiac epigrams just like Valerius Aedituus, Q. Lutatius Catulus, and Porcius Licinus; not second hand, but by reading Callimachus and the other Hellenists themselves.

If then we ask the question so often posed, whether Greek epigram had a more important influence on the polymetric poems or on the epigrams of Catullus, the answer we are obliged to give is that, for composition, the influence of the Hellenists was pervasive on all of Catullus' shorter poems, though the nature of this influence was different in poems of different meters. Beginning with the appearance of Meleager's *Garland* in Rome at about 100 BC, Hellenistic epigram became the most important stimulus not only for the hendecasyllables and elegiacs of Catullus, but for all short poetry in Latin, and this is particularly evident for the method of composition of these

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poems.

Just as Callimachus served as the most important model for Catullus and had the greatest influence on the style of his verse, so Catullus for Martial. It is to Martial and later epigram that we now turn.

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Chapter 3: Martial

Of all the ancient poets, the one who had the greatest and most lasting influence on the genre of epigram was Martial. It was Martial who gave epigram the form that it largely retains today, a short poem of light verse with a witty conclusion. Lessing, who was careful to define epigram as just the sort of poem Martial mostly wrote, claimed that Martial was the first who made a clear and definite concept out of the epigram (Lessing 1771/2000:228)[153]. When Elizabethan poets began writing epigrams, it was to Martial rather than to Catullus or the Greeks that they turned (Whipple 1925:384-96). Ben Jonson, who was well acquainted with Latin literature, certainly knew Catullus and translated parts of C5 and C7[154], but Martial is everywhere in his *Epigrams*, a combination of light satirical and praise poetry to his friends, patrons, and sovereign. The influence of Martial is especially prominent in some of Jonson's finest poems, such as "To My Book"[155], "Inviting a Friend to Supper"[156], and "To My First Son"[157], whose last line, "As what he loves may never like too much" is a translation of the last line of Martial's sepulchral epigram to the boy Glaucias (VI 29), *quidquid ames cupias non placuisse nimis.*[158]

The poems Martial wrote that Lessing so admired and that had such a great influence on Jonson and other European poets were written in a way that was different from earlier Greek and Latin epigram, not out of ignorance but from design. Martial was acquainted with both of the *Garlands*, with Lucillius, Nicarchus, Catullus, and Latin poetry during the empire, and from this work he took certain features of composition,

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sometimes without regard to meter or context, and molded them into a particular vision of epigram that was remarkably uniform in the 12 books of his mature work. Martial wasn't interested in appealing only to a literary elite but wanted instead to be read by as many people as possible, *toto notus in orbe Martialis* (I 1), *me manus omnis habet* (VI 60)[159]. Just as he chose for the most part direct and accessible subjects, he also wrote most of his poems in an easy and approachable style:

> mea carmina, Sexte, (X 21:5-6)
> grammaticis placeant ut sine grammaticis.

Anything else would be a foolish waste of time:

> turpe est difficiles habere nugas (II 86:9-10)
> et stultus labor est ineptiarum.

Martial consciously varied the subject, length, and meter of his poems throughout his books (Holzberg 1988 37-41; Sullivan 1991:219; Scherf 1996:62-8) but paid less attention to diversity of composition. Having found something that pleased him, he used it again and again. There is a predictability in the organization of much of Martial's verse; one feels this especially in the invective poems, so many of which come to a "point" in a similar way.

Martial adopted certain features of composition also used by the Hellenistic Greeks and by Catullus, such as the use of vocatives and parallel structure; we shall see many examples of this later in the chapter. Although he makes elegant use of them in some poems, in others he exaggerates their use as if in parody of the form of the poem itself:

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II 33

Cur non basio te, Philaeni? calua es.
cur non basio te, Philaeni? rufa es.
cur non basio te, Philaeni? lusca es.
haec qui basiat, o Philaeni, fellat.

Martial writes about kissing in hendecasyllables as Catullus did in C5 and C7, and the question followed by response reminds us of the *Antwortformel* in Catullus (Weinreich 1926:44-5), for example of C85. We miss, however, the charm of Catullus' verse. The *cur non basio te, Philaeni* is repeated too often, and the ending is facile. There are unfortunately too many poems like this in Martial's surviving work.

That is not to say that Martial was incapable of writing well. There are also many fine epigrams throughout his twelve books, especially the tenth. The difficulty, as Martial himself says in I 16, is that in addition to these *bona*, there are *quaedam mediocria* and *mala plura*[160]. Filling so many books with epigrams must have been challenging even for Martial:

facile est epigrammata belle VII 85:3-4
scribere, sed librum scirbere difficile est.

The result is that Martial is the first poet in Western literature of whom we can say with confidence that he wrote too many poems; their sheer number, however, makes the characterization of his methods easier and more convincing than for any other ancient poet.

In this chapter I propose to describe some characteristics of Martial's composition, using the same approaches as in the previous two chapters for Catullus and the 3rd century Greeks. As I do this, I compare Martial to other writers of epigram both

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Greek and Latin, who we can be reasonably sure were read by Martial and influenced his poetry.

Martial and Greek and Latin Epigram

Martial calls his poems *epigrammata* in many places in his twelve books[161]. Even VI 64, which is 32 lines long and entirely in dactylic hexameters, is referred to (in VI 65) as *hexametris epigramma*. Martial was familiar with the form of inscriptions and 3rd century Hellenistic epigram and places his poems within that tradition. He had probably read at least some of the epigrams of Callimachus, though he says (perhaps facetiously) in IV 23 that Callimachus thought his own poems not as good as those of Brutianus, of whom nothing now is known[162]. Like Callimachus and the other 3rd century Hellenists, Martial wrote poems in the form of dedication and sepulchral inscriptions (Prinz 1911:4-21; Autore 1937:9-46), though epigrams of this kind represent only a small percentage of his total work. One of his dedication epigrams (IV 45) may actually have been inscribed, but most were clearly not intended for this purpose. In IX 16 and 17, the imperial eunuch Flavius Earinus is said to dedicate to Aesculapius his hair and a mirror. These poems are unlikely to have actually accompanied the items in question but are rather part of a series in the ninth book that flatter Earinus (IX 11-13, 16-17, 36, see Barwick 1957:297), the cutting of whose hair is also celebrated by Statius in 3.4 of the *Siluae*. Another poem (I 31) also has the form of a dedication epigram, but there is no actual presentation. Instead, what we are given is the vow of Encolpus to dedicate to Apollo his newly cut hair but

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only *after* Pudens obtains the rank of Chief Centurion (Autore 1937:18).

In III 29, Zoilus dedicates the chains of slavery:

> Has cum gemina compede dedicat catenas,
> Saturne, tibi Zoilus, anulos priores.

This is the only epigram of Martial written in sotadeans (see West 1982:144-5), an unusual meter perhaps used for its novelty, and the dedication is clearly not intended to be inscribed. Martial is pillorying an upstart freedman who has exchanged his fetters for the rings of knighthood[163]. The form of this poem is similar to that of a dedication epigram, though the object that is dedicated is described in more detail than is normal for an actual inscription (see p. 107), and the name Zoilus is a tip-off (if one is needed) that the poem is intended as satire (see Prinz 1911:38-9). This name is used uniformly by Martial for a disreputable character (Shackleton Bailey 1993c; Watson and Watson 2003:14), *non vitiosus homo es, Zoile, sed vitium*, "vice incarnate".

Many of the sepulchral epigrams[164] are about historical figures, such as Glaucias (VI 28 and 29), the young freedman of Atedius Melior whose death is also mourned in 2.1 of the *Siluae*; the charioteer Scorpus (X 50, 53); the parents of Domitian's architect Rabirius (X 71); the actor Paris (XI 13), a lover of Domitia (Suetonius *Dom.* III.1) put to death by Domitian (Dio 67.3.1); Cornelius Fuscus (VI 76), a Praetorian Prefect who died in the Dacian wars; Claudius Etruscus père (VII 40), also lamented in *Siluae* 3.3; and Lydia (XI 69), the dog of Martial's friend Dexter. The slave girl Erotion was probably also an actual person. Martial seems to have been deeply affected by her death and wrote three epigrams in memory of her (V 34, V 37, X 61). The great majority of the other

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sepulchral poems may also have been consolatory or even actual inscriptions.

There are, however, three sepulchral epigrams that are clearly satirical (Prinz 1911:17): IX 29 of a garrulous witch whose bones should be covered lightly with earth so that dogs can dig them up; and two others, placed close to one another in the same book, X 63 and 67. The first is an epitaph of a woman who, like the priestess in Callimachus GP 48 (Pf 40, *AP* 7.728), is never given a name and is said to have died in the presence of her children. As in Callimachus, the details of the poem seem exaggerated and the woman self-satisfied (Autore 1937:41-2; Watson and Watson 2003:350-3), but the poem gives itself away only in the last line (Prinz 1911:19),

una pudicitae mentula nota meae. (X 63:8)

The word *mentula* would never have been used on an actual epitaph, especially of a woman who says of herself (in line 3 of the poem), *Romano spectata est vita Tarento.* Only women of respectability could participate in the *ludi saeculares* celebrated on the Tarentum of the Campus Martius (Friedlaender 1886b:144).

The other invective epitaph, X 67, is about the sexual appetite of an old woman who lies in her grave itching with lust for her bald husband:

Pyrrhae filia, Nestoris nouerca,
quam uidit Niobe puella canam,
Laertes auiam senex uocauit,
nutricem Priamus, socrum Thyestes,
iam cornicibus omnibus superstes,
hoc tandem sita prurit in sepulchro
caluo Plutia cum Melanthione.

Many of the details of this poem have antecedents in Imperial Greek epigram (particularly AP 11.65-72, see Watson and Watson 2003:353-6). The poet Myrinus, who

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contributed to the *Garland* of Philip (Gow and Page 1968b:319), says of the old woman Laïs (GP 4, *AP* 11.67),

> ὗ τετρηκόσι' ἐστίν, ἔχεις δὲ σὺ τοὺς ἐνιαυτούς
> δὶς τόσσους, τρυφερὴ Λαΐ κορωνεκάβη,
> Σισύφου ὦ μάμμη καὶ Δευκαλίωνος ἀδελφή·
> βάπτε δὲ τὰς λευκὰς καὶ λέγε πᾶσι 'τατᾶ'.

Laïs is said to be the grandmother of Sisyphus and the sister of Deucalion, and this was probably the inspiration for Plutia's even longer list of primordial relatives that occupy more than half of Martial's poem, with characteristically no name the same as in Myrinus. In place of "crow-Hecuba", as old as a crow, or even τρικόρωνος, three times a crow's age (Lucillius *AP* 11.69), Plutia is so old that she has outlived all the crows. As often, Martial is engaging in the typically Hellenistic practice of rivaling or outdoing his predecessors (Ludwig 1968:299-300; Tarán 1979:2-3); we shall see other examples of this later in the chapter (see also Offermann 1980:108; Gaisser 1993:236-42). Myrinus advises Lais in the last line to dye her white hair and call everyone "papa" in order to pass for a younger woman. Martial picks this up not in X 67 but in an earlier poem, I 100 (Prinz 1911:57-8), where the old woman Afra is said to have *mammas atque tatas*, also apparently in an attempt to deflect attention from her age.

In addition to poems on over-sexed spinsters, Greek epigram beginning in the 3rd century (see Prinz 1911:21-87; Longo 1967:92-111; Blomqvist 1998:51) had a long tradition of invective epigram on a wide variety of physical defects, peculiar customs, sex, slaves, women, and various professions (exhaustively catalogued in Brecht 1930; see also Nisbet 2003). The popularity of this sort of poem appears to have increased

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during the Imperial period, since the number of invective poems in the 11th book of the *Anthologia Palatina* is considerably larger from the *Garland* of Philip than from the *Garland* of Meleager (Blomqvist 1998:45). Both of the *Garlands* combined, however, contributed fewer poems to Book 11 than Lucillius and Nicarchus, two Greek poets apparently active during the reign of Nero (Rozema 1971:1-2; Schulte 1999:12-13), just before and perhaps still at the time of Martial's arrival in Rome in 64 AD.

Although there is some disagreement about the exact number of poems of Lucillius that directly influenced poems of Martial[165], there is little question of Lucillius' importance. I give just one example (see Burnikel 1980:32-6), the following poems about women with an unsavory smell.

Lucillius *AP* 11.239

οὔτε Χίμαιρα τοιοῦτον ἔπνει κακὸν ἡ καθ' Ὅμηρον,
οὐκ ἀγέλη ταύρων, ὡς ὁ λόγος, πυρίπνους,
οὐ Λῆμνος σύμπασα καὶ Ἀρπυιῶν τὰ περισσά,
οὐδ' ὁ Φιλοκτήτου ποὺς ἀποσηπόμενος,
ὥστε σε παμψηφεὶ νικᾶν, Τελέσιλλα, Χιμαίρας,
σηπεδόνας, ταύρους, ὄρνεα, Λημνιάδας.

Martial IV 4

Quod sicca redolet palus lacuna,
crudarum nebulae quod Albularum,
piscinae uetus aura quod marinae,
quod pressa piger hircus in capella,
lassi uardaicus quod euocati,
quod bis murice uellus inquinatum,
quod ieiunia sabbatariarum,
maestorum quod anhelitus reorum,
quod spurcae moriens lucerna Ledae,
quod ceromata faece de Sabina,
quod uulpis fuga, uiperae cubile,
mallem quam quod oles olere, Bassa.

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Both of these poems consist of two parts–a list of foul odors, followed by a conclusion with vocative and address to a woman who smells even worse. The first section has only a single verb placed in the first line, ἔπνει or *redolet*. Five notorious stenches are given as *exempla* in Lucillius, all mythological; Martial characteristically provides more than twice this number. The lists are organized by verbal repetition and parallel structure. In Lucillius, each of the four lines of the first two couplets begins with οὐ or one of its relatives, and ὥστε of line 5 sets up the resolution. Martial uses *quod* clauses instead, restricted to a single line and giving a single *exemplum* except in the next-to-last line, which gives two. He varies the position of *quod* within the line but places it increasingly in the first position towards the end of the poem, so that the "point" of the last line, driven home by the accumulation of foul odors and exaggerated verbal repetition and alliteration, comes as relief.

Martial IV 4 is one of several poems[166] that use a model of Lucillius and expand it into a longer poem, with the absurdity of detail providing much of the humor (Burnikel 1980:117-8). In some cases just the opposite occurs: a longer poem of Lucillius is the model for a poem of a single couplet[167]. A similar relationship also exists between Martial's poem XI 101 and *AP* 11.110 (Burnikel 1980:111), one of a series of Imperial Greek epigrams satirizing very thin men mostly found within *AP* 11.88-111. This poem, however, is not by Lucillius but by his contemporary Nicarchus (Longo 1967:78-92; Schulte 1999:10-15), some of whose poems also served as models for Martial (Autore 1937:97-8; Burnikel 1980:110-16; Holzberg 2002:27-8). Nicarchus' epigram describes in 8 lines a competition of three men to determine who is the thinnest. Sosipater wins,

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saying in the last distich:

"ἐμὲ στεφανώσατ'· ἐγὼ γὰρ
εἰ βλέπομ', ἥττημαι· πνεῦμα γὰρ εἰμι μόνον."

Martial wrote a poem on a similar theme but of a single distich:

XI 101

Thaida tam tenuem potuisti, Flacce, uidere?
tu, puto, quod non est, Flacce, uidere potes.

The "point" is set up by question and response as often in Martial and is reinforced by repetition of the vocative and of the verbs *uidere* and *posse*. Martial appears to have borrowed the joke from Nicarchus, but his method of composition is rather different. We shall see more evidence for this later.

As I hope to show in some detail during the course of this chapter, the poet who had the greatest influence on Martial's poetry including his invective epigrams was not Lucillius or Nicarchus but rather Catullus (Friedlaender 1886a:24-5; Reitzenstein 1907:108-9), the poet Martial says he most admired. The name 'Catullus' appears 14 times in Books I-XII in a context that clearly refers to the poet (Swann 1994:33-5)[168]. Martial wrote most of his poems in the meters Catullus preferred, organized his poems into cycles as in the *liber Veronensis Catulli* (Barwick 1957), showed a partiality for some of the same themes, particularly sexual perversion, and defended his lascivious language in almost identical terms, *lasciua est nobis pagina, uita proba* (I 4.8) and *nam castum esse decet pium poetam / ipsum, uersiculos nihil necesse est* (C16.5). Of the 48 elegiac epigrams in the *Catulli Veronensis liber*, half are invective, a proportion almost as large as in a typical book of Martial[169].

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Though Catullus is everywhere in Martial's poetry[170], his influence is sometimes minimized (Szelest 1986:2592-5) or even ignored (Brecht 1930:101-4; Barwick 1959:30-3; Longo 1967:92-111), since Catullus vituperated real people but Martial only "types", and Catullus used "point" at the end of his epigrams much less frequently. This is to ignore, however, the enormous influence Catullus exerted on other aspects of Martial's poetry (Friedlaender 1886a:24-5; Kruuse 1941:297; Laurens 1989:307-16).

The importance of Catullus' influence is apparent in the following epigram (see Schöffel 2002:465):

VIII 54

Formosissima quae fuere uel sunt,
sed durissima quae fuere uel sunt,
o quam te fieri, Catulla, uellem
formosam minus aut minus pudicam!

The first word *formosissima* places us from the beginning in the world of Catullus, of Quintia who *formosa est multis* and of Lesbia who *formosa est . . . pulcerrima tota*, both from C86. The beginning of a poem with a superlative reminds us of the *disertissime* at the start of C49 (Watson and Watson 2003:225-6). The *quae fuere uel sunt* is also from C49, *quot sunt quotque fuere* (see p. 31), but the order of present and past tenses is characteristically reversed. Martial makes these references explicit by naming the girl of the poem 'Catulla' (Friedlaender 1886b:30). The poem is also organized like many of Catullus' epigrams, with parallel structure and verbal repetition. We will be in a better position to see these and other influences once we have looked at the structure of Martial's poetry in greater detail.

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Catullus never wrote verse in flattery of patrons or political figures (quite the opposite), nor did he indulge in philosophical reflection as Martial occasionally does, for example of the joys of the countryside or the virtues of the unencumbered life. For these poems there were other precedents. Hellenistic poets wrote poetry complimentary to rulers, not only epigrams[171] but longer poems such as *Idylls* XVI and XVII of Theocritus. There are many more poems of this kind in the *Garland* of Philip, which may have been in part the model for the verse that Martial wrote (Laurens 1965:325; Holzberg 1988:22; Watson and Watson 2003:32). Although several of the poets in Philip's *Garland* wrote panegyric epigrams[172], the one from whom we have the largest number of poems of this kind is Crinagoras, who lived from about 70 BC to at least 10 AD (Gow and Page 1968b:212-3) and wrote epigrams addressed to many of the most elevated political figures of his time, including Augustus[173], Antonia Minor (daughter of Antony and Octavia)[174], M. Claudius Marcellus (son of Octavia)[175], Cleopatra-Selenê (daughter of Antony and Cleopatra)[176], Germanicus (either Drusus the Elder or Nero Claudius Germanicus, see Gow and Page 1968b:234)[177], and the emperor Tiberius[178].

The best evidence that Martial had read at least some of Crinagoras' poems is the clear affinity, for example between GP 6 (*AP* 6.345) and Martial XIII 127, both on roses that once bloomed in spring but now do so in winter (Prinz 1911:9; Autore 1937 10); and between GP 24 (*AP* 9.562)[179] and XIV 73, on a parrot that says "Hail" to Caesar (Prinz 1911; Autore 1937:9-10), though both poets could have heard this story independently[180]. There are also two related poems on the death of young boys, GP 17 (*AP* 7.628) of Crinagoras, whose last two lines read

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ὦ χθὼν σηματόεσσα καὶ ἡ παρὰ θινὶ θάλασσα,
παιδὶ σὺ μέν κούφη κεῖσο, σὺ δ' ἡσυχίη.

and Martial VI 68, whose last line is similar (Autore 1937:39):

sit, precor, et tellus mitis et unda tibi.

Each poem prays that the earth be light or gentle to the boy, presumably because his body has been buried on land. In Crinagoras' poem the sea is enjoined to be quiet because the boy is buried by the shore, whereas in Martial's poem the boy was drowned near Baiae but his burial location isn't given.There is no particular reason why Martial's poem should pray to water to be kind to the boy after death (this comes a bit too late), and the addition of *unda* in the last line is most easily explained as reference to the earlier poem of Crinagoras.

Martial's poem X 47, *Vitam quae faciant beatiorem*, perhaps his most famous, and others he wrote about the joys of the simple life[181] have precedents in Greek poetry, such as Leonidas of Tarentum GP 33 (*AP* 7.736) from the *Garland* of Meleager, and Parmenion of Macedonia GP 6 (*AP* 9.43) from the *Garland* of Philip. There are also many Latin poems on this theme, notably Horace *Satires* 2.6 (see Watson and Watson 2003:139-40). The Latin epigrams that had the greatest influence on this sort of poetry, however, may have been those in the *Anthologia Latina* attributed to L. Annaeus Seneca[182]. That Martial knew the prose writings of Seneca is clear from the many similarities of phrasing of his epigrams with *sententiae* from Seneca's works[183], for example VI 62:4 *cuius uulturis hoc erit cadauer?* and Seneca *ep.* 95.43, *at hoc hereditatis causa fecit: uultur est, cadauer expectat*; and VII 73:6 *quisquis ubique*

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habitat, Maxime, nusquam habitat and Seneca *ep.* 2.2, *nusquam est qui ubique est* (Friedrich 1910:583-4). That Martial knew the epigrams attributed Seneca is even clearer, for a similar reason (see Barwick 1959:30-1): for example VII 69:2 *cuius Cecropia pectora dote madent* and 'Seneca' SB 401:8 *cuius Cecropio pectora melle madent*; V 74:4 *uno non poterat tanta ruina loco* and 'Seneca' SB 398:6 *uno non potuit tanta iacere solo*, both the last lines of poems on Pompey; and the second lines of two programmatic poems, VIII 3:2 *est nimium: quid adhuc ludere, Musa, iuuat?* and 'Seneca' SB 427:2 *ludere, Musa, iuuat: Musa ⟨se⟩uere, uale!*[184]

Since the attribution to Seneca and even the dates of composition of the poems in the *Anthologia Latina* are not securely established, it might seem an open question whether Martial was borrowing from 'Seneca' or 'Seneca' from Martial. There is, however, good reason to believe that Martial wrote later. In addition to the truism that light verse borrows from serious poetry and not the other way around, there is this poem attributed to Seneca (SB 431):

> Est mihi rus paruum, fenus sine crimine ⟨paruum⟩,
> sed facit haec nobis utraque magna quies.
> pacem animus nulla trepidus formidine seruat
> nec timet ignauae crimina desidiae.
> castra alios operosa uocent sellaeque curules
> et quicquid uana gaudia mente mouet.
> pars ego sim plebis, nullo conspectus honore,
> dum uiuam, dominus temporis ipse mei.

The beginning provided the model for the opening of Martial IX 18,

> Est mihi–sitque precor longum te praeside, Caesar–
> rus minimum, parui sunt et in urbe lares.

Martial plays with the phrase *est mihi rus paruum* by giving only the first two words and

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then leaving the reader in suspense about what the poet actually owns. He fills the rest of the first line with address to Domitian and completes the phrase only at the beginning of the second line, changing *paruum* to *minimum.* This is what Offermann (1980) called *Übertrumpfen*: as we already saw in the case of Plutia who in X 67 is older than all the crows (see p. 134), Martial frequently adopts the Hellenistic practice of altering the wording of his sources to rival or outdo them. There can be little question that Martial's epigram came after the poem of 'Seneca'[185].

There are numerous similarities in theme between Martial's reflective poems and three of the 'Seneca' poems: SB 431, 438, and 442. Martial begins X 47 by saying that he is going to tell *quae faciant vitam beatiorem*, reversing the opening of 'Seneca' in SB 442 (Prato 1955:44),

> Non est (falleris) haec beat⟨a⟩, non est,
> quam uos creditis esse, uita:

Martial says that one of the things that makes the good life is a *mens quieta*, echoing SB 431.2, *sed facit haec nobis utraque magna quies*. When the poet of SB 431 says *pars ego sim plebis, nullo conspectus honore*, we are not very far from the *toga rara* and *prudens simplicitas* of Martial X 47.

Within the series of poems attributed to Seneca there are eight written in praise of the victorious campaign of 43 AD in Britain by the Emperor Claudius. These poems may have been written by Seneca during his exile by Claudius in 41 AD (Harrington 1915:208). Martial seems to have known this work. In SB 417, 'Seneca' speaks metaphorically of the earth struck by the lightning bolt of the Emperor, *tuo Caesar*

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fulmine. Line 3 of Martial VI 83 uses a similar conceit of Domitian,

nam tu missa tua reuocasti fulmina dextra

The last two words of the hexameter of line 1 of SB 423 are *Germania Rhenum*; in II 2:3 of Martial, *Germania Rheno*. There are many similarities in the manner of composition of Martial's poems and those attributed to Seneca, which Martial may have adopted after reading these epigrams (Szelest 1986:2606). I shall have more to say about this later in the chapter.

Catullus and 'Seneca' are not the only Latin poets whose work Martial knew and appreciated. He mentions with favor Domitius Marsus, Albinovanus Pedo, and Cornelius Lentulus Gaetulicus as poets of epigram in the preface to Book I and in several other places (see Sullivan 1991:97-100)[186]. The only possibly complete poems to have survived in Latin of these authors are a few epigrams of Domitius Marsus[187]. Martial also mentions a number of contemporary poets, including Voconius Victor[188], who wrote *doctos libellos*; L. Arruntius Stella[189], consul in 101 and writer of erotic elegies and other poems; Sulpicia[190], who wrote light, humorous verse with erotic content; Martial's friend the poet Canius Rufus[191] from Gades; and L. Stertinius Avitus, Martial's patron and consul in 92, whom Martial calls *note . . . sublimi pectore vates* in the preface to Book IX (see Szelest 1986:2580)[192]. Unhappily, we are just as ignorant of the style and content of this poetry and the milieu in which Martial worked as we are of Catullus' contemporaries, the other *poetae noui*.

In summary, there is good reason to believe that Martial was familiar with most of Greek and Latin epigram. Several of his poems were written within the tradition of

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sepulchral and dedication inscriptions. He was clearly aware of the poetry of Callimachus and of the other poets of Meleager's *Garland*, as well as of the verse of Crinagoras and the poets of the *Garland* of Philip. Many of Martial's poems refer to poems of Catullus, 'Seneca', and the Imperial Greek poets Lucillius and Nicarchus, all of whom appear to have had an important influence on the style and content of his poetry. These poets, and others whose work has unfortunately not survived, formed the artistic tradition within which Martial composed his verse.

Beginnings and Address in Martial

The time has come to look at Martial's verse more closely. I start by constructing a table as I did for Greek epigram in Chapter 2, giving the syntax of sentences at the beginning of Martial's epigrams and the frequency of vocatives and explicit address (see Table 4 below)[193]. Several conclusions are immediately apparent. The poems in *de Spectaculis Liber* were clearly composed differently from those in Books I-XII. Poems beginning with a declarative statement with a vocative are much less frequent[194], and there is a markedly lower percentage of poems containing vocatives or explicit address from the poet or voice of the poem[195]. We shall see later in the chapter that the epigrams in *de Spectaculis Liber* were also much less likely to have questions, imperatives, and vocatives near the ends of the poems. These differences are particularly striking, since Martial's later practice was so consistent: there is surprisingly little variation among Books I-XII in the various columns of Table 4[196].

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Table 4: Beginnings and Address in Martial's Epigrams

	Declarative	Declarative with vocative	Other	Any vocative	Explicit address	n
de Spec Liber	66%	16%	19%	53%	56%	32
Book I	35%	48%	18%	77%	80%	118
Book II	35%	39%	26%	84%	94%	92
Book III	41%	43%	16%	77%	85%	100
Book IV	35%	42%	24%	76%	84%	89
Book V	31%	47%	22%	83%	86%	83
Book VI	42%	44%	15%	84%	86%	94
Book VII	33%	34%	32%	86%	91%	99
Book VIII	42%	38%	20%	78%	90%	82
Book IX	43%	37%	20%	70%	75%	104
Book X	34%	37%	29%	74%	81%	104
Book XI	44%	33%	22%	81%	82%	108
Book XII	44%	37%	19%	71%	79%	95
Averages from Books I-XII only						
All poems	38%	40%	22%	78%	84%	1168
Elegiacs	39%	39%	22%	78%	85%	857
Hen/Iamb	38%	40%	23%	80%	81%	307

One consideration is that the poems in *de Spectaculis Liber* may be different because the subject matter is different. Nearly all the poems in this book are epideictic or panegyric, whereas poems of this kind are in the minority in Books I-XII. When, however, we separate the epigrams of Books I-XII into poems of different kinds, that is

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into the customary groupings of dedication, sepulchral, erotic, panegyric, epideictic, and invective, and then construct a table like Table 4, the percentages in the various columns for the different kinds of poems are similar[197]. In particular, for the epideictic and panegyric epigrams, the percentage of poems beginning with a declarative sentence is lower, and the percentage with vocatives and address anywhere in the poem is much higher than for the poems in *de Spectaculis Liber*. We can see this from the following table[198]:

Table 5: Martial's Panegyric and Epideictic Epigrams in Books I-XII

	Declarative	Declarative with vocative	Other	Any vocative	Explicit address	n
I-XII: Panegyric	38%	33%	30%	79%	84%	122
I-XII: Epideictic	34%	34%	31%	77%	85%	265
de Spec Liber	66%	16%	19%	53%	56%	32

These considerations reinforce our impression that Martial was still developing his style at the rather late age (for a poet) of 40, when he was writing the first of his surviving books, published in 80 AD (Friedlaender 1886a:51; Sullivan 1991:6); but that five to six years later, at the time of the appearance of Books I and II, the characteristics of his verse were well established[199].

The second conclusion from Table 4 is that, at least for the syntax at the beginning of the poem and the frequency of vocatives and explicit address, the differences in Martial's practice in poems of different meters are small. When the poems of Books I-XII are separated into those in elegiac meter and those in hendecasyllabics

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and iambic meters, as I did earlier with Catullus, the percentages are almost identical in nearly every column, in stark contrast to those of C69-C116 and C1-C60 (see Table 3, p. 122). In particular, the percentage of Martial's poems beginning with a declarative statement without vocative is nearly the same for poems in elegiacs on the one hand and hendecasyllabics and iambic meters on the other, as are the percentages of poems with vocatives or explicit address anywhere in the poem.

The percentages in Table 4 are somewhat misleading, however, since I have combined the hendecasyllabic poems with the poems in iambic meters. I did this for Catullus because the poems in these meters resemble one another in composition and content, and because there are too few iambic/choliambic poems for the percentages of those poems given alone to be meaningful. With Martial, on the other hand, there are enough poems in the various meters to calculate the averages separately. When this is done, small differences emerge:

Table 6: Martial's Poems in Hendecasyllabics, Elegiacs, and Iambic Meters

	Declarative	Declarative with vocative	Other	Any vocative	Explicit address	n
Hendecasyllables	34%	43%	24%	83%	85%	226
Elegiac distichs	39%	39%	22%	78%	85%	857
Iambic meters	47%	33%	20%	70%	73%	81

We can now see that poems in hendecasyllabic and iambic meters (of which all but 7 are in choliambics)[200] were in fact treated somewhat differently. Martial was more likely to begin a poem with a declarative sentence with vocative in the hendecasyllabic

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poems. The percentages in the columns giving the frequency of vocatives or explicit address anywhere in the poem are also higher[201]. Poems in elegiac distichs are intermediate. All of these disparities are small by comparison to those between C1-C60 and C69-C116 of Catullus but nevertheless indicate that distinctions based on meter are not completely absent from Martial's poems.

If we now compare Martial's epigrams to those of his immediate predecessors, we discover some interesting differences[202]:

Table 7: Imperial Greek and Latin Epigram

	Declarative	Declarative with vocative	Other	Any vocative	Explicit address	n
Poets of the *Garland* of Philip						
Philodemus	52%	21%	28%	69%	76%	29
Crinagoras	49%	20%	31%	57%	63%	51
Antiphilus	58%	16%	26%	46%	50%	50
Argentarius	51%	27%	22%	62%	68%	37
Latin and Greek Poets during the rule of Nero						
'Seneca'	57%	22%	22%	48%	60%	65
Lucillius	71%	20%	10%	29%	35%	123
Nicarchus	67%	19%	14%	42%	44%	36
Elegiac Epigrams of Catullus and Martial						
Catullus	42%	35%	23%	58%	63%	48
Martial	39%	39%	22%	78%	85%	857

In the first four rows of the Table 7, I show percentages from representative poets from the *Garland* of Philip, which are remarkably similar to the ones given in Table 2 for

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Callimachus, Asclepiades, and the other 3rd century Hellenists. The only exception among the authors included in Table 7 is Philodemus, whose somewhat more prevalent use of vocatives or some other form of explicit address is in part responsible for the greater liveliness of his verse, which no reader can fail to appreciate (Gow and Page 1968b:373).

'Seneca' is also similar in these aspects of composition to the poets of the two *Garlands*, but Lucillius and Nicarchus are quite different. These Imperial Greek poets had a greater inclination to start a poem with a declarative statement without vocative and to avoid initial imperatives and questions. Their poems are also remarkably sparing of explicit address. To read epigrams composed like this, we must go back to 4th century inscription. The striking similarity of Lucillius and Nicarchus to one another and difference between the composition of their poems and all other Greek and Latin epigram is consonant with the the subjects of their poems (Schulte 1999:13), which are also similar to one another but largely different from everyone else's before Martial. It is of course impossible to tell whether Lucillius and Nicarchus wrote in this way because they thought it suitable for satire or for some other reason. What we can say is that Martial, who wrote on many of the same themes, did so unlike his Imperial Greek predecessors in invective verse. This can be seen at the bottom of Table 7, where I have reproduced the percentages of the elegiac poems of Catullus and Martial. I have used only the elegiac poems, since apart from two epigrams each of Crinagoras and 'Seneca' and one of Lucillius, all of the poems of the poets in Table 7 are in this meter.

Martial differs from nearly all of his predecessors in the almost two-fold greater

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tendency to start his poems with a declarative sentence with vocative. Only the short poems of Catullus show the same tendency, and this is just as true of Catullus' poems in hendecasyllabics and iambic meters as of his elegiac epigrams (see Table 3, p. 122). Martial also differs from the other poets in Table 7 in his greater use of vocatives and address generally in his poems. The high frequency of address in Martial's poems is also similar to the practice of Catullus, though not of Catullus' elegiac poems but rather of the poems in hendecasyllables and iambic meters.

Martial mentions the themes of C1-C60, particularly of the hendecasyllabic poems, much more often than those of the elegiac epigrams; he seems to have been especially fond of the dedication poem C1, the two *passer* poems C2 and C3, and the kiss poems C5 and C7[203]. In addition to the subject matter, he appears also to have responded preferentially to some aspects of the composition of the hendecasyllabic poems. When Martial began writing his own poems in this meter, he apparently adopted much of Catullus' practice, and he may then have decided that if the more frequent use of vocatives and address was appropriate for poems in hendecasyllables, why not for the poems in other meters as well? Whatever Martial's motivation, the result is that his elegiac epigrams contain vocatives and address almost as often as his poems in hendecasyllables and iambic meters (see Table 6), and both sorts of poems more closely resemble the polymetrics of Catullus in this regard than any other short poetry in stichic meters, Greek or Latin.

There is another indication that Catullus' polymetric poems were an important inspiration for the frequent use of vocatives and address in Martial. In C1-C60, Catullus

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addresses many different people but also animals and inanimate objects, such as Lesbia's sparrow in C2.1, water in C27.5, Sirmio in C31.1, a papyrus in C35.2, and hendecasyllables in C42.1. In the epigrams, however, that is not the case. Only people or gods are addressed with vocatives[204]. Martial follows the practice of the polymetric poems. In all of Books I-XII, there are poems with vocatives to animals, places, or inanimate objects. Nearly a third of these vocatives are addressed to Martial's poetry books, but as in Catullus there are poems addressed to things (a beard, V 48.8; a fountain, VII 50.1; a rose, VII 89.1), to places (Rome, III 66.4, X 53.2, X 74.1; Narnia VII 93.1), and to verses of particular meters (scazons, VII 26.1). There is a somewhat disproportionate representation of vocatives to animals, places, or inanimate objects in Martial's hendecasyllabic poems[205], but the discrepancy is small, and 62% of these vocatives occur in poems in elegiac distichs[206].

Though the frequency of vocatives and explicit address is nearly as high in Martial as in the polymetric poems of Catullus, the manner in which Martial uses these features of his verse is often different. Catullus used vocatives to organize the matter of his poems, changing the person or thing addressed in order to move the poem from one subject to another (see Chapter 1). Martial does this occasionally, for example:

VII 23

Phoebe, ueni, sed quantus eras cum bella tonanti
ipse dares Latiae plectra secunda lyrae.
quid tanta pro luce precer? tu, Polla, maritum
saepe colas et se sentiat ille coli.

The vocative at the beginning introduces an imperative and address to Apollo, urging him

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to come join the celebration of Lucan's birthday. The poet then turns in the third line to Lucan's widow Polla Argentaria (Vioque 2002:176), and the change of address is signaled by a personal pronoun, as often in Catullus (see pages 18-20), followed immediately by the vocative. The change of address in this poem is part of the ending, as often in Catullus though only in C1-C60 (see pages 43-4). For Martial, however, change of address of any kind is rare and VII 23 is exceptional. The repetition of the same vocative from the beginning of the poem at the end is much more common, providing a form of ring composition. I discuss this prominent feature of his verse later in the chapter when I describe the endings of his poems.

In Catullus the vocatives and address are always an important part of the tenor of the poem. Address provides engagement and is often part of the construction of a dramatic scene. In Martial, on the other hand, address can be almost incidental. In some cases the vocatives seem to have been introduced only to provide syntactical variety. In XI 104, the poet is complaining that his wife refuses to be sodomized, even though many famous wives have done this for their husbands:

> pedicare negas: dabat hoc Cornelia Graccho, (XI 104:17-18)
> Iulia Pompeio, Porcia, Brute, tibi;

The apostrophe to Brutus relieves the stiff succession of nominatives and datives[207]. A similar thing occurs at the beginning of VIII 50, as the poet asks which sculptor molded a bowl:

> Quis labor in phiala? docti Myos anne Myronos? (VIII 50:1-2)
> Mentoris haec manus est an, Polycite, tua?

In a great many other cases, the vocatives seem unrelated to the rest of the poem

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and are nearly adventitious, as in this poem:

VII 90

Iactat inaequalem Matho me fecisse libellum:
si uerum est, laudat carmina nostra Matho.
aequales scribit libros Caluinus et Umber:
aequalis liber est, Cretice, qui malus est.

This poem continues the theme of I 16, that in addition to *bona* even a good book of poetry contains *mediocria* and *mala.* Martial uses this topic as a pretext to criticize Calvinus and Umber, presumed from the context to be poets but otherwise unknown. But what does Creticus have to do with any of this? This name is used in Martial only in this poem and was probably fabricated for the occasion (Vioque 2002:482). It seems to have been added to construct a conversation as in so many of Catullus' polymetrics, but Creticus is mentioned only this once, and the effect of the vocative on the poem is so slight that *Cretice* is practically dispensable.

Many of the vocatives scattered through Martial's verse are names of people we can't identify and have usually been assumed to have been made up for the occasion of the poem (Shackleton Bailey 1993c:323-6). This is especially likely for the invective poems, since Martial says explicitly in the preface to Book I that he does not give the actual names of the people he pillories. In some cases, however, the people addressed are historical. These vocatives, even though seemingly adventitious, can be important for a different reason, as in the following poem:

III 39

Iliaco similem puerum, Faustine, ministro
lusca Lycoris amat. quam bene lusca uidet!

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The vocative in the first line was probably inserted because Faustinus was rich (see for example the description of his villa in III 58) and probably a patron. Placing his name in the poem was a guarantee of immortality, *datur aeterno victurum carmine nomen* (X 26.7), which Martial thought many a reader desired[208]:

> gaudet honorato sed multus nomine lector, (V 15:3-4)
> cui uictura meo munere fama datur.

Faustinus turns up in exactly the same position in the hexameter of another poem:

V 32

> Quadrantem Crispus tabulis, Faustine, supremis
> non dedit uxori. 'cui dedit ergo?' sibi.

and another[209]

V 36

> Laudatus nostro quidam, Faustine, libello
> dissimulat, quasi nil debeat: imposuit.

The vocative also bears little relation to the subject of the poem in this epigram, addressed to Regulus, another of Martial's patrons:

V 21

> Quintum pro Decimo, pro Crasso, Regule, Macrum
> ante salutabat rhetor Apollodotus.
> nunc utrumque suo resalutat nomine. quantum
> cura laborque potest! scripsit et edidicit.

And of this poem to his rich friend Flaccus (see Howell 1980:243):

I 98

> Litigat et podagra Diodorus, Flacce, laborat.
> sed nil patrono porrigit: haec cheragra est.

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There is no particular reason why Regulus or Flaccus are addressed in these poems other than the one of putting their names into print. A similar thing could be said of the addressees of a considerable number of Martial's poems.

These three poems to Faustinus and the ones to Creticus, Regulus, and Flaccus have another thing in common. All of them have vocatives without any other second-person reference, something we saw Callimachus also did, perhaps in response to the many passages in Theognis that address Cyrnus in this way (see pp. 77-9 and Appendix I). Now it is possible that Martial's use of vocatives without other second-person reference was influenced by the verse of Theognis, but there is another, more likely explanation. Vocatives of this kind are quite common in Lucillius and Nicarchus. Lucillius had almost certainly read at least some of Theognis: lines 3 and 4 of *AP* 11.390 are a paraphrase of Theognis 87-90, with much of the vocabulary in common (Rozema 1971:233). About a quarter of Lucillius' vocatives are also unaccompanied by any other second-person reference such as a pronoun or second-person verb. The following poem is remarkable in this respect, since the same vocative Ἄλκιμε is used twice in this way:

AP 11.103

ἐξ ἀτόμων Ἐπίκουρος ὅλον τὸν κόσμον ἔγραψεν
εἶναι τοῦτο δοκῶν, Ἄλκιμε, λεπτότατον.
εἰ δὲ τότ' ἦν Διόφαντος, ἔγραψεν ἂν ἐκ Διοφάντου,
τοῦ καὶ τῶν ἀτόμων πουλύ τι λεπτοτέρου,
ἢ τὰ μὲν ἄλλ' ἔγραψε συνεστάναι ἐξ ἀτόμων ἄν,
ἐκ τούτου δ' αὐτάς, Ἄλκιμε, τὰς ἀτόμους.

Like *AP* 11.110 of Nicarchus (see pp. 136-7), this poem is in the series in the *Anthologia Palatina* on very thin people and is absurdly exaggerated to humorous effect. Both Διόφαντος (transparent) and Ἄλκιμος (strong) are probably fictitious, as are

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nearly all of the names Lucillius used in his poems (Longo 1967:54). Both occurrences of Ἄλκιμος are in pentameters in exactly the same position. Although these vocatives seem unrelated to the rest of the poem, the repetition of Ἄλκιμε in the last line and its placement in exactly the same position of the verse does form a ring that contributes to the ending of the poem. As I explain later in the chapter, the repetition of vocatives at the beginning and end of an epigram is something that Martial also does often.

Vocatives without accompanying second-person verbs, pronouns, or pronominal adjectives occur much more often in the poems of Lucillius in the epigrams of Martial[210]. This difference is less significant than it may seem, however, since the addition of a second-person pronoun or verb in Martial is no guarantee that the vocative will have anything to do with the remainder of the poem. Here, for example, is another epigram addressed to Martial's wealthy patron Faustinus:

I 114

Hos tibi uicinos, Faustine, Telesphorus hortos
Faenius et breue rus udaque prata tenet.
condidit hic natae cineres nomenque sacrauit
quod legis Antullae, dignior ipse legi.
ad Stygias aequum fuerat pater isset ut umbras:
quod quia non licuit, uiuat, ut ossa colat.

Unlike the previous poems we have been considering, Faustinus is accompanied by a second-person pronoun and seems to belong to the poem, which purports to tell about a neighbor of his. After addressing him at the beginning, however, the rest of the epigram takes a different course and is sepulchral and consolatory for Faenius Telesphorus, who has just lost his daughter. The relationship of Faustinus to all of this seems tenuous at

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best.

Most of the epigrams of Martial that I have cited begin with declarative sentences with accompanying vocatives. The increased use of beginnings of this kind in Martial and the greater frequency of vocatives and address are clearly related. Both appear to have arisen in part from an effort to construct a conversation between the poet and someone or something else, to increase the immediacy and engagement of the poem; however, that is not the only reason why vocatives appear in Martial's verse. Names were also inserted to mention rich friends or patrons, even when the person addressed had little or nothing to do with the rest of the poem. The increased use of vocatives and address in Martial's poetry probably reflects the influence of Catullus, though the way Martial used them more closely resembles the practice of Lucillius and Nicarchus, in many of whose poems the vocatives also bear little relation to the subject matter of the verse.

The Structure of Martial's Epigrams

We saw in the case of Catullus that the poems in hendecasyllables and in iambic meters are usually organized around narration, description, and verbal repetition. They proceed for the most part *de proche en proche* without a formal structure, as if from the spontaneity of conversation. The short elegiac poems, on the other hand, more commonly use some form of logical or rhetorical scaffolding such as antithesis or parallel phrasing, often taking advantage of the meter itself, so that opposing or corresponding sections are placed in successive couplets, or in the hexameter and pentameter, or in the two halves of

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the pentameter. Since Martial was greatly influenced by Catullus and used many of the same meters for his verse, he might be expected also to have organized poems in different meters differently.

There is, however, also reason to expect just the contrary. In Catullus we saw that the frequencies of poems whose first sentence is declarative, and the proportions of poems with vocatives and address are markedly different in the poems written in hendecasyllabics and iambic meters on the one hand, and elegiacs on the other (Table 3). That is not, however, true for Martial, who made much less of a distinction based on the meter of the poem (Tables 4-6). One might therefore anticipate that the structure of the poems would also show little dependence on meter, with narration and description or antithesis and parallel structure occurring with comparable frequency in the poems in hendecasyllables, scazons, and elegiacs.

This apparently simple question, "Is meter important for the structure of Martial's verse?", does not have a simple answer. On the one hand, it is possible to argue that distinctions based on meter are not very important in Martial, since there are many poems in different meters that treat nearly identical subjects in a similar way. Here is one particularly clear example of two poems like this:

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V 73

Non donem tibi cur meos libellos
oranti totiens et exigenti
miraris, Theodore? magna causa est:
dones tu mihi ne tuos libellos.

VII 3

Cur non mitto meos tibi, Pontialiane, libellos?
Ne mihi tu mittas, Pontiliane, tuos.

The first poem is in hendecasyllables and the second in elegiacs, but the poems are otherwise very similar in organization (Vioque 2002:63). Both begin with a question with vocative setting up the"point" of the last line. The *donem/dones* of the first poem is mirrored by the *mitto/mittas* of the second, and both contrast *meos libellos* with *tuos*[211].

Most of Martial's poems in elegiacs are written with careful attention to the structure of the couplet and employ many of the rhetorical features commonly found in the elegiac verse of Catullus, proceeding distich by distich. This might seem to be a significant difference between the poems in elegiacs and other meters, but there are examples among Martial's poems in hendecasyllables or in scazons that are functionally divided into couplets in a similar way over at least part of the length of the poem. The following hendecasyllabic poem is like this; I have written it as if in couplets to highlight this feature of its organization.

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I 72

Nostris uersibus esse te poetam,
Fidentine, putas cupisque credi?

sic dentata sibi uidetur Aegle
emptis ossibus Indicoque cornu;

sic, quae nigrior est cadente moro,
cerussata sibi placet Lycoris.

hac et tu ratione qua poeta es,
caluus cum fueris, eris comatus.

The first couplet poses the difficulty: Fidentinus thinks himself a poet not from reading and writing his own verse but from appropriating Martial's[212]. The next two couplets both begin with the logical connective *sic* and present extensions of Fidentinus' claim as *reductiones ad absurbum.* The last couplet then makes this explicit and ends with a final example (see Howell 1980:273). There is no apparent reason why Martial wrote this poem in hendecasyllables; it reads much like a poem in elegiacs. Much the same could be said of some other hendecasyllabic poems (*e.g.* II 44, X 98).

Many epigrams in elegiacs, on the other hand, are narrative or descriptive and are structured more like Catullus' hendecasyllabic poems than C69-C116. Here is one such epigram:

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IV 73

Cum grauis extremas Vestinus duceret horas
et iam per Stygias esset iturus aquas,
ultima uoluentis orauit pensa sorores
ut traherent parua stamina pulla mora,
iam sibi defunctus caris dum uiuit amicis.
mouerunt tetricas tam pia uota deas.
tunc largas partitus opes a luce recessit
seque mori post hoc credidit ille senem.

The story Martial tells is likely to be based upon an actual person, though the Vestinus of the poem is otherwise unknown (Friedlaender 1886a:376). Apart from the repetition of *iam* in the second and fifth lines and the antithesis in the fifth line of *iam sibi defunctus* with *dum uiuit amicis*, the matter of the poem is organized by the successive recounting of the events of the story with little in the way of rhetorical or logical scaffolding.

There are also many elegiac poems that construct a dramatic scene with monologue or dialogue often with short sentences and simple syntax, again more like Catullus' hendecasyllabic poems; for example:

IX 53

Natali tibi, Quinte, tuo dare parua uolebam
munera; tu prohibes: imperiosus homo es.
parendum est monitis; fiat quod uterque uolemus
et quod utrumque iuuat: tu mihi, Quinte, dato.

As in many of the erotic epigrams of Asclepiades and Callimachus (see pages 102-7), the tone is conversational, the syntax varied, and the sentences short and broken up between lines. Parallel structure and antithesis make no contribution.

One could therefore point to these elegiac poems lacking rhetorical or logical features and the poems in hendecasyllabics and choliambics that contain them, and claim

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that Martial made no allowance for meter when he organized the matter of his poems. This view is reinforced by simply counting the number of poems that are narrative on the one hand, or contain parallel structure and explicit antithesis on the other. Although determinations of this sort are somewhat subjective and likely to be approximate, the percentages of poems with these characteristics seem not markedly different as between the hendecasyllable and elegiac epigrams. Martial also made little distinction based on meter for the subjects of his poems. Poems in hendecasyllabics and elegiacs are divided among invective and non-invective in a comparable fashion, with many sepulchral, epideictic, and panegyric poems in both meters[213].

To say, however, that meter made no difference to Martial is patently wrong. One indication of this is that, even in a narrative elegiac poem like IV 73 (see preceding page), there is a clear separation of the argument of the poem by couplets. That is true of the overwhelming majority of poems in elegiacs regardless of their structure or subject matter but of only a minority of the poems in other meters. In IX 53 (see preceding page), where couplet-by-couplet progression is rather weak, other features of the elegiac meter are exploited. The argument of the poem is divided at the caesura of the pentameter in both lines 2 and 4. This is especially effective in the latter for the delivery of the punch line. The structure of the elegiac is also important in VII 3 (see p. 159), despite its many other similarities to V 73. The argument of VII 3 is divided between the hexameter (question) and pentameter (response), and the pause in sense at the caesura of the pentameter again emphasizes the delivery of the "point".

How could Martial not have used elegiac meter in this way? He must have had in

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his ear not only the verse of Catullus, who as we saw in Chapter 1 took advantage of just these features of meter to organize his elegiac epigrams, but also the Latin elegiac poets who came after. That Martial knew much of this poetry is not only extremely likely on the face of it, but demonstrable from the numerous citations he makes of Propertius, Tibullus, and Ovid (see Sullivan 1991:105-8). Ovid the poet, identified as such or from his relationship to Corinna or by reference to his countrymen the Paelignians, is mentioned 6 times in Books I-XII[214] and often cited, for example in the first line of Martial I 15,

O mihi post nullos, Iuli, memorande sodales

from the first line of *Tristia* I.5,

O mihi post nullos umquam memorande sodales

(see Friedlaender 1886a:25 and 174; Holzberg 2002:97-9).

What makes Martial's elegiac poems different from those in hendecasyllabics is not the greater presence of rhetorical or logical organization but rather the way these features are integrated into the structure of the poem. To make this clearer, I give two poems on a similar subject, Martial's relationship of *amicitia* with his friends and patrons[215]. Both are organized around antithesis and separated into two parts, the first beginning with a conditional clause introduced by *si*, and the second beginning with a further conditional in opposition introduced by *sed si*. The endings of both poems are signaled by a change in syntax or verb mood, in the first poem to the imperative, and in the second to an optative subjunctive. In spite of these similarities, the poems convey quite different sentiments.

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X 82

Si quid nostra tuis adicit uexatio rebus,
    mane uel a media nocte togatus ero
stridentesque feram flatus Aquilonis iniqui
    et patiar nimbos excipiamque niues.
sed si non fias quadrante beatior uno
    per gemitus nostros ingenuasque cruces,
parce, precor, fesso uanosque remitte labores,
    qui tibi non prosunt et mihi, Galle, nocent.

VII 55

Nulli munera, Chreste, si remittis,
nec nobis dederis remiserisque:
credam te satis esse liberalem.
sed si reddis Apicio Lupoque
et Gallo Titioque Caesioque,
linges non mihi–nam proba et pusilla est–
sed quae de Solymis uenit perustis
damnatam modo mentulam tributis.

The first is typical of many of Martial's elegiac epigrams. The poem is evenly divided in half, consisting of two sentences each occupying four lines. The progression of the poem is stately and transparent, with the parallel structure giving the ending of the poem an inevitability that removes the tension from the "point". This is not, however, a defect in the poem–quite the contrary. This is one of the few of Martial's poems that convey personal feeling, though whether Martial actually had these feelings is, of course, not relevant to my discussion. The last line is ably crafted, exploiting the pentameter to emphasize the opposition of *tibi* and *mihi*. The numerous use of second-person pronouns and verbs throughout the length of the poem but deferment of mention of the name of the patron until the last line gives the vocative an added poignancy.

The second poem in hendecasyllables has a completely different tone. The poem

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is also divided into two sentences, but the division is unequal, and the progression is much less regular, broken up initially by the long sequence of datives in lines 4 and 5, and then by the parenthetical *nam proba et pusilla est*, whose delayed reference is extended by the *sed quae* in line 7 and only resolved in the last line with *mentulam*. This poem like the preceding poem in elegiacs is organized around antithesis, first between *si remittis nec nobis dederis: credam* and *sed si reddis Apicio Lupoque et Gallo Titioque Caesioque, linges*, and then between *non mihi sed quae* The last three lines are clever and deliver the "point" with gusto. The suspension of the object of *linges* almost until the very end of the poem is a common feature of Martial's invective verse.

These two poems are typical of Martial's poetry in elegiacs and hendecasyllables. The elegiac poems have a strong tendency to move in couplets (Laurens 1989:308-22), resembling the elegiac verse of Catullus and Ovid (Watson and Watson 2003:27). Parallel structure and antithesis, when present, are organized around the structure of the couplet, and even narration proceeds distich by distich. Martial's hendecasyllabic poems are as a rule much freer. Many of them also contain a rhetorical or logical scaffolding but more subtly used, and the poems are more likely to give an impression of spontaneity. The few poems in hendecasyllables that are disposed functionally into couplets (like I 72, see p.160) are the exceptions that prove the rule.

Martial's poems in scazons are distinct from both his hendecasyllabic and elegiac poems in several ways. We saw that they are the most likely of his poems to begin with a declarative sentence without vocative and the least likely to have a vocative or address anywhere in the poem (see Table 6). Of the three meters Martial used most often, the

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choliambic poems have the greatest percentage of invective: They represent nearly three-quarters of his poems in this meter. The association of the choliambic meter with invective places Martial's poetry securely within the tradition of archaic ἴαμβος and Hipponax. Of the quarter of the choliambic poems that are not invective, most are epideictic or panegyric, and only one (V 37) can be classified as either sepulchral, dedication, erotic, or Priapean (and even this poem ends on a scoptic note). That Martial uses choliambics occasionally for subjects other than invective is hardly surprising. Catullus (probably following the lead of Callimachus) did this as well (see pp. 23-5).

There is a strong tendency among the poems in choliambics for a division of the argument not by couplets, as in the elegiacs, but line by line. Logical or rhetorical features of organization, such as parallel structure or antithesis, also tend to be organized in this way. The association of adjacent lines with one another tends to be less strict than for the elegiac poems. Here is an example:

VIII 61

Liuet Charinus, rumpitur, furit, plorat
et quaerit altos unde pendeat ramos:
non iam quod orbe cantor et legor toto,
nec umbilicis quod decorus et cedro
spargor per omnes Roma quas tenet gentes,
sed quod sub urbe rus habemus aestiuum
uehimurque mulis non, ut ante, conductis.
quid imprecabor, o Seuere, liuenti?
hoc opto: mulas habeat et suburbanum.

Each line contains a separate syntactical unit except for 4 and 5, which function together. The antithesis of *non . . . nec* followed by *sed* is divided between three lines for the first and two for the second, both strictly placed within the boundaries of the verses. The

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argument advances largely by connectives placed at the beginning of the lines (*et*, *nec*, *sed*, *que*), thus reinforcing the line-by-line progression. The ending of the poem has the form of a question and response, as commonly in Martial's poetry, and both again are contained entirely within their respective verses.

Some of Martial's hendecasyllabic poems also show division of the argument by lines (for example IV 4, p. 135, and X 47), though as a rule this tendency is less marked than in the choliambic poems perhaps as a result of the shorter length of the hendecasyllabic verse. Many of Catullus' hendecasyllabic and choliambic poems also proceed line by line, though as a rule they are freer in this respect than the choliambic poems of Martial (see for example C10, pp. 26-7).

No discussion of composition in Martial would be complete without mention of a particularly exaggerated form of verbal repetition and parallel structure variously called *cumulatio* or *Häufungsfigur*[216]. Verbal repetition is frequent in Martial's poetry, as it is in Catullus, particularly in C1-C60. But though Catullus repeated the same word as a subtle method of bringing together different parts of his poems, Martial takes this particular form of Catullan eloquence and twists its neck[217]; instead of repeating a word at most 2 or 3 times with subtle variation in expression and word position, Martial repeats it over and over again, often in the same position in the line. The repeated word is frequently a part of a phrase or syntactical construction, which is also repeated. Catullus did this occasionally (*e.g.* C78, see p. 35) and so did the Greeks (Siedschlag 1977:40 note 2), but never in as exaggerated a form as Martial.

We saw one example of this in a hendecasyllabic poem earlier in the chapter (IV

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4, see p. 135), in which *quod* and an accompanying phrase are repeated in every line. A clause with *quod* is used in a similar way in I 41, also in hendecasyllabics; in II 11, in choliambics; and in III 62, III 65, and XI 8 in elegiacs. Despite the different meters, these poems are all structured in a similar way. The *quod* clauses are mostly confined to single lines as in IV 4, and this is true even of the poems in elegiacs. Here, for example, is the beginning of XI 8:

> Lassa quod hesterni spirant opobalsama dracti,
> ultima quod curuo quae cadit aura croco;
> poma quod hiberna maturescentia capsa,
> arbore quod uerna luxuriosus ager;

Though Friedlaender and Shackleton Bailey both punctuate the ends of lines 1 and 3 with commas and 2 and 4 with semicolons, all four lines in fact contain identical syntactical units each giving examples of sweet odors that Martial later in the poem compares to the smell of his boy's morning kisses. In these lines the *quod* falls always in the second position, but toward the end of the poem (as in IV 4) it falls increasingly toward the first (Kay 1985:82).

In XI 8 the *cumulatio* proceeds line by line, but that is not always true. In other elegiac poems, Martial explicitly forms the repetition around the distich, as in IX 97, which begins:

> Rumpitur inuidia quidam, carissime Iuli,
> quod me Roma legit, rumpitur inuidia.
> rumpitur inuidia quod turba semper in omni
> monstramur digito, rumpitur inuidia.

Martial keeps this up for another 6 lines, then ends the poem at lines 11 and 12 with

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rumpitur inuidia quod amamur quodque probamur:
rumpatur quisquis rumpitur inuidia.

Unlike XI 8, this is a poem that exploits the elegiac meter (for an extensive discussion of the structure of this poem, see Henriksén 1999b:153-4). Had it been written in hendecasyllables or choliambics, it could not have achieved the same mind-numbing insistence, at least not in the same way.

In summary, Martial organizes his poems as had previous epigrammatic poets both Latin and Greek, in some cases by narration or successive description with sentences joined by simple conjunction, but in others with some more complicated rhetorical or logical scaffolding, such as parallel structure or antithesis (Siedschlag 1977:59-85; Laurens 1989:307-336). Martial uses these different sorts of structures with approximately the same frequency in his poems in hendecasyllabics, choliambics, and elegiacs, unlike Catullus; but the way he uses them often differs according to the meter. The argument of the poem is more often organized by couplets in poems in elegiacs but line-by-line in poems in choliambics. The poems in hendecasyllables tend to be the freest in the fitting of syntactical units to the line, though even they can sometimes proceed line-by-line or in couplets like the poems in the other meters.

Martial's Endings

Previous examinations of the endings of Martial's poems have been limited almost exclusively to a discussion of "point"[218]. Now it is indisputable that the majority of Martial's epigrams end in a cleverly crafted joke or well-phrased *sententia*; and that

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"point", though also present in Catullus and many of the epigrams attributed to Seneca, is more prevalent in Martial than in any previous Latin epigram of which we are aware.

This emphasis on "point" can, however, be misleading. Martial's "point" is mostly restricted to his invective epigrams and is therefore most prevalent in books (like II and III) that have the highest percentage of poems of this kind. In Books VII-X with the smallest percentage, only a bit over half the epigrams end in "point"[219]. The others end much like most of the short poems in stichic meter of Callimachus and Catullus. The ending of the sepulchral poem I 114, for example (see p. 156), is signaled by the change in mood of the verb to a subjunctive, *uiuat*. The ending is clearly indicated but is not witty or surprising, and there is no *sententia*. Even the many poems that do have "point" build upon the tradition of previous Greek and Latin epigram. That is, the formation of the end of the poem uses many of the same components we have already observed in Callimachus and Catullus. It is sometimes said that the prevalence of "point" in Martial can be mostly attributed to the influence of Lucillius (Sullivan 1991:89; Laurens 1965:341). Though Lucillius also wrote invective epigram with "point" and undoubtedly provided an important stimulus, the *way* Martial formed his endings owes much more to the common tradition of Greek and Latin epigram, and especially to Catullus.

Vocatives. One of the striking features of Catullus' poems in hendecasyllabics and iambic meters is the frequent placement of a vocative near the end of the poem (see Table 3 and pp. 42-4). Vocatives are about half as frequent near the ends of C69-C116, and among most of the poets after Catullus there is a similar low frequency[220] until we come to Books I-XII of Martial. This can be seen in the following table, in which I give

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the percentage of vocatives in the last three lines, since this includes all of the vocatives that are related to the ending of the poem. I show the percentages for all of the poems and for only those of 6 lines or more. Neither is entirely satisfactory, since if poems of fewer than 6 lines are counted, many vocatives are included that actually belong to an earlier part of the poem; but if only poems 6 lines or greater are tallied, some vocatives at the ends of shorter poems are missed, and the sample size for some of the poems becomes so small that differences are no longer significant. The values in Table 8 for the two cases are nevertheless rather similar and indicate that poems with vocatives in the last three lines are more frequent in Martial's poems in Books I-XII (regardless of meter) than for any other poetry in the table with the exception of Catullus' poems in hendecasyllables and iambics/choliambics[221].

Table 8: Vocatives at the Ends of Poems

	Vocative in last 3 lines		
	All poems	6 lines or more	n
Catullus Hen/Iamb	40%	39%	52/46
Catullus Elegiacs	19%	21%	48/29
'Seneca'	28%	24%	65/37
Lucillius	19%	22%	123/50
Martial I-XII elegiacs	51%	41%	857/479
Martial I-XII Hen/Iamb	45%	35%	307/191

Though Martial was as fond as Catullus of putting vocatives near the end of the poem, change of address is rare, occurring in only 2% of his poems in elegiacs and an even smaller number of those in other meters. An example of one of these poems was

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given earlier (VII 23, see p. 151). Instead of change of address, the vocative near the end of Martial's poem much more often repeats address from the beginning. Here, for example are the first and last lines of I 26,

Sextiliane, bibis quantum subsellia quinque (I 26:1)

si plus quam decies, Sextiliane, bibis. (I 26:10)

and I 46,

Cum dicis 'propero, fac si facis,' Hedyli, languet (I 46:1)

Hedyli, si properas, dic mihi ne properem. (I 46:4)

In Books I-XII, more than a third of the vocatives present in the last three lines of the poem are repeated from the beginning, most often with the repetition of exactly the same word as in the shorter poetry of Catullus, but sometimes with a different word referring to the same person or thing. The percentage of poems with repeated vocatives is about the same in the poems in elegiacs and hendecasyllables though somewhat lower in those in iambic meters.

The repetition of the vocative gives the feeling of a ring, referring the ending of the poem back to its beginning. The ring is often accentuated by some other feature, such as the inversion of *Sextiliane bibis* at the beginning to *bibis Sextiliane* at the end of I 26, and the repetition of *propero/properas/properem* in I 46. The percentage of repeated vocatives is remarkably constant from one book to the next, but not a single poem in the *de Spectaculis Liber* has a repeated vocative, again suggesting that those poems were written in a style different from the one Martial used for his mature poetry.

Though there is ample precedent for the repetition of vocatives at the end from

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the beginning in the short poetry of Catullus, in Lucillius I find only two examples, *AP* 11.103 (see p. 155) and *AP* 11.388[222]. Martial's practice may also have been influenced by the poetry attributed to Seneca. One of these poems, SB 448, ends by repeating the vocative *Galla*,

> I⟨u⟩ratum tibi me cogis promittere, Galla,
> ne narrem. iura rursus et ipsa mihi,
> ne cui tu dicas. nimium est lex dura? remittam,
> praeterquam, si uis, dicere, Galla, uiro.

The last line of this poem is very close to the last line of XI 7 of Martial (Prato 1955:49):

> quae uerum mauis dicere, Paula, uiro. (XI 7:14)

This poem of Martial also repeats the vocative from the first line:

> Iam certe stupido non dices, Paula, marito (XI 7:1)

Furthermore, both Martial's poem and SB 448 are about a woman managing her adultery. Whether Martial was more influenced in this aspect of his composition by 'Seneca' than by Catullus is, of course, impossible to know. What can be said is that Martial was responding to a tradition of extensive use of vocative, ultimately traceable to the Hellenists and the *Theognidea* but alive in Martial's verse from the influence of Catullus and perhaps also the Latin poets of the empire.

Change of syntax or verb mood. The epigrams of Callimachus and Catullus quite commonly indicate their ending with a change in syntax or verb mood. In both poets there is a relatively high frequency of imperatives and questions in the last three lines (see Table 3), and this is true also of the poems of Books I-XII of Martial[223]. Among the poems we have considered, imperatives are present in the last three lines of I 46 (see p.

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172), IX 53 (see p. 161), and X 82 (see p. 164); and questions, of V 32 (see p. 154) and VIII 61 (see p. 166). Sometimes both are used together, as in the last line of XII 92:

dic mihi, si fias tu leo, qualis eris?

In V 32 and VIII 61, the question is followed by a word or an additional sentence that forms the conclusion. In XII 92, on the other hand, the question is the last sentence that ends the poem.

Martial in many poems changes the verb mood to an optative subjunctive near the end to express a wish that motivates the conclusion. Examples among previously considered poems include I 114 (*uiuat*, see p. 156) and IX 97 (*rumpatur*, see pp. 168-9). This is again similar to the method of Catullus, for example in C95 (*gaudet*), C98 (*hiscas*), and C100 (*sis*).

Other kinds of endings. Like Catullus, Martial ends many of his poems with exclamation, for example in III 39 (see p. 153) in elegiacs, and V 70 in hendecasyllables:

o quanta est gula, centiens comesse! (V70:5-6)
quanto maior adhuc, nec accubare!

Martial also uses logical connectives, occasionally *quare* like Catullus as in this poem:

IV 85

Nos bibimus uitro, tu murra, Pontice. quare?
Prodat perspicuus ne duo uina calix.

More often, however, Martial seems to have preferred *ergo*. The *ergo* can appear by itself, as at the end of IX 54

mittimus ergo tibi paruae munuscula chortis, (IX 54:11-12)
qualia si recipis, saepe propinquus eris.

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but it is much more commonly a part of a question, as in V 32 (see p. 154), and also in the last lines of these poems:

accipere omnino. quid solet ergo? dare. (II 56:4)

non est hic Cynicus, Cosme: quid ergo? canis. (IV 53:8)

non fellat tanti Galla. quid ergo? tacet. (IX 4:4)

This form of question with *quid* and *ergo* followed by a response may have been influenced by Lucillius, who concludes several of his epigrams (*AP* 11.85, 11.91, 11.184) with καὶ τί γάρ, followed by a reply (though never of a single word).

Several of Catullus' poems terminate with a word or phrase referring back to the beginning of the poem (C99) or with a complete sentence repeated at the end from the beginning (C16, C36, C52 and C57). Ring composition of this sort is also found in Martial (see Siedschlag 1977:121-4; Laurens 1989:333-5). I have previously described the repetition of a vocative near the end of the poem taken from the beginning. In many other epigrams, Martial repeats a word or group of words, like *possum dicere* and *non amo te* in this famous poem (see Citroni 1975:109)[224]

I 32

Non amo te, Sabidi, nec possum dicere quare:
hoc tantum possum dicere, non amo te.

Martial also occasionally takes a whole verse from the beginning and repeats it at the end, sometimes as in Catullus the first verse (II 6; IV 64, 89; VII 26) but sometimes the second (VI 42) or fourth (X 37)–something Catullus didn't do but 'Seneca' apparently did[225].

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"Point". Invective epigram is at least as old as the Hellenists (Blomqvist 1998), and so is "point" (Barwick 1959:26-30; Laurens 1989:97-117), but the two do not necessarily occur together. Few Hellenistic epigrams with "point" are invective; I identified several poems of Callimachus of this kind in Chapter 2 (see pp. 111-12), and similar poems can be found of the other 3rd century poets. Many of the invective poems of the Hellenists, on the other hand, do not have "point", for example Ariston GP 2, *AP* 7.457 (Blomqvist 1998:53). This is true also of the poetry of the *Garland* of Philip and of much of the invective poetry of Catullus (see pp. 47-8). It is only in Imperial Rome that "point" and invective epigram become so closely associated, first in the Greek poets Lucillius and Nicarchus, and then in Martial, probably influenced by the popularity of *sententia* and wit in rhetoric and contemporary Latin literature, as reflected for example in the prose of Seneca and Tacitus (Barwick 1959:15-26; Szelest 1986:2605).

Although the predilection for invective epigram with a clever twist was novel, the form of the endings of these poems nevertheless continued to owe much to traditional methods for concluding a short poem regardless of subject matter. Many of Martial's invective poems have at their ending either a change of address (rarely) or repeated vocatives (much more commonly) or some other form of vocative or address; many also have a change of syntax or verb mood, exclamation, logical connectives, and ring composition. This can be seen from my preceding discussion, since many of the examples I have used for these features of Martial's endings have been taken from invective poems. It is common for several of these features to be used in the same poem, as in IX 6[226],

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Dicere de Libycis reducti tibi gentibus, Afer,
continuis volui quinque diebus 'haue':
'non uacat' aut 'dormit' dictum est bis terque reverso.
iam satis est. non uis, Afer, hauere? uale.

In the last line we have a question and repeated vocative to Afer that both act as signals for the set-up and help focus the "point". This is then delivered as the last word with an imperative, which says "good-bye" not only to Afer but to the poem, as in C101 of Catullus.

It would take me too far afield to describe the many ways Martial attempts (and often succeeds) in making his invective poems funny. This is more a question of the psychology of humor than of poetic composition, and discussions can be found in Laurens (1989:337-349) and Sullivan (1991:237-252). It is undeniable, however, that the form of the poem plays an important role in the delivery of the punch line. In the elegiac poems, for example, the "point" of many poems relies upon parallel structure or antithesis between the hexameter and pentameter or the two halves of the pentameter, as in the last line of V 32 (see p. 154),

non dedit uxori. 'cui dedit ergo?' sibi. (V 32:2)

The antithesis is divided at the caesura, and the second half contains both the question and response. The placement of the joke after the caesura has the obvious utility of giving it added emphasis and finality. Other examples of this from the poems I have cited in this chapter include I 46 (see p. 172), II 56 (see p. 175), IX 53 (see p. 161) and IX 97 (see pp. 168-9). The division of the pentameter in this way is common in Hellenistic epigram and in Catullus, but Martial puts it to new use.

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In the poems in other meters, parallel structure may be an integral part of the delivery of the "point", as in IV 4 (see p. 135). Verbal repetition is everywhere in the twelve books, often combined with word-play of other kinds, as in

XII 16

Addixti, Labiene, tres agellos;
emisti, Labiene, tres cinaedos:
pedicas, Labiene, tres agellos.

This epigram should also remind us of the importance of logical argument, prevalent in Hellenistic epigram and in Catullus but turned into an instrument of wit in Martial. Some of Martial's most amusing epigrams depend upon logic of some sort and often require the reader to supply a part of the argument, as in this poem:

IV 69

Tu Setina quidem semper uel Massica ponis,
Papyle, sed rumor tam bona uina negat:
diceris hac factus caelebs quater esse lagona.
nec puto nec credo, Papyle, nec sitio.

The smile comes only when we surmise what else the flask contained.

In summary, the endings of Martial's non-invective poems are much like those of the short poems of Callimachus and Catullus, but also much of the rest of epigrammatic poetry since the 3rd century BC. The invective poems are different, since they are much more likely to end in "point", but even this difference is less significant than it may seem, since the way the "point" was formed owes much to the customary ways of ending poems that Martial found in the tradition he inherited.

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Catullus and Martial

Martial refers to Catullus in his poems more often than to any other poet, copied Catullus' themes, wrote in many of the same meters, and clearly believed that he was in some sense continuing Catullus' poetic tradition (see pp. 137-8 and Ferguson 1963; Offermann 1980; Gaisser 1993:201-42; Swann 1998). In VII 99 (Vioque 2002:518-9), written to the Egyptian Crispinus who was a favorite of Domitian, Martial singles out Catullus and Domitius Marsus as the most important of his predecessors:

> dicere de nobis, ut lector candidus, aude: (VII 99:5-7)
> 'temporibus praestat non nihil iste tuis,
> nec Marso nimium minor est doctoque Catullo.'

He goes even further at the end of X 78 to Macer, *rector* (governor) of Dalmatia:

> sic inter ueteres legar poetas, (X 78:14-16)
> nec multos mihi praeferas priores,
> uno sed tibi sim minor Catullo.

He now mentions Catullus alone as the only poet he would have Macer think greater. Catullus is also the poet Martial singles out in X 103, when he writes of his hometown Bilbilis,

> nam decus et nomen famaque uestra sumus, (X 103:4-6)
> nec sua plus debet tenui Verona Catullo
> meque uelit dici non minus illa suum

That Martial honors Catullus in this way indicates that he thought Catullus to be one of the most important, if not *the* preeminent poet among those who wrote the same sort of poetry Martial saw himself as writing, poems that Martial calls *epigrammata.*

The difficulty for us is to understand why Martial might have thought this to be

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so. It is all too apparent from the poems I have cited that "Martial's poetry is very different" (Gaisser 1993:201) from the shorter poems of Catullus. The invective poems, even those about Martial's difficulties with patrons, sometimes convey disappointment and outrage but never bitterness or rancor. Martial takes great pains to explain that his satire is aimed at the vices he sees around him and not at actual individuals, *parcere personis dicere de vitiis*[227]. Martial's erotic and pederastic poems[228] (see Holzberg 1988:48-58) never reach the level of intensity of C8 or C76 of Catullus. In I 71, for example,

> Laeuia sex cyathis, septem Iustina bibatur,
> quinque Lycis, Lyde quattuor, Ida tribus.
> omnis ab infuso numeretur amica Falerno,
> et quia nulla uenit, tu mihi, Somne, ueni.

the emotion is measured and contained, as in much of Hellenistic love epigram (Garrison 1978), and the ending of the poem reminds us of the end of Asclepiades GP 10 *AP* 5.150 (see p. 103 and Citroni 1975:233),

> κούχ ἥκει, φυλακὴ δὲ παροίχεται. ἆρ' ἐπιορκεῖν
> ἤθελε; τὸν λύχνον, παῖδες, ἀποσβέσατε.

It would be natural to conclude, as does Shackleton Bailey (1993a:5), that of his predecessors "Martial admired Catullus most of them all, but he did not take him as a model."

Martial did take Lucillius as a model, at least for invective epigram (Sullivan 1991:89). There is in Lucillius (and in his contemporary Nicarchus) the same utilization of banal first names and of names used to express some point of view (Laurens 1965:341), of vocatives mentioned but not used and unrelated to the rest of the poem, and

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of "point". Despite these similarities, the style of Lucillius' verse is quite different from Martial's (Barwick 1959:33-4; Burnikel 1980:118). In particular, as I showed earlier in the chapter (see Tables 7 and 8), Lucillius' verse lacks the syntactical variety and the immediacy of Martial's idiom. Many more of Lucillius' poems begin with a declarative sentence without a vocative; imperatives, questions, and optatives or subjunctives are rare. Direct address is also much less frequent in Lucillius than in Martial. Martial may have been stimulated to write a certain kind of invective poetry from reading Lucillius and Nicarchus, but the *way* he wrote it was not the same.

Composition in Martial is much more like that in the shorter poems of Catullus. Many of the similarities, however, are not peculiar to Catullus alone but are found also in the work of other epigrammatic poets. Martial and Catullus have the same fondness for verbal repetition, parallel structure, and antithesis (Friedlaender 1886a:24-5)[229], but these are characteristic of much of Greek and Latin epigram, including that of 'Seneca'(Barwick 1959:32-3; Szelest 1986:2606). Martial arranged some of his poems in pairs or cycles much as Catullus is thought to have done (Barwick 1957), though again cycles may have been a common way to arrange poems and may also have been present in the poetry attributed to Seneca (Szelest 1986:2606). Martial used many of the same meters as Catullus, but so did the poet of the *Corpus Priapeorum* (see Appendix II), and these may have been common meters for Martial's immediate predecessors and contemporaries[230]. Of the poems attributed to Seneca, two are in hendecasyllables (SB 442 and 458), and the first two syllables of all 21 lines of these two poems are invariably long, as in the hendecasyllabic poems of Martial (Friedlaender 1886a:28-9) but not

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invariably in Catullus (Skutsch 1969:38). Martial often repeats a vocative from the beginning at the end, as Catullus also often does; but we saw earlier in the chapter that the poems attributed to Seneca do this too (see p. 173). Since Martial evidently had cordial relations with the *domus docti Senecae* (IV 40.2), particularly with Lucan's widow Polla Argentaria (VII 21 and 23, see p. 151), and had read the poems attributed to Seneca and at least some of his prose works, it is easy to imagine that the poetry of Seneca was particularly important in Martial's development (Barwick 1959:33; Szelest 1986:2606). That is to say, the influences we see from Catullus on the verse of Martial may have been transmitted through Seneca or some other poet or group of poets.

There is, nevertheless, reason to think that Catullus influenced Martial directly. It is not just that Martial refers to Catullus so many times in his poetry, copies many of the same themes, uses obscenity in the same way in his invective poems, and defends his use of lascivious language in almost the same way, as many others have pointed out (most recently, with references to other work, in Watson and Watson 2003:35-6). It is also that certain characteristics of Martial's method of composition are found also in Catullus and in the work of no other epigrammatic poet between the 7th century BC and the 1st century AD, at least of those whose work has survived. I am thinking first of Martial's predilection for beginning a poem with a declarative sentence with vocative. This form of beginning is very rare in archaic inscriptions in dactylic hexameters but rises to about 20% in 4th century inscriptions and in the *Theognidea*. It remains at a frequency of between 15-20% in the poets of both *Garlands*, in 'Seneca', and in Lucillius and Nicarchus, but it is about twice as common in the short poems of Catullus and Martial[231].

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Direct address and the placement of a vocative near the end of the poem are also exceptionally frequent in the hendecasyllabic and iambic poems of Catullus and occur again with a similar abundance not in 'Seneca' or Lucillius but in the epigrams of Martial.

These peculiarities of style are a sign that the verse of Catullus played some special role in the development of Martial's composition. This influence may have come rather late in Martial's formation as a poet. The high frequency of direct address and of vocatives with declarative sentences, found only in these two poets, are characteristic of all the twelve books of Martial's mature work, including Martial's panegyric and epideictic poems (see Table 5, p. 146); but they are not typical of the epigrams in his earlier *de Spectaculis Liber*, which are more like the poems of the two *Garlands* and those attributed to Seneca. Other features of Martial's style, such as the repetition of a vocative at the end of the poem also prevalent in the verse of Catullus, appear for the first time in Books I and II. Perhaps at some point after writing the *de Spectaculis Liber*, Martial took up the poetry of Catullus either for the first time or with renewed interest, and then began writing poems in hendecasyllables in imitation, though with a glyconic basis at the beginning of the line always spondaic (Friedlaender 1886a:28-9; Watson and Watson 2003:28), as in nearly all of the lines in the poems of the first half of C1-C60 but not in Catullus' collection as a whole (Skutsch 1969:38). The style of Catullus' poems in hendecasyllables may then have influenced the rest of Martial's poems. There are small differences in Martial's use of declarative sentences with vocatives and in direct address among the poems in hendecasyllables, scazons, and elegiacs (see Table 6), but the

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percentages of poems with these features remain much higher regardless of meter than those of any other epigrammatic poetry except for the hendecasyllablic and iambic/choliambic poems of Catullus.

If we then return to the question of why Martial singles Catullus out in the way he does, of what it was in the poetry of Catullus that Martial so admired, the answer is that what he particularly prized and emulated was the style of composition of Catullus' verse. It is the form of the Catullan poem that provided the model for the composition of the epigrams of Martial. Catullus was for Martial what Callimachus was for Catullus, a preeminent representative of the tradition within which each poet composed his poetry. Both took the forms of the poems they inherited and used them for a different sort of verse. Catullus adopted many of the compositional features of Callimachus' verse but mostly abandoned the predilection of the Hellenists for dedication and sepulchral epigram and for ironic and detached love lyric; instead, he wrote a series of interrelated poems of much greater thematic variety about his friends and paramours (Lyne 1980:21), which purport to reveal the poet's emotions in relation to his own experience (Quinn 1999:17). He also wrote many invective poems, which were rare in the work of the 3rd century Hellenists. In a similar way, Martial took the style of composition of Catullus, particularly of the hendecasyllabic poems of C1-C60, and redirected it into scoptic verse of a newer kind, not openly directed at historical figures but aimed at types (though perhaps based upon actual people) and usually with a cleverly contrived ending.

It is the humorous poems of Martial that had the most lasting influence, not only in their themes but in their structure and composition. We can see many of the traits of

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Martial's verse in the epigrams of Elizabethan English poets, who rediscovered Latin epigram and began to write their own. Here is Epigram 11 of Jonson, "On Something that Walks Somewhere",

> At court I met it, in clothes brave enough,
> To be a courtier ; and looks grave enough,
> To seem a statesman : as I near it came,
> It made me a great face ; I ask'd the name.
> A Lord, it cried, buried in flesh, and blood,
> And such from whom let no man hope least good,
> For I will do none ; and as little ill,
> For I will dare none : Good Lord, walk dead still.

We recognize an invective poem written about a type perhaps based on an historical figure but not openly identified, much as in Martial. There are also many of the same compositional features, in particular the parallel phrasing with verbal repetition (*brave enough, grave enough*; *For I will do none*, *For I will dare none*). The ending of the poem is signaled by a vocative and imperative, and the "point" is reserved to the last half of the last line. The influence of the verse of Martial is unmistakable.

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Summary and Conclusions

The first Greek epigrams were inscriptions, often only a single line in dactylic hexameter engraved on stone giving the essentials of a burial or dedication. These early poems were plain in form, stating simply the circumstances of the death or dedication and invariably beginning with a declarative statement. The verb, if expressed, was always in the indicative. With time the poets of inscriptions became more adept, borrowing elements of style from epic and other poetry, and the style of composition of the inscriptions altered. The beginnings of the poems might have an imperative, and vocatives and some form of explicit address became more common, often to a passer-by for sepulchral inscriptions or to a god for dedications. The length of inscriptions also increased, and the preferred meter became the elegiac couplet. Over three-quarters of surviving inscriptions from the 4th century are in this meter.

At the end of the 4th and beginning of the 3rd century, Hellenistic poets started to write epigrams in the form of inscriptions also largely in elegiacs, initially using the same themes of epitaph and dedication but in a style of composition that was rather different. The epigrams of Anyte, Leonidas of Tarentum, Asclepiades, Callimachus, and Posidippus are much more likely to begin with some sort of syntax other than a declarative sentence; questions, which are very rare in inscriptions, begin to appear not only at the beginning of the poems but in the middle and at the end. The 3rd century Hellenists also incorporated some form of explicit address in their poems nearly twice as often as did the poets of inscriptions and paid greater attention to the opportunities of

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balance and symmetry offered by the closed form of hexameter and pentameter in the elegiac distich. The structure of their poems was different, more often employing a rhetorical scaffolding such as parallel phrasing, antithesis, or logical argument. The endings of their poems were also more varied, often introducing address or a change in syntax to redirect the poem and motivate its conclusion.

The most likely explanation for this change in composition is that the 3rd century Hellenistic poets, though adopting the themes of actual inscriptions, composed their poems in the style of short elegy. There can be little question that Callimachus and his contemporaries had read the *Theognidea*, and the similarities in the composition of these poems to those of the Hellenists are striking. The frequencies of declarative sentences with and without vocatives, of other syntax at the beginning of the epigram such as a question or imperative, and of vocatives and address are all nearly the same. Furthermore, the structure of the poems is composed of similar elements. Many of the passages of the *Theognidea* have a rhetorical or logical organization, and the closed form of the elegiac distich is exploited in much the same way as by the 3rd century Hellenists. It is not necessary to accept Reitzenstein's view in *Epigramm und Skolion* (Reitzenstein 1907:87-92) that the *Theognidea* and Hellenistic epigram are similar because both were written exclusively for a symposiastic setting[232], a view that he himself later thought to be one-sided and exaggerated[233]. The affinities of style of short elegy and Hellenistic epigram are so great and so much greater than between the epigram of the 3rd century and any previous epigram, including the ancient inscriptions attributed to Simonides, that the form of short elegy must have been central to the development of the poems written by

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the first Hellenists.

In addition to writing epigrams based upon sepulchral and dedication inscriptions, some of the poets of 3rd century, those of the "Ionic School" such as Asclepiades, Callimachus, and Posidippus, also wrote epigrams on erotic themes. Although these poems have some affinities to epitaphs and dedications (Magini 2000), they also show interesting differences. Many of the erotic poems have little in the way of a rhetorical or logical structure but instead are composed of description or narration often with verbal repetition. They frequently have shorter sentences with simplified and varied syntax, often alternating between declarative sentences and questions or imperatives. In most cases there is explicit address by the voice of the poem to the poet himself or to someone else, and the poem usually constructs a dramatic scene often with reported speech in direct discourse. Although generally composed in elegiac meter, there is more enjambement and mid-line punctuation.

The style of composition of this erotic poetry, as well as of Hellenistic sepulchral and dedication epigram, had a profound influence on the composition of short poetry in Latin. Although early Latin inscriptions and the surviving elegiac couplets of Ennius appear to show some evidence of Hellenistic influence, the impress of the Greek poets became pervasive when their epigrams were first brought to Rome, just before or at the time of the publication of the *Garland* of Meleager near 100 BC. The earliest surviving Latin epigrams clearly composed in the style of the Hellenists are love poems, in some cases resembling Hellenistic erotic epigram with short sentences and varied syntax, but in others having elements of rhetorical or logical organization. The five poems of Valerius

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Aedituus, Q. Lutatius Catulus, and Porcius Licinus are all in elegiac couplets, often exploiting the balance and symmetry of the distich much as did the Hellenists. Other Latin poets such as Laevius wrote in other meters also occasionally employed by the 3rd century Greeks, such as hendecasyllables, choliambics, and other iambic meters. Too little of this work has survived for us to tell whether the style of their composition also resembled that of Hellenistic epigram.

Catullus wrote different kinds of short poems, all profoundly influenced by Greek epigram but separated according to meter in different poetry books or in different parts of the same book, one containing poems in elegiacs and the other mostly in hendecasyllabics and iambics or choliambics. Of the poems in elegiacs, more begin with a declarative sentence with vocative than was usual for 3rd century Hellenists, but they are otherwise quite similar in composition to the poems in both *Garlands*. Many of Catullus' short poems in elegiacs, for example, begin with a declarative sentence without a vocative and lack address. A large proportion also end simply, without ring composition, point, or change of address, of syntax, or of verb mood. These poems also show a conspicuous use of antithesis, parallel structure and logical argument, much as in the majority of Hellenistic epigram.

Catullus' poems in hendecasyllabic and iambic meters, on the other hand, more closely resemble the erotic poems of Asclepiades, Callimachus, and the other Hellenists of the *ionische Hauptrichtung*. They more often proceed *de proche en proche* as if without a formal organization, and they are more likely to construct a dramatic scene. They also differ from Catullus' short poems in elegiacs in that they begin much less often

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with a declarative statement and more frequently with some more dramatic entry, such as a question, an imperative, or an optative subjunctive. Nearly all incorporate some form of explicit address by the poet or voice of the poem. They also exhibit a greater variety of endings than do the poems in elegiacs.

The style of the hendecasyllabic and iambic poems in C1-C60 owes much to the 3rd century Hellenists, and in particular to Callimachus. This is particularly true of the structure of these poems, and their frequent use of direct discourse. Other features of the composition of the polymetric poems are unlike those of the Hellenists and may reflect other influences. The greater variety of endings and high frequency of first sentences that are other than declarative–higher than in any other surviving short poetry in stichic meter, Greek or Latin–may have emerged from archaic Greek lyric, the hendecasyllabic poetry of Laevius, or the *nugae* of Calvus and the other *poetae noui*. Not enough of this poetry has survived for us to tell. The particular style of the polymetric poems could of course also have been in part Catullus' own invention. The varied sentence structure and high frequency of vocatives and address, together with the more frequent use of dialogue and more relaxed, conversational tone of Catullus' polymetric poems give them an immediacy and liveliness that are in large measure responsible for their charm and perennial popularity.

Martial knew Catullus and most of the rest of Greek and Latin epigram, but the poems of his mature work are unlike any preceding verse. Within his tradition he found most of the usual beginnings the epigrammatic poets had used, but in the poems of Catullus he discovered a greater than usual tendency to use as the first sentence a

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declarative statement with vocative, which he appears to have adopted for his own verse. He also may have taken from Catullus' hendecasyllabic and iambic poems the propensity to incorporate explicit address in a higher than usual percentage of poems, but unlike Catullus he did this even in his epigrams in elegiacs. Martial was also indebted to Catullus for the frequency with which he used vocatives: a higher percentage of Martial's poems have vocatives than any other short poetry in stichic meter, Greek or Latin, except C1-C60 of Catullus. Unlike Catullus, however, Martial made little distinction in his use of vocatives and address on the basis of meter, and his way of placing the vocative in many cases almost adventitiously without any connection to the rest of the poem more closely resembles the practice of the Imperial Greek poets Lucillius and Nicarchus.

Lucillius and Nicarchus wrote almost exclusively invective poetry making fun of types rather than of clearly identifiable historical figures, and the majority of their poems end in "point". This verse clearly stimulated Martial's own invective verse, but the style of Martial's epigrams owes less to these Greek poets than to'Seneca' and Catullus. From his Latin predecessors and perhaps also his contemporaries, Martial took not only the subjects and themes of many of his poems, but also their preferred meters, the arrangement of poems in pairs and cycles within his books, and a marked tendency to repeat a vocative or even a whole verse from the beginning of the poem at its end. There is also a striking resemblance in the use of verbal repetition, parallel structure, and antithesis in Martial and in the elegiac poetry of Catullus and 'Seneca'. Though Martial could have found these features in the Greeks as well, his predilection for other aspects of the style of Latin epigram indicates that the influence of Greek verse was less important.

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The single most important characteristic of Martial's verse, responsible for his popularity not only among his contemporaries but also among Renaissance and more recent readers, is the artful way he fashioned the witty "point" at the end of the poem. Although Martial was clearly inspired by Lucillius to write verse in this way, the ingredients he used to sharpen his "point" owe much to traditional ways of ending Greek and Latin epigram, such as change or repetition of address, or the alteration of syntax or verb mood. His own contribution was also substantial, and his talent for comic verse was decisive in determining the future of the genre.

It is the invective poetry of Martial that, for better or for worse, fixed the epigram in European literature as a humorous poem with a clever ending. It was not originally like this but began as an epitaph or dedication in verse, as an inscription on a tomb or a statue. Though never entirely losing its connection to inscription, it became with the Hellenists and Catullus something much richer not only in theme but also in style. An epigram could be an invitation, a story, a declaration of love, a plea for understanding and compassion, a testament of conviction. It could be a poem of the plainest sort, of one or more declarative statements in meter but otherwise almost like prose; or it could be crafted with nearly every rhetorical device the ancient world knew how to muster: elaborate syntax, changes in verb mood, vocatives, address, antithesis, parallel structure, verbal repetition, analogy, and complex logical argument. Martial inherited this tradition and implemented it in his own verse, but in doing so he selected for most of his poems only a subset of its many possibilities. The choices Martial made ultimately determined the form of the epigram as we now know it.

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I hope I have provided a clearer understanding of the changes in style that accompanied the development of epigram from its simplest form to the more sophisticated verse of the 3rd century Hellenists and their Latin successors, from the earliest inscriptions to the verse of the masters of epigram: Catullus, Callimachus, and Martial. I have also attempted to provide new tools for the analysis of style, which have the virtue that they do not depend upon particularities of vocabulary or word usage and can therefore be used to compare poems in different languages. These tools may be useful for other classical poetry, for tracing similarities for example in the style of composition of the Horatian Ode with the poetry of possible Greek and Latin predecessors. They might also be helpful in a similar approach to the history of composition of the sonnet, from Dante and Petrarch to DuBellay and Ronsard, and then to Shakespeare, Elizabeth Barrett Browning, and Robert Frost.

The investigation of the nature of composition of ancient poetry not only reveals relationships between different poets, in some cases well established but in others only dimly suspected. It also gives us a glimpse of the poet with pen (or stylus) in hand. For the writing of poetry must be mastered like any other art form. To see how the composition of ancient poetry changed is to understand more clearly how poets learned from one another. And since even the poetry of the present has its roots ultimately in the verse of Greek and Latin poets, the study of composition in classical verse also gives us a deeper understanding of composition in our own.

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Appendix I: Apostrophe and σφρηγίς in the Theognidean Sylloge[234]

One of the characteristic features of elegiac verse in the *Theognidean Sylloge* is the large number of lines containing vocatives to Cyrnus, the young man to whom Theognis addresses his instructional poetry in lines 19-30 of the *Sylloge*. These vocatives have some peculiar features. In the majority of verse groupings (which for convenience I shall refer to as poems[235]), the vocative is given without an accompanying verb or pronoun or pronominal adjective in the second person singular. Lines 337-40 are typical:

> Ζεύς μοι τῶν τε φίλων δοίη τίσιν, οἵ με φιλεῦσιν,
> τῶν τ' ἐχθρῶν μεῖζον Κύρνε δυνησόμενον.
> χοὕτως ἂν δοκέοιμι μετ' ἀνθρώπων θεὸς εἶναι,
> εἴ μ' ἀποτεισάμενον μοῖρα κίχηι θανάτου.

The vocative Κύρνε is inserted in the second line, but the rest of the poem is in the first and third person, and Cyrnus is not otherwise addressed. Cyrnus plays no essential role in the poem, and the vocative could have been omitted without any loss of meaning.[236] This is true for most of the poems containing a vocative to Cyrnus: 42 of 70 (60%) lack any other form of second-person singular address.[237]

The reason this is odd is that for vocatives of any other sort in the *Sylloge*, quite the opposite is true. Many of the poems in the *Sylloge* address other named people (Democles, Simonides, Timagoras), the poet's boy-friend (the παῖ of *Book* 2), wine, wealth, poverty and an assortment of gods (Apollo, Artemis, Eros). Of the 60 poems containing a vocative of this sort, all but four have at least one second-person singular verb or pronoun or pronominal adjective[238], and many have several[239]. Lines 753-56 are

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typical:

ταῦτα μαθὼν φίλ' ἑταῖρε δικαίως χρήματα ποιοῦ,
σώφρονα θυμὸν ἔχων ἐκτὸς ἀτασθαλίης,
αἰεὶ τῶνδ' ἐπέων μεμνημένος· εἰς δὲ τελευτὴν
αἰνήσεις μύθωι σώφρονι πειθόμενος.

In addition to two second-person singular verbs, the first in the same line as the vocative, there are also four participles modifying the subject, the 'dear companion' not otherwise identified. Additional address assumes an important role in the structure of these verses, as it does in the overwhelming majority of the poems when the vocative is not Κύρνε.[240]

One possible explanation for this difference is that many of the vocatives to Cyrnus, which are numerous in two-line poems, occur in fragments formerly attached to other verses. One could, for example, connect lines 631-32,

ὦιτινι μὴ θυμοῦ κρέσσων νόος, αἰὲν ἐν ἄταις
Κύρνε καὶ ἐν μεγάλαις κεῖται ἀμηχανίαις.

which have a vocative but no second-person verb, with lines 633-34 that immediately follow in the *Sylloge*,

βουλεύου δὶς καὶ τρίς, ὅ τοί κ' ἐπὶ τὸν νόον ἔλθηι·
ἀτηρὸς γάρ τοι λάβρος ἀνὴρ τελέθει.

which have a second-person verb but no vocative. This would make one poem with perfectly good sense, eliminating the anomaly.

Although some of the shorter poems are very likely to be fragments of other poems, this is not a satisfactory explanation of the disparity in the treatment of vocatives. In the poems that contain both a vocative and some other form of second-person singular address, the vocative and verb/pronoun/adjective are generally in the same couplet[241] and often in the same line[242], as in lines 753-56 above. Furthermore, many of the poems with

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vocatives not to Cyrnus are short: there are, for example, 11 with two lines and 28 with four. Of these 39 poems, all but one has at least one second-person singular verb/pronoun/adjective explicit or understood, whereas of the 55 poems with 4 lines or less that contain a vocative to Cyrnus, only 17 do so. Since there is no evident reason why poems containing Κύρνε would be more likely to be fragments than the other poems in the *Sylloge*, we are left with the anomaly that in most instances Κύρνε was inserted into a context lacking the more extensive second-person address of the sort usually found for other kinds of vocatives.

Why should this be so? One possible explanation is that poems containing Κύρνε were of two sorts, written by different poets. Those containing a second-person verb/pronoun/adjective in addition to the vocative might, for example, be supposed to be the authentic work of the poet Theognis, and the others might have been written by a later writer who inserted the vocative in imitation. An explanation of this sort is unlikely, however, since poems containing Κύρνε and lacking a second-person verb/pronoun/adjective are nearly as numerous (12/24 or 50%) in the poems of lines 19-254, which West (1974:45) calls the 'Florilegium Purum', most of which is generally agreed to form a coherent work, perhaps largely of Theognis himself; and of lines 255-1022 (17/27 or 63%), which West calls the 'Excerpta Meliora'. Poems containing other sorts of vocatives are also found in all parts of the *Sylloge*, though they are less frequent in the Florilegium Purum than elsewhere. These poems are however so similar in style and subject matter to the Κύρνε poems that some relatively large number were almost certainly written by the same poet.

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Another possibility is that Theognis actually wrote something that could fitly have been described by the phrase later used of the extant *Sylloge*, πρὸς Κύρνον τὸν αὐτοῦ ἐρώμενον γνωμολογίαν δι' ἐλεγείων (*Suda* ii.692.13 Adler). Within this work Theognis placed the vocative Κύρνε perhaps in every poem (Jacoby 1931:157; Carrière 1948:115; West 1974:41), even when Cyrnus was not otherwise addressed. Theognis might have done this as a matter of style, or perhaps out of affection for Cyrnus. In lines 239-40, the poet says

> θοίνηις δὲ καὶ εἰλαπίνηισι παρέσσηι
> ἐν πάσαις, πολλῶν κείμενος ἐν στόμασιν,

One way to put Cyrnus 'in the mouths of many' would be to put his name in every poem, even when no actual address to Cyrnus was otherwise intended.

The numerous occurrences of Κύρνε could also have been inserted to mark the poems in some way. Theognis says (in lines 19-23),

> Κύρνε, σοφιζομένωι μὲν ἐμοὶ σφρηγὶς ἐπικείσθω
> τοῖσδ' ἔπεσιν—λήσει δ' οὔποτε κλεπτόμενα,
> οὐδέ τις ἀλλάξει κάκιον τοὐσθλοῦ παρεόντος,
> ὧδε δὲ πᾶς τις ἐρεῖ· 'Θεύγνιδός ἐστιν ἔπη
> τοῦ Μεγαρέως'·

The nature of this σφρηγίς or 'seal' has been much debated[243]. The peculiar way in which Κύρνε is placed in many of the verses without additional second-person address supports the notion that Κύρνε marked the authorship of the poems. This possibility is often discounted[244], in part because it is strange, as Woodbury put it, 'that so thorough an attempt to protect literary copyright should have proved so signal a failure' (Woodbury 1952:22). But though much of the *Theognidean Sylloge* may be a hodgepodge of elegiac verse of multiple and often undetermined authorship, the only poems within the *Sylloge*

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that most will agree to be the genuine work of Theognis contain the vocative Κύρνε.

Perhaps the seal wasn't such a failure after all.

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Appendix II: Composition in the *Corpus Priapeorum*

In addition to Catullus and Martial, we have one other group of Latin poems in hendecasyllables, elegiacs, and iambics/choliambics, the so-called *Corpus Priapeorum* or *Carmina Priapea*[245], written during the first or early second century AD. This is a collection of 80 poems on themes related to the god Priapus, whose statue with prominent phallus was often placed in Roman gardens and orchards purportedly to chase away thieves. The authorship of this work is disputed, and at least some of the poems were once thought to be by Ovid. The elder Seneca (*Contr.* I.2.22) quotes a quip of Mamercus Scaurus, who upon hearing another speaker say of a virgin who was fearful on her wedding night, that she let her new husband make love in a place nearby, *statim Ovidianum illud 'inepta loci'*, "at once replied with this phrase of Ovid's, *inepta loci*". Now lines 7 and 8 of poem 3 of the *Corpus Priapeorum* read

> quod uirgo prima cupido dat nocte marito,
> dum timet alterius uolnus inepta loci.

and it would seem therefore that Scaurus was citing this poem and attesting Ovid as its author.

The notion that Ovid wrote this poem has been widely disputed[246]. It would be equally possible to suppose that Scaurus and the author of *CP* 3 were both citing a poem of Ovid now lost. There are many reasons for supposing the *Corpus Priapeorum* to be the work of a single author (Buchheit 1962; Citroni 1994:411; Kloss 2003): the unity of theme and style, the many verbal correspondences between different poems (see also Goldberg 1992:32-3), the compulsive alternation of poems of different meters, the

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placement of poems in cycles, and the lack of any indication that the collection is an anthology (absence of alphabetical ordering or of lemmata). But if the *Corpus* is by a single author, it is improbable that it is the work of Ovid, since many words used in the *Corpus* do not otherwise appear in Latin literature before Nero (Kloss 2003:480). A date later than Ovid seems required. Ovid also seems unlikely as the author of a book in which homosexual sex plays such a large role (Tränkle 1998:150).

Buchheit thought that there were so many correspondences between the *Corpus Priapeorum* and Martial that we are obliged to give it a *terminus post quem* of at least 100 AD (Buchheit 1962:121). His best argument for a date later than Martial is probably the comparison of *CP* 19 with Martial VI 71. Both are poems about a dancer with the same name, Telethusa, who in Martial is able to get an erection out of Pelias and Priam, and in *CP* 19

> haec sic non modo te, Priape, posset, (*CP* 19:5-6)
> priuignum quoque sed mouere Phaedrae.

As Buchheit points out (1962:118-20), this poem seems to take us out of the normal realm of Priapean poetry, since Hippolytus could conceivably require an erotic dancer for an erection but Priapus most assuredly would not[247]. The motif of Priapean poetry is apparently superimposed upon the theme of Martial's poem.

An even stronger argument for a date after Martial is given by Citroni (1994:411), who points to correspondences between *CP* 1, a thematic poem that asks the reader to *pone supercilium* from *lusus procaces*; and Martial I 4 addressed to Domitium, asking him also to *pone supercilium* from Martial's poetry. Citroni (1975:31; 1994:411-2)

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argues that it is highly unlikely that Martial would cite a passage from a collection of obscene poetry to bolster his case to Domitian, but "it would on the contrary be perfectly natural to think that the author of the *Priapea* would recall the precedent of a prestigious poet, who succeeded in making his licentious poetry acceptable even to an emperor who was a severe custodian of morals"[248].

Buchheit (1962:29-42) also argued that the poems must have been composed "under the spell of Martial"[249] since they show a similar propensity to string together a succession of arguments or facts, for example with *non. . .non. . .nec* or the like, and since parallel structure, logical ordering, and "point" are common in the *Corpus Priapeorum*. None of this is convincing, since these are all characteristics of much other Greek and Latin epigram and are certainly not peculiar to Martial. Furthermore, a closer look at the composition of the poems indicates that the author of the *Corpus Priapeorum*, whoever he was and whenever he wrote, was not imitating the style of Martial, at least not the Martial of Books I-XII. The differences are everywhere in the poems, from their beginnings to the way the poems come to a conclusion.

In the following table, I have collected the percentages of poems in the *Corpus Priapeorum* which begin with a sentence that is declarative with or without vocative, or with some other syntax[250]: I also give the percentages having a vocative anywhere in the poem and incorporating explicit address. Finally, as in Table 8, I give the frequency of poems having a vocative in the last three lines[251]. I give the percentages only for the elegiac and hendecasyllabic poems, since these are the most frequent meters used in the *Corpus Priapeorum*. The percentages for Martial are for the poems from Books I-XII

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only.

Table 9: Martial and the Corpus Priapeorum

	Declare	Declare vocative	Other	Any vocative	Explicit address	Vocative at end	n
Martial HDS	34%	43%	24%	83%	85%	47%	226
Martial ED	39%	39%	22%	78%	85%	51%	857
Corpus HDS	57%	16%	27%	35%	62%	11%	37
Corpus ED	44%	16%	38%	56%	72%	44%	32

There are several important differences between the poems of Books I-XII and those in the *Corpus Priapeorum*. The frequency of poems that begin with a declarative sentence that have a vocative is much smaller in the *Corpus Priapeorum* than in Martial[252]. We saw that this was a distinguishing feature of the poems of Martial, probably the result of the influence of Catullus (see Table 7, p. 148). The poems of both poets are about twice as likely to begin with a sentence of this sort than the poems of the *Corpus Priapeorum* or any other Greek or Latin epigram. The percentage with a vocative anywhere in the poem (column 5) is also lower in the poems of the *Corpus Priapeorum* than in Martial[253], and this is also true of explicit address (column 6), particularly in the poems in hendecasyllables.

In Martial, the frequencies of poems that begin with a syntax other than a declarative sentence and that have a vocative anywhere in the poem are somewhat larger for the hendecasyllabic poems than for the poems in elegiacs. In Chapter 3 (see pp. 150-1), I argued that Martial may have been particularly attracted to the style of the

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hendecasyllabic poems of Catullus, where this discrepancy is even larger (see Table 3, p. 122). For the author of the *Corpus Priapeorum*, however, it is just the other way around: It is the elegiac poems that more often have vocatives or address and that begin more frequently with questions, imperatives, or optative and hortatory subjunctives.

There are also important differences in the endings of the poems. Vocatives are less common in the last 3 lines of the poems in *Corpus Priapeorum* (Table 9, column 7), especially for the poems in hendecasyllables[254]. Martial often used the technique of repeating a vocative from the beginning at the end to make a subtle ring. This is found in nearly 20% of the poems in Books I-XII, but it occurs only twice in the poems of the *Corpus Priapeorum* (less than 3%, poems 42 and 50). About 60% of Martial's poems end with a declarative statement without a vocative, but nearly 80% of the poems in the *Corpus Priapeorum* end like this. "Point" is also considerably less frequent in the *Corpus Priapeorum* (Kloss 2003:477).

These differences are so marked, and Martial's practice in Books I-XII so consistent (see Table 4, p. 145), that Martial is very unlikely to have composed the poems of the *Corpus Priapeorum*, at least after around 86 AD when Books I and II were published. We cannot, however, exclude the possibility that Martial wrote this collection of Priapean poems when he was younger (Herrmann 1963:37), since they are not markedly different in many features of their composition from the poems of the *de Spectaculis Liber*. That can be seen from the following table:

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Table 10: Corpus Priapeorum, de Spectaculis Liber, and 'Seneca'

	Declarative	Declarative vocative	Other	Any vocative	Explicit address	End vocative	n
Corpus P	51%	15%	33%	45%	67%	25%	76
Martial dLS	66%	16%	19%	53%	56%	34%	32
'Seneca'	57%	22%	22%	48%	60%	28%	65

The first two rows give the percentages for all of the poems in the *Corpus Priapeorum* and the *de Spectaculis Liber*. They are similar except for the greater tendency of the poems in the *Corpus Priapeorum* to begin with a sentence that is other than declarative. Both show about the same percentage of poems beginning with a declarative sentence with vocative, and both use vocatives and address with similar frequencies. Vocatives at the ends of poems, and in particular vocatives repeated from the beginning are also similarly infrequent in both collections.

Martial mentions an earlier group of poems in I 113:

I 113

> Quaecumque lusi iuuenis et puer quondam
> apinasque nostras, quas nec ipse iam noui,
> male collocare si bonas uoles horas
> et inuidebis otio tuo, lector,
> a Valeriano Pollio petes Quinto,
> per quem perire non licet meis nugis.

Though he speaks of them with some disparagement, he is nevertheless careful to say where they can be bought. There are several Priapean poems in Books I-XII[255] also composed in hendecasyllabics and elegiacs, and they share themes with the poems in the *Corpus Priapeorum*. Martial says, for example, in VI 49,

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nascetur, licet hoc uelis negare, (VI 49:10-11)
inserta tibi ficus a cupressu.

In *CP* 41, we discover that whoever will not dedicate *uersus iocosos* to Priapus will be *ficosissimus*, "full of piles", presumably from excess anal penetration. The implication in VII 91 that wanton girls avail themselves of Priapus' phallus,

cetera lasciuis donauit poma puellis (VII 91:3-4)
mentula custodis luxuriosa dei.

finds echo in many of the poems of the *Corpus Priapeorum* (Vioque 2002:485), for example

sceptrum, quod pathicae petunt puellae, (*CP* 25:3)

and

quod totis mihi noctibus fatigant (*CP* 26:3-4)
uicinae sine fine prurientes

Buchheit acknowledged these similarities but argued that the author of the *Corpus Priapeorum* must have written after Martial, since if Martial had read these poems, which are so much more varied in their themes than the few Priapean poems of Books I-XII, he would surely have joined in rivalry and composed poems of a similar kind, especially since the poetry of the two is so similar in other respects[256]. There are, however, alternative explanations. If Martial himself had written the poems of the *Carmina Priapeorum* when he was younger, perhaps he was no longer interested in writing poetry of this kind, or perhaps he thought poems as obscene as these were no longer appropriate under Domitian. Martial's Priapean poems in Books I-XII are more polished than most of the poems in the *Corpus Priapeorum* (Willenberg 1973), perhaps indicative of a later

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date of composition. Furthermore, it would not have been unnatural for Martial to use *pone supercilium* in a poem to Domitian if he himself had used it earlier, in poems no longer suitable in an altered political climate.

Although the percentages in Table 10 for the *Corpus Priapeorum* and the *de Spectaculis Liber* are similar, that is true also for the epigrams in the *Anthologia Latina* attributed to Seneca, as the third row of Table 10 shows. Now I would certainly not want to suggest that 'Seneca' may have written the *Corpus Priapeorum*; there is no indication of this whatever. My point is rather that the percentages in the columns of Table 10 are evidence that there was a style of Latin epigram common to these poets and not very different from that of the Greek epigrams in the two *Garlands*; and that this style changed only with the publication of Books I and II of Martial.

In my view, the poems of the *Corpus Priapeorum* were probably composed at some time between the beginning of the reign of Nero in 54 AD and the appearance of Books I and II of Martial in 86 AD. They may have been written by Martial himself when he was young, as Herrmann (1963:54) suggested. If they were written after 100 AD, as Buchheit would have it, they were written by a poet who, though acquainted with the work of Martial, found its style uncongenial or somehow unsuitable. There was in any case little influence of Martial on the way this poetry was composed.

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NOTES

1. For a history of the term epigram, see in particular Gentili (1968), West (1974:2-21), Puelma (1997), and Gutzwiller (1998:1-6).

2. A papyrus from the middle of the 3rd century bears the title, σύμμεικτα ἐπιγράμματα Ποσειδίπ[που]. For a discussion of this papyrus, see for example Argentieri (1998:9) and Gutzwiller (1998:25).

3. By longer poems I mean C61-68. I shall sidestep the question of whether C76 is long epigram or short elegy. My own opinion is that there is no particular reason why we should not call it an epigram with some features of elegy. At 26 lines, its length is not unprecedented: there are epigrams nearly as long in Meleager, and the Vienna papyrus (P.Vindob G 40611) contains the first lines of two Greek epigrams with 20 lines, and one each with 21, 40, and 52 lines (Cameron 1993:10-13; Parsons 2002: 118-20).

4. "Catullo non fa altro che reinterpretare, con mezzi confacenti a lingua e tradizione poetica latina, risorse stilistiche e tecniche versificatorie ben integrate nell'immenso repertorio formale dell'epigramma ellenistico" (Morelli 2000:307).

5. These are the opening lines of *Sonnets* 18, 71, and 13.

6. I have excluded from consideration fragments 2b, 14b, and 58b, since it is unclear if these are parts of other poems (some believe 2b to be part of C2, see for example Pearcy 1980; Claes 2002:8-9). Even if these are taken to be independent of the others, they seem unlikely to be complete poems that include the beginning. For similar reasons I have excluded the *fragmenta* (Mynors 1958:106). Although there are additional *carmina* that may also be incomplete (for example C59 and C60, a representative opinion can be found in Hutchinson 2003:207), I see no particular reason not to include them in my counts, and my conclusions would in any case be little affected if this or that poem were received into the fold or rejected utterly.

7. C1, C9, C28, C29, C30, C33, C37, C40, C47, C52, and C60.

8. A listing of abbreviations and texts is given on pp. 233-4.

9. C3, C11, C25, C27, C32, C36, C42, and C43. (see Schnelle 1933:48).

10. Not just at the opening of both epics, but also at the beginning of the catalog of the ships (*Il.* 2.484 ff.), and at points of transition in the narrative (*e.g. Il.* 11.218, 14.508, 16.112).

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11. The infinitives in Callimachus' epigrams GP24 and GP33 and the second-person aorist subjunctive in GP52 function as imperatives.

12. C2 (though the reading of this poem is uncertain and controversial), C5, C8, C17, C24, C35, and C54.

13. Questions, imperatives, subjunctives in independent sentences and accusatives of exclamation are all "analethic" and similar in this respect to what Austin (1976:5-6) called performatives, since they are forms of sentences that are not in principle verifiable, that is cannot be said to be true or false. This is in contrast to declarative statements, which (at least in principle) can. The tendency of the poems of Catullus "to have a specific act in view" has been emphasized by Selden (1992:481-2). It is, however, misleading to see some poems as "performative" and others not, since the assignment of a truth value to a statement in a poem is an inherently dubious enterprise, and all poems in some sense "do" rather than "say".

14. C10, C34, C39, C41, C45, C46, C51, C53, C55, C57, and C59. In C55, I take *oramus* as the main verb of the sentence and *demonstres* as dependent on *oramus* with *ut* omitted but assumed (Quinn 1973:251)

15. "Die Polymetra lieben einen emphatischen Beginn."

16. C4, C29, and C52 in iambic trimeters; C8, C22, C31, C37, C39, C44, C59, and C60 in choliambic; and C25 in catalectic iambic tetrameters.

17. I have not taken into consideration fragment 78b. See note 6.

18. For the poems in hendecasyllabics and iambic meters, 9 begin with a sentence whose principal clause is declarative, 19 declarative with vocative, and 24 something else; for those in elegiacs, 20 begin with a declarative sentence, 17 declarative with vocative, and 11 something else. The probability of these differences occurring by chance is (from a chi-squared test) only 0.01, that is one in a hundred. Chi-squared tests here and in the following have been done in Excel without correction for continuity.

19. "Bezeichnend für die Epigramme ist jedoch die fast unbewegte, präzise formulierte Feststellung" (Schäfer 1966:16).

20. C17, C27, C31, C35, C36, C37, C42, and C44. It is of some interest that none of C69-C116 address inanimate objects. See Hutchinson (2003:216).

21. Vocatives occur in the first line in 73% of C1-C60 and 61% of C69-C116.

22. C8, C46, C51, C52, C76, and C79.

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23. The relative clause *qui flosculus es Iuuentiorum* in the first line of C24 is the equivalent of a vocative.

24. Like C10, both C 45 (*mea Acme* and *mea uita Septimille*) and C53 (*di magni*) have vocatives in direct discourse.

25. C70, C71, C73, C74, C78, C84, C85, C86, C87, C89, C90, C92, C94, C95, C97, C104, C105, C106, C114, and C115.

26. "denn daß sowohl der Adressat als auch der Verhöhnte unkenntlich geblieben seien, ist nicht wahrscheinlich." (Kroll 1923:243)

27. These differences are again highly significant. For the poems in hendecasyllabic and iambic meters, for example, 47 have explicit address and 5 not; and for the elegiac poems, 30 have address and 18 not. The probability of such a difference occurring by chance is (from a chi-squared test) less than 0.001, that is less than one in a thousand.

28. At C36:5, C40:2, C54:6, and Mynors frag. III.

29. For a discussion of the relationship between these two poems of Catullus and Archilochus, see Braga (1950:26), Fraenkel (1956:280), and Newman (1990:66-7).

30. This matter remains controversial. For representative views pro and con, see Cameron (1995:163-73) and Kerkhecker (1999:271-82).

31. Including the epodes, I find of Archilochus West frags. 105, 168, 172 and 113 line 7 ff., if ἀρχὸς is a proper name (see West 1974:128-9); and of Hipponax, West 28, 118 and 128.

32. For example 3, 4, 5, and 9.

33. The exceptions are C73 (imperative), C90 (subjunctive), and C106 (question).

34. In contrast to Mynors I have inserted quotation marks both around the corrupted word (*auelte*) in line 9 and around all of line 10 and have added a comma after *mihi*, since *flagitabam* clearly introduces direct discourse (Usener 1901:10-11). I have also amended line 11 as in Goold (1983:100) and Lee (1990:187).

35. "zu einer derberen Auffassung des *particeps* gezwungen".

36. Further examples include C3, C5, C6, C9, C17, C25, C31, C35, C44, C46, C50, C53, and C56.

37. There are particularly useful analyses of this poem in Schäfer (1966:5-10), MacLeod (1973:301), and Selden (1992:478, 484-9).

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38. Syndikus (1984:248) citing Kroll (1923:89) points out that Cicero had used a similar phrase apparently with complete seriousness in *Post Reditum Ad Quirites Oratio* 16: *Cn. Pompeius, vir omnium, qui sunt, fuerunt, erunt, virtute, sapientia, gloria princeps.*

39. The higher frequency of rhetorical or logical elements in the organization of C69-C116 has been emphasized by Schnelle (1933:76). See also La Penna (1956:147-9), and more recently Solodow (1989:318-9).

40. Some have suggested M. Caelius Rufus (see Kroll 1923:241; Quinn 1973:xix-xx; Syndikus 1987:1 note 3).

41. The word *quare*, though repeated at the beginning and end, is used in a different way: it is interrogative in line 1, "You shouldn't wonder *why* no woman. . .", but in line 9 it means "wherefore" and is a logical connective that introduces the concluding summary of the argument of the poem.

42. "Der unbekannte Adressat hatte eine Äußerung des C. als eine Schmähung gegen Lesbia aufgefaßt und sich darüber zu anderen ausgesprochen. Dagegen verwahrt sich C. und macht in seinem Ärger dem Unbekannten einen beliebigen, ihm gerade einfallenden moralischen Vorwurf."

43. *non potui, nec, si possem, tam perdite amarem* is usually translated as I have done, for example "I could not. If I could I wouldn't love so desperately" (Lee 1990:141). It is, however, usually taken to mean "I wasn't capable of abusing you, nor would I be so deeply in love if I could have done so. " But the poem places *si possem* before *tam perdite amarem*, and this is crucial to the logic of the poem.

44. C10, C24, C42, C45, C53, and C55.

45. *Salaputium* may be an accusative of exclamation, though it is also possible to take it as nominative with *est* understood. This makes little difference to the nature of the ending.

46. Catullus also does this at the end of C65, *ut missum sponsi furtiuo munere malum.*

47. Among the *carmina maiora*, the concluding section of C68 is organized around an optative subjunctive *sitis felices*, C63 a combination of an optative subjunctive and imperatives, and C62 an imperative *noli* followed by an optative subjunctive and exclamation.

48. Among the *carmina maiora*, C61 ends with imperatives and C63 with a combination of an optative subjunctive and imperatives.

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49. C8, C13, C33, C36, C50, and C52

50. C1, C3, C4, C8, C14, C27, C28, C29, C31, C35, C36, C37, C46, and C51. Change of address should be distinguished from change of verb person, which occurs for example in C6 and C32 (see p. 18), as well as in C16,

> uos, quod milia multa basiorum C16: 12-14
> legistis, male me marem putatis?
> pedicabo ego uos et irrumabo.

The change of person from second to first is certainly a feature of the ending of the poem, but it is the vocative *uos* repeated from the beginning, the sudden change to interrogative (the first and only question in the poem), and the repetition of the last line at the end that are primarily responsible for bringing the poem to its conclusion.

51. The exceptions are C1, C29, and C46.

52. C5, C7, C12, C30, C44, C48, C49, C58, and C59.

53. C48 is the exception. This poem is formed from one long conditional contrary-to-fact statement whose main verb is in the subjunctive.

54. The probability of the difference in the frequency of vocatives between C69-C116 and the hendecasyllabic and iambic poems of C1-C60 occurring by chance is (from a chi-squared test) about 0.02 (1 in 50) when all of the poems are taken into consideration, but it increases to about 0.1 (about 1 in 10) when only poems 6 lines or greater are considered and is therefore no longer significant. This occurs primarily because half of the elegiac poems have fewer than 6 lines, and this reduces the sample size of the remainder.

55. This difference is not however statistically significant. The frequencies are 38% for all elegiac epigrams (and the same percentage for poems 6 lines or greater), and 52% for the poems in hendecasyllabic and iambic meters (or 54% for poems 6 lines or greater). The probabilities of the difference in the two cases occurring by chance is greater than 0.1 for both.

56. Questions of this kind are found in C72, C77, C80, C85, C89, C92, C94, and C104.

57. "Die allermeisten von den kürzern Gedichten des Catulls haben schlechterdings mit dem Sinngedichte nichts gemein, als die Kürze" (Lessing 1771/2000:217).

58. C73, C74, C75, C78, C79, C83, C86, C87, C90, C91, C93, C96, C105, C108, and C111.

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59. See for example Wheeler (1934), Schmidt (1979), and the commentary of Syndikus (1984).

60. And a fourth time in a fragment quoted by Porphyrio, *at non effugies meos iambos* (*frag.* III, Mynors 1958:106).

61. For representative discussions of this point of view, see Wiseman (1969:1-31), Schmidt (1979), Skinner (1981), Scherf (1996), and Dettmer (1997).

62. Evidence for order within the polymetric *libellus* is assembed by Barwick (1957:312-5), Segal (1968), Wiseman (1969:3-13), and Schmidt (1973:217-221).

63. For order within the *carmina maiora*, see for example Wiseman (1969:20-25), Most (1981), and Martin (1992:172-184).

64. Discussions of the order of placement of epigrams within C69-C116 can be found in Barwick (1957:316-7), Wiseman (1969:27-8), Schmidt (1973:228-234), Dettmer (1997:171-226), Skinner (2003:60-142), and Claes (2002:120-4).

65. Note in particular C3:11, "qui nunc it per iter tenebricosum", which is similar to the last line of Simias GP 1 (*AP* 7.203) on the death of a partridge, "ᾤχεο γὰρ πυμάταν εἰς ᾽Αχέροντος ὁδόν" (Prinz 1911:20).

66. For discussion of this question, see Hezel (1932:16-7), Carilli (1975:942-5), Edmunds (1982 #186-8), and Marcovich (1982:132-3).

67. There are comprehensive treatments of Greek influences in the poetry of Catullus in Lafaye (1894:223-39), Hezel (1932),Wheeler (1934:218-41), Braga (1950:180-263), Bayet (1956), Carilli (1975), and Skinner (2003).

68. As Fordyce (1961:361) remarks, "the repetition of *dicit* . . . *dicit* makes it certain that Catullus had that [the poem of Callimachus] in mind."

69. The division of 3rd century Hellenistic epigram into two main tendencies retains its usefulness despite uncertainty about whether the poets formed an actual "school" in the sense of a group of interacting artists, or simply influenced one another largely or even exclusively through the publication of books (see Degani 1992:206-7; Gutzwiller 1998:121).

70. For discussion of this inscription, see Lausberg (1982:102-3), Ecker (1990:51-63), Powell (1991:142-3), and (Meyer 2005:54-6).

71. "Il verbo di dedica è forse l'elemento più costante. Pochissimi sono infatti gli esempi in cui il consueto ἀνατιθέναι non compare" (Lazzarini 1976:171).

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72. "Dagegen soll hier die These vertreten werden, daß das epigraphische 'Ich' des sprechenden Gegenstands sich der ganz selbstverständlichen Inszenierung der Epigramme als mündlicher Sprechakte verdankt. Ausschlaggebend ist, daß ein personifizierter Sprecher dem potentiellen Leser gegenübersteht, wenn dieser die Inschrift liest. So wird ein direkter Kommunikationsweg suggeriert" (Meyer 2005:72). The relationship Meyer is indicating, however, is not very different from that which exists between the voice of any poem and its reader. As we shall see, the high frequency of explicit address in Hellenistic epigram is much more likely to have resulted from its similarly high occurrence in short elegy than from the use of address in inscriptions.

73. The other two are *CEG* 227 (FH 39) and *CEG* 345i (FH 41).

74. But see Sourvinou-Inwood (1995:182-3). She claims that "in no archaic epitaph, whether epigram or prose inscription, is χαῖρε ever addressed to the deceased" and argues (*ibid.* pp. 368-72) that *CEG* 127 cannot have been a funerary inscription. The form of this inscription is however quite similar to that of other later inscriptions that are indisputably sepulchral and also begin with χαῖρε as the first word (*CEG* 530 and 655) or in the first line (*CEG* 719) used to address the deceased or the tomb. That *CEG* 127 is exceptional seems clear, but Sourvinou-Inwood's view that it is impossible as a funerary inscription because archaic Greeks would not have used χαῖρε in this way flies in the face of the obvious. Most archaic Greeks might not have, but this one did.

75. As often in Homer (see Munro 1882:162-3; Chantraine 1953:316-7).

76. I have not included lines West 93-4 and 1278a-b, which begin with sentences that are incomplete.

77. The percentages are similar in the hexametric epigrams given in Friedländer and Hoffleit.

78. I have included in this column epigrams in which an indicative verb in the principal clause of the first sentence is assumed (like *CEG* 132, see p. 63).

79. One inscription (*CEG* 512) and four passages from the *Theognidea* (527-28, 891-94, 1107-08, and 1318a-1318b) begin with exclamation and have also been put in this category. Potential optatives are treated like Latin potential subjunctives. If they are used to express possibility and are essentially descriptive (as in 645-46 of the *Sylloge Theognidea*), they are counted together with the declarative beginnings. If used as a polite form of imperative, I take them as hortatory and count them with non-declarative beginnings.

80. For the inscriptions from the *CEG*, I have included only those sufficiently complete to indicate clearly the principal verb of the first sentence and the presence or absence of vocative and explicit address.

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81. I have included among the imperatives sentences whose principal verb is an aorist subjunctive with μή expressing prohibition.

82. I have included among the optatives of wish sentences whose main verb is an indicative preceded by ὀφείλω and expressing a wish that cannot be accomplished. Potential optatives like potential subjunctives in Latin have been lumped with the declarative statements if they express possibility and are essentially descriptive.

83. Poems beginning with a declarative statement are particularly common among the Lithika and Oionoskopika, though there are several epitaphs like this too, for example AB 46, 47, 50 and 55 (numbers from Austin and Bastianini 2002). Other epitaphs begin with vocatives and declarative sentences, sometimes addressed to the deceased as in AB 53 and 56. Poems that begin with syntax other than a declarative sentence mostly start with imperatives, but there are a few that begin with questions (AB 102, AB 129 GP 3 *AP* 5.211, AB 132 GP 15 *AP* 7.267, AB 142 GP19 *A.Pl.* (A) 275, and AB 133 GP 22 *AP* 9.359) and one with an optative of wish (AB 139 GP 8 *AP* 12.131). Explicit address is nearly universal among Posidippus' erotic poems (it is lacking only in AB 137 GP 6 *AP* 12.98), but it is practically always absent among the Lithika and Oionoskopika, and many Hippika and Epitumbia also lack address. The structure of Posidippus' poems and his endings also show much the same variety as the epigrams of Callimachus.

84. GP 35 (Pf 11, *AP* 7.447), 46 (Pf 19, *AP* 7.453), 49 (Pf 50, *AP* 7.458), and 53 (Pf 23, *AP* 7.471). GP 53 has a vocative and address to the sun but in direct discourse as part of the narration of the poem and not from the poet or voice of the poem.

85. "In dem einen Worte ἀπέθηκε liegt die Poesie; weggelegt hat der Vater seine Hoffnung, nur so paßt das ἀπό; daß der Tote selbst die Hoffnung ist, also auch ἀποτίθεται, besagt, daß er dem Vater verloren ist, ganz weg. Nichts von einem Jenseits, nichts von Grabkult. Das wäre immer ein Trost. Vorbei, vorbei. Das ist alles; man fühlt es."

86. For a discussion of this issue, see especially Reitzenstein (1893:102-3),Walsh (1991), Meyer (1993), Köhnken (1993), Rossi (2001:5-6), and Meyer (2005:130-43).

87. Meyer (2005:143) expresses a similar opinion: "So wird das implizite Publikum der Epigramme des Kallimachos vor allem aus den literarisch gebildeten Hören und Lesern bestanden haben, denen wir als fiktive Sprecher und Leser in den Gedichten seiner Zeitgenossen schon begegnet sind. Ob diese sich dem imaginären Spiel der Epigrammatik aus Anlaß eines Symposions hingaben oder die Lektüre der Gedichte für sich allein genossen, ob sie von den Gedichten persönlich unbetroffen waren oder gar namentlich in einer echten kallimacheischen Grab- oder Weihinschrift genannt wurden–entscheidend ist, daß ihnen das Rezipieren von Epigrammen so bedeutend schien, daß sie die Gedichte auch in Büchern lasen und diese so in die Überlieferung

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eingehen konnten."

88. GP 15 (Pf 51, *AP* 5.146), GP 16 (Pf 55, *AP* 6.148), GP 17 (Pf 37, *AP* 13.7), GP 18 (Pf 57, *AP* 6.150), GP 19 (Pf 39, *AP* 13.25), GP 25 (Pf 56, *AP* 6.149), and GP 26 (Pf 48, *AP* 6.310). GP 16 has a second-person singular verb φήσεις that is not addressed to anyone in particular (like the *uidistis* of Catullus 59). This poem also has a vocative in direct discourse.

89. For example, GP 2 (Pf 28, *AP* 12.43), 28 (Pf 47, *AP* 6.301), 36 (Pf 22, *AP* 7.518), 54 (Pf 1, *AP* 7.89), and 56 (Pf 27, *AP* 9.507).

90. GP 1 (Pf 31, *AP* 12.102), 7 (Pf 32, *AP* 12.148), 12 (Pf 30, *AP* 12.71), 14 (Pf 5, Ath. 7.318 B), 21 (Pf 33, *AP* 6.347), 22 (Pf 34, *AP* 6.351), 34 (Pf 2, *AP* 7.80), 42 (Pf 61, *AP* 7.725), 58 (Pf 8, *AP* 9.566), and 59 (Pf 59, *AP* 11.362).

91. I have inserted punctuation after μόρον and ἤγαγεν, present in Pfeiffer but not in Gow and Page though clearly required for the sense of the poem.

92. GP 1 (Pf 31, *AP* 12.102), 3 (Pf 46, *AP* 12.150), 10 (Pf 45, *AP* 12.149), 28 (Pf 47, *AP* 6.301), 31 (Pf 13, *AP* 7.524), 36 (Pf 22, *AP* 7.518), 55 (Pf 6, Strab. 14.638), and 59 (Pf 59, *AP* 11.362). GP 36 (Pf 22, *AP* 7.518) has no second-person verb, but we may wish to take ἀεισόμεθα to include the shepherds. In GP 50 (Pf 58, *AP* 7.277), the verb is assumed.

93. *CEG* 131, 713, and 878 have vocatives ξεῖνε/ξένε to a passer-by without any other address; *CEG* 235 and 818ii have similar vocatives to gods.

94. The *Suda* (see testimonium 1 in Pfeiffer 1953:xcv) says that Callimachus wrote σατυρικὰ δράματα, τραγῳδίαι, κωμῳδίαι ("satyr plays, tragedies, comedies").

95. This is also true for the vocative Πολυπαΐδη, which probably also refers to Cyrnus. In 3 of 5 passages containing Πολυπαΐδη but not Κύρνε, no other form of second-person address is present.

96. For example C58, C111, and C113.

97. In the only inscription I have found in the *CEG* to have a question in its last three lines (680ii), the question with the address to Charon occupies the whole of the inscription.

98. For example *CEG* 110, 162, 487, 492.

99. The other poem among the ἐπιτύμβια of Callimachus in which no name is given (GP 50 Pf 58, *AP* 7.277) is of this kind, and the lack of a name for the tombstone is

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central to the poem. A sailor is washed up on the shore, and the poem begins by asking who this sailor could be.

100. As in Leonidas of Tarentum GP 73 (*AP* 7.478)–see Fantuzzi and Hunter (2002) 399.

101. The closest is *CEG* 482:2, ἐκ γαίας βλαστὼν γαῖα πάλιν γέγονα. Also close is Theognis 878 (1070b), ἐγὼ δὲ θανὼν γαῖα μέλαιν' ἔσομαι.

102. *CEG* 526iii and 680ii. *CEG* 591ii may be a third, also sepulchral.

103. GP 31 (Pf 13, *AP* 7.524), 40 (Pf 15, *AP* 7.522), 44 (Pf 14, *AP* 7.519), 50 (Pf 58, *AP* 7.277) and 51 (Pf 4, *AP* 7.317). I have included GP 40 (Pf 15, *AP* 7.522), since I am inclined to put a question mark or comma after the first word Τιμονόη rather than a period as in Gow and Page.

104. Reported speech in direct discourse occurs only in *CEG* 429, 512, and 530. It is possible it is present also in CEG 120, though too little of this inscription has survived to be certain of this.

105. I have printed the version from the *Carmina Epigraphica Graeca*, which is nearly the same as that given by Wilamowitz (1920:157). Maiuri (1921-22:462), who published the inscription almost at the same time as Wilamowitz, claimed that the first word should be αὐλή and not αὐδή, that is "courtyard" and not "voice". The reading of Wilamowitz seems greatly preferable, since, as Lazzarini (1976:129 note 249) put it, it would be "veramente strano che in un'iscrizione incisa sulla base di una statua votiva ci si riferisca al cortile in cui la statua fu collocata". Furthermore, at the end of the third line, Maiuri insists that the inscription should read εἴ με κ[ελεύεις and not εἴ μ' ἐπ[οτρύνεις, that Wilamowitz' reading is excluded because the last letter is more easily recognized as a kappa instead of a pi. The choice of reading here, however, has little actual effect on the meaning or structure of the poem.

106. I have printed the poem as in Gow and Page but have removed the "X" before the first response, "εἰ τὸν Ἀρίμμα τοῦ Κυρηναίου παῖδα λέγεις, ὑπ' ἐμοί.", since it is clearly not spoken by Χαρίδας but rather by the gravestone. Gutzwiller (1998:39-40) also prints "X" before the first response in the Greek but omits the "Ch" in her translation. See also Fantuzzi and Hunter (2002:432) and Meyer (2005:211-2).

107. "Der imaginäre Betrachter des Timon-Grabes stellt zunächst fest, daß der Adressat seiner Frage nicht mehr existiert, was jedoch paradoxerweise kein Hindernis für den Dialog, sondern gerade der Anlaß des Wortwechsels ist", (Meyer 2005:208).

108. "In ogni caso, la fioritura di questo filone epigrammatico nella prima metà dell III secolo a.C. attesta che l'idea in sè di una lapide a un defunto ignoto era qualcosa di

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atipico e singolare e paradossalmente poteva essere assunta a vero e proprio segno di riconoscimento per un personaggio atipico e singolare quale era questo 'inventore' della misantropia" (Fantuzzi and Hunter 2002:413)

109. See also 548ii, 549, and 551.

110. West (1982:49) says that "a few inscriptions consist. . . of hexameters and pentameters in irregular sequence", giving the impression that poems of this kind are rare. Although that is true before the 4th century, in the second volume of the *CEG* there are over 30 poems like this, representing almost 20% of the poems written in some combination of hexameters and pentameters.

111. Also CEG 98, in which the antithesis of flesh and bones is separated placed in the hexameter and pentameter.

112. GP 22 *AP* 12.105.

113. C71, C72, and C108.

114. For example in Archilochus *frag.* 14, line 2 (West 1971:6):

οὐδεὶς ἂν μάλα πόλλ' ἱμερόεντα πάθοι.

115. Though πάρειμι in the sense of *praeteribo* is not uncommon.

116. Also *Sylloge Simonidea* Page 29 (Paus. 6.9.9) and *CEG* 10iii, 313, 479, 528, 858.

117. *Sylloge Simonidea* Page 53 (*AP* 7.512) and *CEG* 105, 545, 549, 551, 593iii.

118. *CEG* 10iii, 545, 593iii

119. *CEG* 479, 549, 551

120. For example GP 11 (Pf 25, *AP* 5.6), 14 (Pf 5, Ath. 7.318 B), 45 (Pf 17, *AP* 7.271), 48 (Pf 40, *AP* 7.728), 61 (Pf 62, *AP* 6.121).

121. For example *Sylloge Simonidea* Page 11 and *CEG* 102 and 131, in each case signaled by νῦν and ποτέ (or ποκά).

122. "Il est probable que la dédicace authentique trahissait par quelque endroit le secret désir d'une mère qui aspirait à avoir un fils"(Hauvette 1907:329).

123. I have cited lines 3 and 4 of both poems.

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124. The argument of the poem would appear to exclude the suggestion of Livrea (1990) that we will find Timarchus among the blessed by discovering his name on the register of his tribe in Alexandria, or of Gutzwiller (1998:205) that "Timarchus' philosophical views on death and the soul are not to be found by a visit to Hades" but rather "from a perusal of his writings". If we have to go to Hades to find Timarchus, it is difficult to avoid the conclusion that the whole premise of the poem is absurd. We are told that if we seek Timarchus in Hades to ask him about the afterlife, we will find him not (for example) in the darkness of Erebus but among the blessed. This seems clear enough, but on reflection we realize that such a search is patently pointless, since the only way for us to look for Timarchus in Hades is for us to die too, and once we die we will be in a far better position than Timarchus was alive to know about the fate of the soul (Walsh 1991:90). It is impossible to be sure whether Callimachus was poking fun at Timarchus or at those who believed what he said–perhaps both (see Fantuzzi and Hunter 2002:434).

125. "Der Leser, der die Beispielreihe bereits als negative Folie zu etwas Positivem fest eingeordnet hatte, sieht sich durch sie in seinem Verständnis gestört; er hat das Bedürfnis, seine Irritation durch einen Blick zurück zu beseitigen, also sein fehlgeleitetes Verständnis zu revidieren, die Beispielreihe voll in die neue Perspektive einrücken zu lassen." (Schwinge 1980:104).

126. The importance of this couplet to the rest of the poem gives the lie to the claim of Gow and Page, that "the first four lines make in themselves a satisfactory epigram, and the proposal of Haupt (and others) to excise 5 f. as a later addition deserves serious consideration" (Gow and Page 1965b:156-7).

127. For a discussion of this poem, see in particular Reitzenstein (1893:159-163), Pasquali (1919:1150-1), and Wilamowitz-Moellendorff (1924a:172).

128. For example GP 4 (Pf 41, *AP* 12.73), 7 (Pf 32, *AP* 12.148), 9 (Pf 44, *AP* 12.139), 10 (Pf 45, *AP* 12.149), 12 (Pf 30, *AP* 12.71), and 13 (Pf 43, *AP* 12.134).

129. Examples of poems with short sentences and simplified syntax include GP 22 (Pf 34, *AP* 6.351), 31 (Pf 13, *AP* 7.524), 42 (Pf 61, *AP* 7.725), 51 (Pf 4, *AP* 7.317), 54 (Pf 1, *AP* 7.89), and 58 (Pf 8, *AP* 9.566).

130. For discussion of this question, see Hauvette (1907:331), Gow (1965b:178), Schmidt (1976:148), and Köhnken (1993:122-3).

131. For discussion of this poem, see especially Meyer (1993:167; 2005:196-8), as well as Köhnken (1993:128-30) and Fantuzzi and Hunter (2002:424-5).

132. "Was auf diese Weise zum Gegenstand des Gedichtes gemacht wird, ist die kommunikative Funktion der Gattung selbst." (Meyer 1993:167).

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133. At 16 lines, it is not only the longest of Callimachus' epigrams, it is one of the longest from the *Garland* assembled in the collection of Gow and Page, equaled or exceeded only by GP 64 (*AP* 6.219) of Antipater of Sidon (24 lines), GP 16 (*AP* 6.220) of Dioscorides (16 lines), GP 77 (*AP* 7.472) of Leonidas of Tarentum (16 lines), GP 20 (*AP* 9.437) of Theocritus (18 lines), GP 122 (*AP* 7.428) of Meleager (20 lines), and Meleager's dedication poem (GP 1, *AP* 4.1, 58 lines). Long poems included in collections of epigrams may not, however, have been as uncommon as this might suggest. There are probably two and perhaps three rather long surviving poems of Posidippus (AB 113, 114, and 118 in Austin and Bastianini 2002), though it is an open question whether we are to regard them as epigrams or elegy. The Vienna papyrus (P.Vindob G 40611) also contains the first lines of two poems with 20 lines, and one each with 21, 40, and 52 lines (Cameron 1993:10-13; Parsons 2002:118-20).

134. The μὲν . . . δὲ of lines 11-12 of the stranger standing near and the boys urging on their tops does not introduce antithesis but is used to emphasize the progression of the story.

135. GP 1 (Pf 31, *AP* 12.102), 18 (Pf 57, *AP* 6.150), 19 (Pf 39, *AP* 13.25), 27 (Pf 49, *AP* 6.311), 29 (Pf 21, *AP* 7.525), 30 (Pf 35, *AP* 7.415), 32 (Pf 20, *AP* 7.517), 37 (Pf 16, *AP* 7.459), 40 (Pf 15, *AP* 7.522), 45 (Pf 17, *AP* 7.271), 46 (Pf 19, *AP* 7.453), 50 (Pf 58, *AP* 7.277), 57 (Pf 7, *AP* 9.565), 60 (Pf 24, *AP* 9.336),and 63 (Pf 63, *AP* 5.23). I would put GP 24 (Pf 54, *AP* 6.147), 53 (Pf 23, *AP* 7.471), and 62 (Pf 36, *AP* 7.454) in this same category, though others may argue that the framing of the ending with a significant word in the last position of the poem is "point" .

136. Many inscriptions have vocatives near the end, but this is usually just belated address. The vocatives do not motivate the ending. Callimachus and the other Hellenists may have learned to end a poem in this way by reading Theognis. The conclusions of two of the passages in the Florilegium Purum are set in motion in this way, 93-100 (σὺ δέ μοι, φίλε, . . . φράζεο) and 183-92 (μὴ θαύμαζε γένος, Πολυπαΐδη in line 192), both also with imperatives that lead these passages to their conclusion.

137. GP 7 (Pf 32, *AP* 12.148), 12 (Pf 30, *AP* 12.71), 21 (Pf 33, *AP* 6.347), 23 (Pf 53, *AP* 6.146), 34 (Pf 2, *AP* 7.80), 58 (Pf 8, *AP* 9.566), and 61 (Pf 62, *AP* 6.121)..

138. GP 3 (Pf 46, *AP* 12.150) and 10 (Pf 45, *AP* 12.149).

139. For example, in Asclepiades, an imperative (or aorist subjunctive of prohibition) sets up the ending of GP 4 *AP* 5.158, GP 7 *AP* 5.207, GP 9 *AP* 5.7 (last word), GP 10 *AP* 5.150 (last word), GP 12 *AP* 5.145, GP 17 *AP* 12.166, GP 25 *AP* 5.181, and GP 26 *AP* 5.185 (last word). A vocative and/or introduction of address assists in motivating the ending of GP 2 *AP* 5.85, GP 3 *AP* 5.153, GP 8 *AP* 5.162, GP 11 *AP* 5.64, GP 17 *AP* 12.166, and GP 33 *AP* 13.23 (with accusatives of exclamation). Questions followed by

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responses are found near the end of GP 5 *AP* 5.210, GP 15 *AP* 12.46, and GP 16 *AP* 12.50.

140. For the dating of the earliest inscriptions in Italic languages, see especially Agostiniani (1982:271), Gordon (1983:8, 75-80), Watkins (1995a:45-50; 1995b:126-34).

141. Saturnian verses have been separated into cola as in Tanner (1961:218-225).

142. I am grateful to Brent Vine for indicating to me that the beginning of this epigram may have been a formula, since very similar phrasing is found in a nearly contemporaneous epitaph for A. Atilius Calatinus (Morel 1927:7):

> Hunc unum plurimae consentiunt gentes
> populi primarium fuisse virum.

143. The thirty inscriptions I have considered are as follows, given as *CIL* I^2 (*CLE*): 7 (6), 9 (7), 10 (8), 11 (9), 15 (958), 364 (2), 632 (248), 1202 (11), 1205 (13), 1209 (848), 1210 (53), 1211 (52), 1214 (55), 1216 (58), 1219 (185), 1222 (969), 1531 (4), 1603 (362), 1702, 1836 (62), 1837 (54), 1861 (361), 2138 (119), 2139 (152), 2161 (63), 2662, 3109a, 3197, 3449d (980), 3449g.

144. *CIL* I^2 1219 (*CLE* 185), *CIL* I^2 1837 (*CLE* 54), *CIL* I^2 2662, and *CIL* I^2 3449g.

145. *CIL* I^2 10 (*CLE* 8), *CIL* I^2 1222 (*CLE* 969), *CIL* I^2 2139 (*CLE* 152), and *CIL* I^2 2161 (*CLE* 63). Also the "Epitaphium Naevii" (Morel 1927:28), which begins *Inmortales mortales si foret fas flere, / flerent divae Camenae Naevium poetam.*

146. *CIL* I^2 1219 (*CLE* 185) and perhaps *CIL* I^2 1222 (*CLE* 969). I say "perhaps", because the poem has survived only in part, and the last two lines read:

> Omne decus uolt]us et eo laudata figura
> umbra leuis nun]c est paruos et ossa cinis.

Though the correction is uncertain, the temporal contrast between the face of the girl once praised and her present bones and ashes seems likely.

147. "Though, as Clausen points out, Ennius knew 'the poetry of Callimachus, or at least some part of it', there is nothing in these epigrams that has the least relationship to Callimachean epigram, or, in fact, to any Hellenistic epigram" (Ross 1969:139).

148. For a discussion of the appearance of the *Garland* in Italy and early Latin love epigram, see especially Wheeler (1934:66-71), Ross (1969:139-52), Cameron (1993:51-6), and Morelli (2000:145-223).

149. For example *CIL* I^2 15 (*CLE* 958), *CIL* I^2 1222 (*CLE* 969), *CIL* I^2 2662, and *CIL* I^2 3449d (*CLE* 980); but not *CIL* I^2 3449g, which like many early Greek epigrams has an

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uneven number of hexameters and pentameters.

150. The probability of this difference occurring by chance between the short elegiac poems of Catullus and the epigrams of Callimachus is (from a chi-squared test) less than 0.03.

151. The probability of this difference occurring by chance between the short elegiac poems of Catullus and the epigrams of Callimachus is (from a chi-squared test) only 0.002 (one in 500). If only poems 6 lines or longer are taken into consideration, however, the probability increases to about 0.08 and is no longer statistically significant, largely because of the decrease in the number of poems for both poets.

152. For a discussion of the influence of Hellenistic poetry on Catullus' polymetric poems, see especially Reitzenstein (1907:102), Wheeler (1934:218-41), Laurens (1989:184-91), and Hutchinson (2003).

153. "der erste, der sich eine deutliche, feste Idee von dem Epigramme machte"

154. *Volpone* III.vii.236-9; *The Forest*, 5 and 6.

155. *Epigrams* 2. All of the first four of Jonson's epigrams are loosely modeled on Martial I 1-4, and the sentiments in Jonson's *Epigrams* 2 rephrase much of Martial's preface to Book I. See Donaldson (1985:660-2).

156. *Epigrams* 101, see Donaldson (1985:660-2). Much of this poem comes from Martial V 78, X 48, and XI 52; "And I'll profess no verses to repeat" is XI 52.16, *plus ego polliceor: nil recitabo tibi.*

157. *Epigrams* 45, see Donaldson (1985:652-3).

158. Jonson (*Underwood* 90) also made what remains one of the best translations of X 47, Martial's famous poem on the good life.

159. The *me raris iuvat auribus placere* of II 86 seems to have been an early expression of pique on Martial's part and is contradicted by the many other expressions of his pleasure of pleasing *multis auribus*, which become more numerous in later books perhaps because Martial gradually became more confident of his popularity (see Gaisser 1993:208; Williams 2004:260-1).

160. See also VII 90 (an even book is a bad book) and VII 81 (a book with thirty bad epigrams and as many good ones *bonus liber est*).

161. Prefaces to Books I, II, VIII, and IX; I 1, 5, 63, 110, 117, 118; II 1, 77; III 83; IV 81; VI 65; VII 81, 85; and XII 94.

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162. Friedlaender (1886a:347) comments, "Nur hier. Ein Lustricius Brutianus Plin. *Epp.* VI 22."

163. As also the Zoilus in XI 37.

164. I 88, 93, 101, 114, 116; V 34, 37; VI 18, 28, 29, 52, 68, 76, 85; VII 40, 96; IX 29, 30, 76 (of a painting of dead Camonius); X 26, 50, 53, 61, 63, 67, 71; XI 13, 14, 69, and 91.

165. For a discussion of the poems of Lucillius that influenced poems of Martial, see Friedlaender (1886a:19), Autore (1937:97-8), Barwick (1959:34-5), Burnikel (1980:2-3), and Szelest (1986:2592-5).

166. Also (Martial/Lucillius): II 37/*AP* 11.207, IV 53/*AP* 11.153, IX 27/*AP* 11.155, XI 18/*AP* 11.249, and XI 84/*AP* 11.191.

167. For example III 23/*AP* 11.11.

168. Five give 'Catullus' in the same poem with 'Lesbia' (VI 34; VII 14; VIII 73; and XII 44, 59), four with the word *passer* (I 7, I 109, IV 14 and XI 6), one with Verona (X 103), one with epithet *doctus* clearly referring to the poet (VII 99), two with the poet Marsus again in a context of poetry (II 71, and V 5), and one containing the famous wish *uno sed tibi sim minor Catullo*, that Martial be second only to the poet Catullus (X 78).

169. If by invective we mean poems of abusive attack or that make fun of someone (including the poet himself) or some situation or occurrence, nearly two-thirds of all the poems in Books I-XII are of this kind, varying from about half in Books I, IV, V, and VII-X, to over 80% in Books II and III.

170. For the relationship of Catullus to Martial, see Ferguson (1963), Offermann (1980), Gaisser (1993:201-42), and Swann (1998).

171. For example Callimachus GP 15 (Pf. 51, *AP* 5.146); Posidippus AB 39, 78, 79, 82, 116 (GP 12), and 119 (GP 13).

172. Antipater of Thessalonica GP 1 (*AP* 9.428); Antiphilus GP 6 (*AP* 9.178); Apollonides GP 23 (*AP* 9.287); Diodorus GP 1 (*AP* 9.219); Philip of Thessalonica GP 2 (*AP* 6.236), GP 4 (*AP* 9.285), GP 5 (*AP* 9.307), and GP 6 (*AP* 9.778).

173. GP 23 (*AP* 9.224), GP 24 (*AP* 9.562), GP 27 (*AP* 9.291), and GP 29 (*AP* 9.419).

174. GP 7 (*AP* 9.239) and GP 12 (*AP* 6.244).

175. GP 10 (*AP* 6.161) and GP 11 (*AP* 9.545).

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176. GP 18 (*AP* 7.633) and GP 25 (*AP* 9.235).

177. GP 26 (*AP* 9.283).

178. GP 28 (*APl.* (A) 61).

179. This poem is ascribed to Crinagoras in the *Anthologia Palatina* but to Philip in the *Anthologia Planudea* (see Gow and Page 1968b:232). The authorship makes little difference to my argument provided the poem appeared in the *Garland* of Philip, which is very probable since it appears at the very end of an alphabetical sequence of poems (*AP* 9.541-562) containing poems of other *Garland* authors including Crinagoras (see Weisshäupl 1889/1987:19).

180. A parrot who says "Caesar" is described in Statius *Siluae* 2.4.29-30, and a more extended version of the story is given in Macrobius *Saturnalia* 2.4.29 though of a raven instead of a parrot.

181. Also I 55; II 53, 90; V 20; X 96; and XII 18.

182. These poems (with numbering from Shackleton Bailey 1982) are SB 224, SB 228, SB 229, and SB 392-461. For a history of the text and a diversity of opinion about attribution to Seneca, see for example Harrington (1915), Bardon (1939), Prato (1955) and Zurli (2000). Zurli's article also contains a bibliography of the literature on these poems. Three (SB 413, 460, and 461) differ in length and style from the rest and should probably be considered elegy rather than epigram.

183. For a discussion of the influence of Seneca's prose works on the poetry of Martial, see Friedrich (1910:passim), Barwick (1959:21-6), Szelest (1986:2606), and Sullivan (1991:100-2).

184. 'Seneca' SB 427 may have been the first poem in a series of love poems and may originally have introduced these poems in a collection of epigrams. The argument of *recusatio* in line 13 near the end of the 'Seneca' poem, *non deerit Priamum qui defleat, Hectora narret* is mirrored by a similar argument near the end of Martial's poem, VIII 3:17-20:

> scribant ista graves nimium nimiumque seueri,
> quos media miseros nocte lucerna uidet.
> at tu Romano lepidos sale tinge libellos

The same word *seuerus* is used by both poets to describe what they will be avoiding.

185. Martial does a similar thing in I 52:

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Commendo tibi, Quintiane, nostros–
nostros dicere si tamen libellos

This poem makes explicit reference to the beginning of Catullus C15 *Commendo tibi me ac meos amores*, but we only find out what Martial is commending at the end of the pentameter. *Cf.* also I 108.

186. Marsus: II 71, 77; IV 29; V 5; VII 29, 99; VIII 55. Pedo: II 77; V 5; X 20.

187. See Courtney (1993:300-5). The epigram on the two brothers (Courtney 1) is probably complete though corrupted; the one on Tibullus (Courtney 7) is also likely to be complete. Courtney 8 and 9 both on Atia the mother of Augustus may be complete, but there are reasons for supposing them to be fragments of longer poems (see Courtney 1993:304-5). For the relationship of Domitius Marsus to Martial, see also Byrne (2004).

188. VII 29.

189. I 7, 44, 61; IV 6; V 11, 12, 59; VI 21, 47; VII 14, 36; VIII 78; IX 42, 55, 89; X 48; XI 52; XII 2.

190. X 35, 38. This is not the Sulpicia, neice of Messalla, some of whose poetry survives in the *Corpus Tibullianum*. See Conte (1994:437).

191. I 61, 69; III 20, 64; VII 69, 87; X 48.

192. See also X 96, 102; XII 24, 75.

193. The following poems have been omitted from Table 4: *de Spectaculis Liber* 17 and 33 (incomplete) and 35-37 (probably do not belong in book, see Shackleton Bailey 1993a:39); II 73 (first verse apparently missing); V 27 (verses probably missing); and XII 28 and 38 (incomplete). In X 37 the beginning of poem is not a complete sentence and has no principal verb. This poem has been counted in calculating the averages of frequency of vocatives and address and of questions or imperatives at the end of the poem, but it was omitted from the averages of the syntax at the beginning.

194. The probability of the difference in the frequency of poems beginning with declarative sentences with and without vocative occurring by chance between the epigrams in the *de Spectaculis Liber* and, for example, Book I is (from a chi-squared test) only about 0.0005 (about 1 in 2000).

195. The probability of the difference in the number of poems with vocatives or explicit address occurring by chance between the epigrams in the *de Spectaculis Liber* and, for example, Book I is (from a chi-squared test) in both cases less than 0.01 (1 in 100).

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196. Weinreich (1928:160) comments, "Die Gedichte aus dem l. sp. [*de Spectaculis Liber*] und aus dem ersten Buch sind typische 'Sinngedichte'. Ein θέαμα der Arena wird als gegebene Tatsache berichtet; sie ist Exposition für die Reflexion des Dichters, für die epigrammatische Pointe, die den Vorgang in einer bestimmten Richtung ausdeutet." Although this is certainly an accurate description of the poems in the *de Spectaculis Liber*, it misses the clear stylistic differences between the poems in *de Spectaculis Liber*, which are similar in many respects to the Greek epigrams of the two *Garlands* or the Latin epigrams attributed to Seneca; and the epigrams in all twelve books of Martial's mature work (including Books I and II), which are in many respects rather different.

197. Every reader of Martial will know that the separation of epigrams into type is a hazardous business, since not all of the epigrams can be easily classified, and some of the sepulchral, dedication, and epideictic epigrams are also invective. The number of such epigrams, however, is fortunately not very large and would have only a small effect on the percentages in the various columns.

198. It is perhaps unnecessary to point out that these differences are again highly statistically significant. For example, the probability of the difference in the number of poems beginning with declarative sentences with and without vocative occurring by chance between the panegyric poems from Books I-XII and the epigrams in the *de Spectaculis Liber* is (from a chi-squared test) only about 0.01. The probability is even smaller for the other epideictic poems.

199. I have not included in my considerations the *Xenia* (XIII) and *Apophoreta* (XIV), which appeared after the *de Spectaculis Liber* but before books I and II, since those poems are too different in subject and form from the rest of Martial's poetry to make a comparison meaningful.

200. The exceptions are as follows (Friedlaender 1886a:27; Siedschlag 1977:130-31): I 49, III 14, IX 77, and XI 59 (alternating iambic trimeters and dimeters), I 61 (alternating choliambics and iambic dimeters), and VI 12 and XI 77 (iambic trimeters).

201. The probability of the difference in the number of poems beginning with declarative sentences with and without vocative occurring by chance between the epigrams in hendecasyllabic and iambic meters is (from a chi-squared test) is about 0.055 and not quite statistically significant. The probability of the differences in the number of poems with vocative or explicit address anywhere in the poem, on the other hand, are both about 0.02 (or 1 in 50).

202. Only poems of fairly certain attribution are represented. Of Philodemus I have used only the poems in Gow and Page (1968a) and not the additional poems given in Sider (1997), though some of these (*e.g.* Sider 2, *AP* 5.80) are very likely to have been written by Philodemus, as Sider (1997:203-5) has argued. Poems for the other *Garland*

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authors are again from Gow and Page (1968a). Of 'Seneca', I have used the poems generally attributed to him from the *Anthologia Latina*, namely (with numbering from Shackleton Bailey 1982) SB 224, SB 228, SB 229, and SB392-461. Of Lucillius I have again only counted poems of fairly certain attribution. I have not included *AP* 5.68, 9.573-4, 10.122, 11.111-116 (see below), 11.171 (incomplete), 11.173, 11.212, 11.281-2, 11.293-5, and 11.433. For Nicarchus I have not included *AP* 11.243 and 11.332 or the poems from the Oxyrhynchus papyri (Parsons 1999), since corruption or lacunae prevent a determination of some of the attributes of their composition. They nevertheless seem similar enough to the other poems so that their omission is unlikely to have affected my conclusions. *AP* 11.111-116, whose authorship is disputed between Nicarchus and Lucillius (see Longo 1967:74-5; Rozema 1971:157-8), have not been counted with either poet.

203. A fuller discussion of Martial's references to the poems of Catullus is given by Ferguson (1963) and Offermann (1980).

204. Catullus was probably influenced in this respect by Callimachus and the other 3rd century Hellenists, who also addressed places and things in their epigrams. Martial was familiar with at least some of this poetry as well as with the poems of the *Garland* of Philip, which also do this. It is of some interest, however, that Lucillius and Nicarchus never address animals or inanimate objects, at least in those poems that have survived.

205. 62 % of the vocatives not to people are in poems in elegiac distichs, though these poems represent 74% of Martial's poetry in I-XII; 31% in hendecasyllabic poems, though these are only 19% of the total; and 8% in scazons, not very different from their representation of 7% of the total.

206. For a more complete discussion of address in Latin poetry to animals and inanimate objects, see Dickey (2002:298-304).

207. Apostrophe like this is not uncommon in other Latin authors before Martial, for example in Ovid *Met.* IV.753-6:

> dis tribus ille focos totidem de caespite ponit,
> laevum Mercurio, dextrum tibi, bellica virgo,
> ara Iovis media est; mactatur vacca Minervae,
> alipedi vitulus, taurus tibi, summe deorum.

208. See also IV 31 and V 60.

209. And in the same position in the hexameter of several longer poems (VI 7.1, 53.3, 61.1; VII 12.1, 80.3; and VIII 41.3).

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210. In Lucillius, 24% of the vocatives lack any second-person reference. This is larger than Martial, for whom only 6% of the vocatives in Books I-XII are like this (5% of the poems in elegiacs, 6% of those in hendecasyllables, but 19% of the poems in iambic meters).

211. The one significant difference is that the poem in elegiacs disposes the question and response within the elegiac couplet, balanced between the hexameter and pentameter. I return to this point later in my discussion.

212. I have followed Friedlaender and Shackleton Bailey and punctuated the end of the second line with a question mark, though a colon or period would be equally possible.

213. For example, poems in hendecasyllabics are of the order of 65% invective, 35% non-invective; in elegiacs 60% invective and 40% non-invective.

214. I 61, II 41, III 38, V 10, VIII 73, and XII 44.

215. For Martial's relations with his patrons, see Holzberg (1988:65-73) and Sullivan (1991:116-130).

216. For discussion of this feature of Martial's verse, see Siedschlag (1977:39-45), Laurens (1989:272-84), and Watson (2003:19).

217. Paul Verlaine, "Art Poétique", *Jadis et Naguère.*

218. For a discussion of the formation and use of "point" in the verse of Martial, see Barwick (1959:4-9), Holzberg (1988:24-9), Laurens (1989:361-72), Sullivan (1991:237-49), and Watson (2003:18-20).

219. This is not to say that all of Martial's scoptic epigrams end in"point" and that none of the non-scoptic do so. There are many exceptions of both kinds. It remains true, nevertheless, that most of the invective poems have "point" and most of the epigrams of other kinds (sepulchral, dedication, panegyric, epideictic) do not, and that the percentage of invective epigrams in any given book is highly correlated with the percentage of epigrams with "point".

220. Of the *Garland of Philip* poets I have examined, the percentages are: Crinagoras, 28%; Antipater, 28%; Antiphilus, 29%; and Argentarius, 32%. The exception is Philodemus, 55% of whose poems have a vocative in the last 3 lines.

221. The probability of the difference (from a chi-squared test) between Martial's elegiacs in Books I-XII and the other poems in the table is statistically significant ($p < 0.05$) for Catullus' elegiacs and the poems of 'Seneca' and Lucillius but not for Martial's and Catullus' poems in hendecasyllabics and iambics. The same comparisons remain

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significantly different if only poems 6 lines or longer are taken into consideration. Particularly striking is the comparison between Martial and Lucillius: the probability of the difference occurring by chance between Martial's poems in elegiacs and those of Lucillius is about one in a hundred if only poems 6 lines or longer are taken into consideration, but one in 50 billion for all the poems.

222. Perhaps also *AP* 11.132, if ὦ ὕπατε Ζεῦ is addressed to Nero (see Rozema 1971:164).

223. In the poems of Books I-XII, the percentages are as follows: in the elegiac poems, 45% in all of the poems and 47% in poems 6 lines or greater; in the poems in hendecasyllables and iambic meters (mostly choliambics), 34% in all the poems and the same percentage in poems 6 lines or greater. The numbers of poems in each category are given in the last column of Table 8.

224. Other examples include II 41, 43; VI 19; VII 39; IX 57, 82.

225. SB 427. I say "apparently" because corruption in the second line is usually repaired on the assumption that the whole of the line is repeated at the end.

226. More examples of this can be found in the poems I have already cited, such as IV 53 (see p. 175) with a repeated vocative and question with response, and I 46 (see p. 172) and IX 53 (see p. 161) both with repeated vocatives and imperatives.

227. X 33.10. See also the preface to Book I, V 15, VII 12, X 3, and X 5.

228. Examples of poems on erotic and pederastic themes (which may or may not also be scoptic) include I 57, 71; II 31; III 33, 65; IV 22, 38, 42; V 46, 83; VI 34; VII 89; VIII 63, 73; IX 32, 56; X 66; XI 8, 26; XII 46 and 75.

229. "Manche Gewohnheiten hat er [Martial] von ihm [Catull] angenommen, namentlich seine Art, dieselben Worte und Phrasen zu wiederholen, sowohl bei der Bestätigung wie bei der Widerrufung des Gesagten. Auch in der Wortstellung und in gewissen Symmetrieen derselben, in dem Beginnen und Schliessen aufeinanderfolgender Verse mit demselben Wort, in der Wiederholung des Anfangsverses am Schluß des Gedichts, in der Composition, namentlich in der symmetrischen Gliederung der Gedichte in Abschnitte von gleicher Zahl der Verse und übereinstimmendem Ausdruck und Satzbau hat M. Catull vielfach nachgeahmt"(Friedlaender 1886a:24-5).

230. For example Petronius, see Müller (1995:176-195).

231. The only other ancient poet of shorter poems who does this so often is Horace, about a third of whose *Odes* begin with a declarative statement with vocative. Though Horace certainly influenced the themes and diction of Martial's verse (Szelest

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1986:2599; Sullivan 1991:103-4), it is doubtful whether the *Odes*, so different in form, played much role in the style of Martial's stichic epigrams.

232. "Wenn nun das Gedicht des Asklepiades ein "sympotisches Kurzlied" ist, seine Fortsetzung aber die Form der Aufschrift bewahrt, so verbürgt uns dies, genau entsprechend dem für beide giltigen Titel ἐπίγραμμα, daß auch die scheinbaren "Aufschriften" für das Gelage bestimmt waren, daß das alte Epigramm sich mit dem kurzen elegischen Lied beim Gelage zu einer Einheit verbunden hat" (Reitzenstein 1893:92).

233. "Die in letzterem auf Grund eines äußeren Anlasses einseitig und übertreibend durchgeführte Beziehung des literarischen Epigramms auf das Gelage is stark zu beschränken" (Reitzenstein 1907:72).

234. A modified version of this appendix is in press in *Classical Quarterly*.

235. Verse divisions into groupings are taken from West (1971). Divisions in some cases are controversial, and many groupings are likely to be fragments (see Hudson-Williams 1910:57; Bowra 1935:139; West 1971:173; Bowie 1997:63-4). As I hope to make clear in the course of my article, none of this affects my principal conclusions.

236. Indeed, through an understandable oversight D. E. Gerber (1999:223) does omit it in his recent Loeb translation.

237. I have excluded from this total lines 159-60, since the infinitive is the equivalent of a second-person imperative. One might wish also to exclude four poems that contain a first-person plural verb or pronoun (lines 819-20, 833-36, 1133-34 and 1217-18), and one with a second-person plural pronoun (1103-04). None of the percentages I have given are significantly altered if repeated passages are removed from consideration.

238. In lines 1257-58 (ὦ παῖ), a second-person verb is lacking but understood.

239. The exceptions are lines 503-508 (to Onomacritus–I take ἄγ' in line 505 as adverbial), 667-82 (to Simonides), 1059-62 (to Timagoras), and 1135-50 (to a friend) . Lines 667-82 have a first-person plural verb that may not refer specifically to the person named by the vocative. These lines were probably written by Euenos (see Hudson-Williams 1910:34; Bowra 1934:2-4).

240. The vocative Πολυπαΐδη probably refers also to Cyrnus, but I have not included poems containing Πολυπαΐδη in my counts unless occurring together with Κύρνε. Πολυπαΐδη is found with Κύρνε in three poems (lines 19-30, 53-68 and 183-92) but by itself in five. In two of the five (lines 79-82 and 129-30), Πολυπαΐδη is accompanied by a second-person singular verb in the same line, but in the other three (lines 143-44, 541-42, and 1197-1202), a second-person singular verb or pronoun or pronominal adjective is

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not present anywhere in the poem, the same proportion as in poems containing Κύρνε.

241. 25/39 or 64% of the vocatives in poems with Κύρνε, 57/64 or 89% in the poems with other vocatives. I have included the two poems with the vocative Πολυπαΐδη that have second-person verbs (lines 79-82 and 129-30).

242. 17/39 or 44% of the vocatives in poems with Κύρνε, 50/64 or 78% in the poems with other vocatives. Note that the poems with Κύρνε are in general less likely to have the verb/pronoun/adjective nearby in the same line or distich than poems with other sorts of vocatives.

243. For discussion of the nature of the seal, see Reitzenstein (1893:264-9), Hudson-Williams (1910:1-4), Carrière (1948:114-5), Kroll (1936:48-87), Woodbury (1952:20-41), Groningen (1966:446-9), West (1974:149-50), Pratt (1995:171-84), and Edmunds (1997:29-48).

244. See especially Kroll (1936:50-8) and Woodbury (1952:22-23). See also West (1974:149), who observes that Theognis says ἐπικείσθω not ἐπίκειται and argues that the usual understanding of this passage is mistaken.

245. Texts of the poems can be found in Vollmer (1923), Kytzler (1969), Parker (1988), and Goldberg (1992:46-7).

246. The controversy over whether Ovid is the author of the *Corpus Priapeorum* is explored in Buchheit (1962:15-7), Herrmann (1963:35), Richlin (1992:141-3), Kißel (1994 301-2), and Kloss (2003:406-7).

247. "Er steht ja ohnehin stramm und braucht dazu nicht die Künste der Telethusa." (Buchheit 1962:120).

248. "Sarebbe al contrario del tutto naturale pensare che l'autore dei *Priapea* si richiamasse al precedente di un poeta di prestigio, che era riuscito a far accettare la sua poesia licenziosa anche a un imperatore che esibiva una severa cura dei costumi" (Citroni 1994:411-2).

249. "In seinem Banne stehen auch die Priapeen" (Buchheit 1962:42).

250. I have not included *CP* 63, 72, 75, and 80, since for these poems there is either corruption or uncertainty about the beginning or ending.

251. I give the percentages of vocatives in the last three lines for all the poems. Were we to consider only poems 6 lines or longer, the percentages would be 50% for the poems in elegiacs and 9% for the poems in hendecasyllabics, not very different from the 44% and 11% values given in Table 9.

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252. The probability of this difference occurring by chance between the poems of Martial and of the *CP* is about 0.04 (or 1 in 25) for the elegiac poems and 0.001 (or 1 in 1000) for the hendecasyllabic poems.

253. The probability of this difference occurring by chance between the poems of Martial and of the *CP* is about 0.004 (or 1 in 250) for the elegiac poems but 3×10^{-10} (or less than one in a billion) for the hendecasyllabic poems.

254. The probability of this difference occurring by chance between the hendecasyllabic poems of Martial and of the *CP* is about 3×10^{-5} (or 1 in about 30,000) and still only 0.01 (or 1 in one hundred) if only poems 6 lines or longer are taken into consideration.

255. VI 16, 49, 72 and 73; VII 91; and VIII 40. Also XIV 70.

256. "Es scheint ausgeschlossen daß Martial sich mit solcher Dürftigkeit der wenigen Motive beschieden hätte, wenn ihm das *Corpus Priapeorum* bekannt gewesen wäre. Er wäre sicher damit in Wettstreit getreten, zumal die Kunst des Priapeendichters sich durchaus mit ihm messen kann" (Buchheit 1962:69).

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ABBREVIATIONS AND TEXTS

AB: C. Austin and G. Bastianini, *Posidippi Pellaei Quae Supersunt Omnia* (Milan, 2002).

AP: *Anthologia Palatina*

APl: *Anthologia Planudea*

C: *Carmina* (for poems of Catullus)

CEG: P. A. Hansen, *Carmina Epigraphica Graeca, Saeculorum VIII-V A.Chr.N.* (Berlin, 1983) or P. A. Hansen, *Carmina Epigraphica Graeca Saeculi IV A.Chr.N.* (Berlin, 1989).

CIL I^2: *Corpus Inscriptionum Latinarum, Inscriptiones Latinae Antiquissimae ad C. Caesaris Mortem* (Berlin, 1918 and 1986).

CLE: F. Bücheler, *Carmina Latina Epigraphica* (Leipzig, 1895, 1964).

CP: *Corpus Priapeorum* from F. Vollmer, *Poetae latini minores, II.2* (Leipzig, 1923).

FH: P. Friedländer and H. B. Hoffleit, *Epigrammata. Greek Inscriptions in Verse from the Beginnings to the Persian War* (Berkeley and Los Angeles, 1948).

GP: A. S. F. Gow and D. L. Page, *The Greek Anthology. Hellenistic Epigrams Vol. I* (Cambridge UK, 1965a) or A. S. F. Gow and D. L. Page, *The Greek Anthology. The Garland of Philip and Some Contemporary Epigrams, Volume I* (Cambridge UK, 1968a).

Pf: R. Pfeiffer, *Callimachus. Vol. II, Hymni et Epigrammata* (Oxford, 1953).

SB: D. R. Shackleton Bailey, *Anthologia Latina I Carmina in Codicibus Scripta* (Stuttgart, 1982).

Sider: D. Sider, *The Epigrams of Philodemos* (Oxford, 1997).

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